

FACULDADE DE ENGENHARIA DA UNIVERSIDADE DO PORTO

Implicit-Explicit Runge-Kutta Time Integration Schemes for Cilia Driven Flows

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Resumo

Os escoamentos em regime de Stokes, também conhecidos como escoamentos lentos, caracterizam-se pela sua estabilidade, ordem e baixo número de Reynolds, sendo predominantes em ambientes microscópicos onde as forças viscosas dominam. No entanto, essa estabilidade representa um desafio significativo na Mecânica dos Fluidos Computacional pois impõe restrições temporais rigorosas, determinadas pela condição de Courant-Friedrichs-Lewy (CFL) viscosa, criando desafios numéricos complexos, para escoamentos tão simples. Este trabalho investiga a implementação de uma família de esquemas temporais IMEX (Implícito-Explícito) Lineares Multi-estágios Runge-Kutta para mitigar essa limitação e permitir simulações numéricas eficientes.

O foco principal deste trabalho é o desenvolvimento de um procedimento numérico para modelar escoamentos induzidos por cílios. Para tal, o código interno da KU Leuven, SP-Wind, originalmente desenvolvido para simulações de parques eólicos, é adaptado para simular escoamento em canal limitado entre duas placas paralelas fixas. Mais ainda, um cilindro estático, representando um único cílio, é fixado na parede inferior.

Antes de sua implementação no SP-Wind, o esquema IMEX foi formulado, com análise das suas propriedades de estabilidade. Além disso, os métodos foram validados usando dois casos de referência: a equação de Burgers unidimensional e um escoamento bidimensional em cavidade conduzida por tampa. Os resultados foram comparados com dados de referência estabelecidos e uma análise formal de ordem foi realizada para o escoamento na cavidade. A metodologia numérica emprega diversos esquemas de discretização espacial juntamente com três métodos de cálculo da pressão, cada um acoplado a um *solver* específico: os métodos de gradiente conjugado e multi-malha algébrica para os casos de referência, e um *solver* baseado em decomposição LU para a aplicação dos cílios.

Foram desenvolvidos dois códigos capazes de implementar o esquema IMEX, cujos resultados foram considerados satisfatórios. O comportamento físico dos esquemas IMEX também foi verificado usando o caso de teste da cavidade conduzida por tampa, e o aumento admissível do passo temporal mostrou-se adequado. Infelizmente, a implementação no SP-Wind não teve sucesso, apesar de uma versão final ter sido codificada, devido a problemas relacionados às condições de fronteira apresentando resultados com caráter não-físico.

Palavras-chave: IMEX, Runge-Kutta, Cílios, Regime de Stokes, Equações de Navier-Stokes, SP-Wind, Cavidade conduzida por tampa, Equação de Burgers.

Abstract

Stokes flows, also known as creeping flows, are characterized by their stability, orderliness, and low Reynolds number regime, dominant in microscale environments where viscous forces prevail. However, this stability poses a significant challenge in Computational Fluid Dynamics (CFD), as it introduces stringent temporal constraints governed by the viscous Courant-Friedrichs-Lewy (CFL) condition, giving rise to complex numerical challenges. It is striking how such seemingly simple flows can give rise to complex numerical challenges. This work investigates the implementation of an Implicit-Explicit (IMEX) Linear Multistep Runge-Kutta family of temporal schemes to mitigate this limitation and enable efficient numerical simulation.

The primary focus of this work is the development of a numerical framework for modeling cilia-induced flows. To this end, the in-house KU Leuven code, SP-Wind, originally developed for wind farm simulations, is adapted to simulate channel flow bounded by two fixed parallel plates. In addition, a static cylinder, representing a single cilium, is attached to the bottom wall.

Before its implementation in SP-Wind, the IMEX scheme is formulated with a look at its stability properties. Furthermore, the numerical methods are validated using two benchmark cases: the one-dimensional Burgers equation and a two-dimensional lid-driven cavity flow. The results are compared with established benchmark data, and a formal order-of-accuracy analysis is performed for the cavity flow. The numerical methodology employs various spatial discretization schemes alongside three pressure calculation methods, each coupled with a specialized solver: the conjugate gradient and algebraic multi-grid methods for the benchmark cases, and an LU decomposition-based solver for the cilia application.

Two codes capable of implementing the IMEX scheme were developed, and their results were found to be satisfactory. The physical behavior of the IMEX schemes was also verified using the lid-driven cavity case study, and the admissible time-step increase was also found to be satisfactory. Unfortunately, the implementation in SP-Wind was not successful, despite a final version having been encoded, due to issues related to boundary conditions, the results showed nonphysical characteristics.

Key Words: IMEX, Runge-Kutta, Cilia, Stokes Flow, Navier-Stokes Equations, SP-Wind, Lid-driven Cavity, Burgers Equation.

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Declaration of AI use

The following chapter is an honest and open declaration regarding the use of Artificial Intelligence (AI). I, the author of this report, state that only free AI tools were used in this thesis. Their applications were purely auxiliary, namely: (i) to make the writing clearer and easier to read, (ii) to assist in the debugging process, and (iii) to help identify relevant references.

Regarding point (i), having dyslexia makes the writing process slow and challenging. I tend to make grammatical errors and produce poorly structured sentences, especially under time constraints. AI served as an optimizer, making the process faster and more accurate. However, at no point did I explicitly ask any AI to write text on a given topic for me. My process was to first write the sentence or paragraph myself, then paste it into the AI with the request: "Correct any grammar errors and improve the structure. Use proper language for a thesis report, be as direct as possible, and avoid excessive use of adjectives".

At the beginning of this thesis, I inquire my Mentor, Nick, whether I could use AI to help me write the code. My concern was that they might not allow pasting the source code of *SP-Wind* into any AI tool, since it is confidential. They gave me permission to do so, and I mainly used *DeepSeek* and *ChatGPT* for debugging purposes. These tools also assisted me in constructing the Burgers' equation and the lid-driven cavity test cases, mainly in the post-processing field. I emphasize that I never asked the AI systems to do the work for me, such as writing the code itself.

Lastly, I declare that I used an extension of *ChatGPT* of name *Consensus*, as a research tool for documents such as papers and books. With that I could easily navigate through web, finding great benchmark studies for the constructed test cases as well as fundamental works that support almost every section of this report.

AI is a powerful tool that, whether we like it or not, will be part of an engineer's life from now on. It has shown that it can coexist with the human mind and that certain tasks can be simplified with its assistance. It is up to authors to remain aware of its use and to be open to its declaration of use.

“We must use time as a tool, not as a couch.”

— John F. Kennedy (1917-1963)

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Abbreviations and Symbols

C_D	Drag coefficient of a the cylinder
Co	Courant number
Eu	Euler number
Fr	Froude number
Re	Reynolds number
St	Strouhal number
Ψ	Volume
ε^r	Relative error
Ω	Computational domain
γ_g	Euler–Mascheroni, $\gamma_g \approx 0.57721$
λ	Eigenvalue
Λ	Laplacian Operator for the velocity
ν	Kinematic viscosity
∇_n^2	Laplacian Operator for the pressure
ρ	Density
σ	Number of explicit stages
ϕ	Potential quantity
A	Runge-Kutta Matrix
AMG	Algebraic Multigrid method
ARC	Asymptotic Rate of Convergence
ASC	Ascher method
BC	Boundary condition operator
b	Weights vectors
CG	Conjugate Gradient method
CFL	Courant–Friedrichs–Lewy condition
c	Node vectors
D_{cil}	Cilia diameter
$\overline{E}_k$	Mean kinetic energy
E_1	Fractional error
FE	Forward Euler methods
f	Characteristic frequency
f_D	Body force component
G_i	Grid
GCI	Grid Convergence Index
G	Gaussian filter
g	Gravitational acceleration
H	Sum of the explicit terms of the numerical applied scheme
h_{cil}	Cilia height

IMEX	Implicit-Explicit
K	Slope variable
L_c	Characteristic length
L_i	Total length in direction i
N_{elm}	Total number of elements
N_i	Number of grid points in direction i
P	Total pressure contribution at the IMEX stages
p	Total pressure
p_0	Reference pressure
p_∞	Surroundings pressure
$\hat{p}$	Order-of-convergence
RHS	Right-hand side operator
RK4	Classical Runge-Kutaa methods, 4 stages 4 th order
r	Refinement ration
S_i	Grid set
s	Number of implicit stages
T_i	Temporal set
t	Time
U_i	Stage velocity
U_{lid}	Lid velocity
u	Velocity component in direction x
u_{min}	Minimum x –velocity component at the x –centerline plane
V_c	Characteristic Velocity
v	Velocity component in direction y
v_{min}	Minimum y –velocity component at the y –centerline plane
v_{max}	Minimum y –velocity component at the y –centerline plane
w	Velocity component in direction z
x_i	Spatial coordinate
$\mathcal{E}$	Explicit terms
$\mathcal{I}$	Implicit terms
Δt^+	Time step increase
t_{wall}^-	Total wall time reduction

Nomenclature

This document adheres to a consistent notational convention to ensure clarity and prevent ambiguity. The following rules define the nomenclature used throughout this work.

Mathematical Typography

- **Vectors** are denoted by boldface Roman letters (e.g., velocity $\mathbf{V}$, position $\mathbf{x}$).
- **Matrices** are denoted by boldface letters (Roman or Greek) enclosed in square brackets (e.g., $[\mathbf{A}]$, $[\alpha]$).
- **Scalars** are represented by italicized letters (e.g., time t , density ρ).

Superscripts and Special Symbols

- The superscript $^{(n)}$ denotes a quantity at a specific time step n (e.g., $\mathbf{V}^{(n)}$ is the velocity at time $t^{(n)} = t^{(0)} + \Delta t_n$).
- A superscript asterisk (*) denotes a non-dimensional quantity (e.g., p^*). Exceptions are the well establish dimensionless numbers, such as the Reynolds number (Re).
- A superscript number sign ($^\#$) denotes a non-conservative field.

Specific Symbol Definitions

- The symbol for volume ($\mathcal{V}$) is adopted from Munson et al. [1]. The uppercase $\mathbf{V}$ is reserved for the velocity field $\mathbf{V}$ of components u , v and w , respectively in x , y and z directions.

Chapter 1

Introduction

Fluid transport due to cilia movement is one of the most important phenomena in many physical and biological problems [2]. Cilia are slender, hair-like organelles that protrude from the plasma membrane of most eukaryotic cells and are built around a conserved “9 + 2” axonemal core of nine outer doublet microtubules surrounding a central pair, or “9 + 0” in primary cilia, together with dynein motor arms, radial spokes, and nexin links that generate sliding between adjacent doublets (see Luxmi and King [3] for a more complete definition). While cilia are generally involved in the transport of proteins, nutrients, or dust inside larger organisms, their functional importance extends across diverse biological processes. Figure 1.1 shows a schematic representation of the cilia given by Luxmi and King [3].

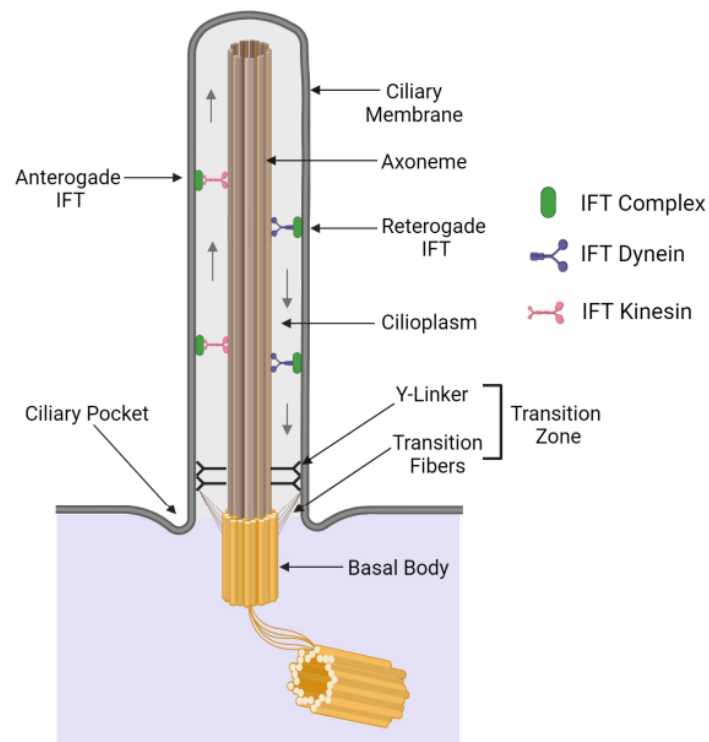


Figure 1.1: Generic schematic of 9+0 ciliary organization from [3].

The coordinated activity of these dynein arms produces a periodic, asymmetric beat that drives fluid transport at low Reynolds numbers, a mechanism essential for mucus clearance in the respiratory tract, cerebrospinal fluid circulation in the brain, and left–right patterning in embryos [4]. This cycle can be decomposed into two principal phases: an effective forward (power) stroke and a backward (recovery) stroke, depicted by Figure 1.2. During the forward stroke, the cilium extends nearly fully and sweeps stiffly in a directional arc, maximizing drag to propel the surrounding fluid. This is followed by the backward stroke, where the cilium bends sharply at its base and returns to its starting position close to the cell surface, minimizing retrograde flow by reducing its perpendicular profile. This asymmetry in form and drag between the two phases generates the net fluid transport. The precise coordination, or metachronal rhythm, between neighboring cilia — where the beat of each cilium is slightly phase-shifted relative to its neighbor — further enhances flow efficiency by creating traveling waves that propel fluid continuously along the epithelial surface. Numerical studies of the fluid–structure interaction between cilia and their surrounding fluid have been used to model their movement, as shown in the works of Chen et al. [5] and Decoene et al. [6].

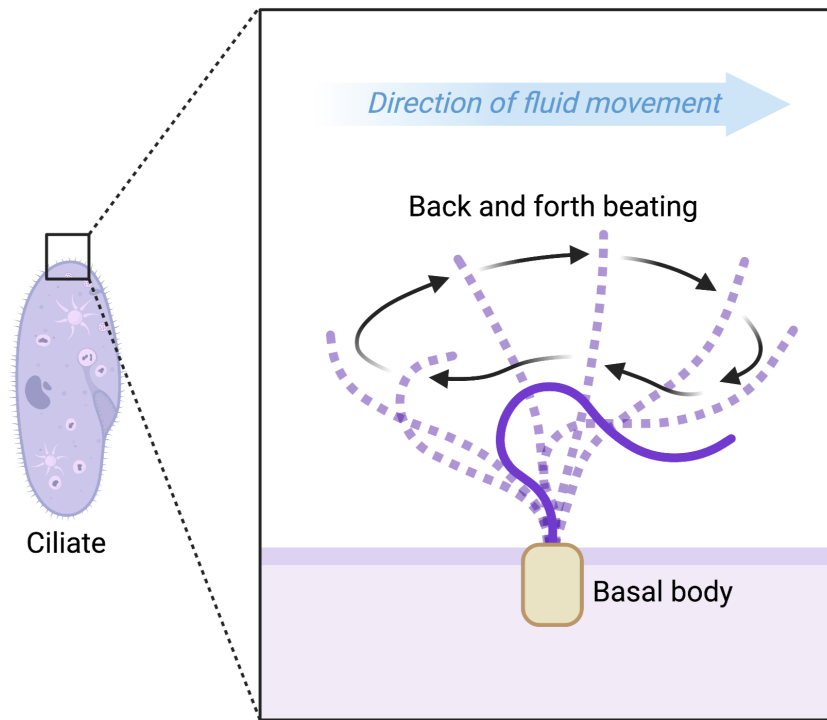


Figure 1.2: 1D scheme illustrating ciliary motion, which drives the overall movement of the organism. The cilium is fixed to the bottom plane, and the effective (forward) and recovery (backward) strokes are shown, from [7].

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1.1 Previous Studies

The study of ciliary flows has direct relevance to health. Yoshida et al. [8] studied the effect of ciliary disorders as a cause of hydrocephalus. They developed a cilia motility numerical model based on experimental data and applied it to a geometric model of the human ventricles, defined by medical imaging data. Their results demonstrated that reduced cilia motility does not significantly alter intraventricular pressure, however it severely impairs cerebrospinal fluid (CSF) circulation, preventing new CSF from reaching the anterior and inferior horns of the lateral ventricles. This indicates that ciliary motility disorders likely cause delayed CSF exchange in these specific ventricular regions.

In the same field, Salman et al. [9] studied how the tilt angle, quantity, and phase relationship of cilia affect CSF flow patterns in the brain ventricles of zebrafish embryos and defined the most suitable cilia configuration for transport efficiency. Their results showed that the cilium angle significantly alters the generated flow velocity and mass flow rates and that as the cilium angle gets closer to the wall, higher flow velocities are observed. In summary, the simulations revealed that the most efficient method for cilia-driven fluid transport relies on the alignment of multiple cilia beating with a phase difference.

Wuttanachamsri and Schreyer [10] in turn focused on modeling the cilia found in the human respiratory system. They set a benchmark study for the movement of fluid phases, based on a mixed finite element method of Taylor-Hood type. The results are validated in a simple case by comparison with an exact solution with good agreement.

Engineering applications exploit this biological principle in micro-fluidic devices, where artificial cilia fabricated from magnetic or polymeric materials mimic the natural beat to pump, mix, or manipulate small quantities of fluids in lab-on-a-chip platforms, for complete and detailed examples see [11].

1.2 Numerical Simulation: Low Re Flows

Because the characteristic length scales are too small for conventional experimental investigation, with Satir and Christensen [12] and Flaherty et al. [13] defining the cilia's height and diameter typically of order $\sim 10 - 15 \mu\text{m}$ and $\sim 0.25 \mu\text{m}$, respectively, numerical simulations have become the primary tool for investigating cilia-driven flows [14]. The world of microorganisms is the world of low Reynolds number, a regime where inertia plays little role and viscous damping is paramount. In this context, there are several ways to define the Reynolds number, as stated by [15]. Since our case will only describe fixed cilia normal to the ground, the definition that suits the most is the classical one, where:

$$Re_{cil} = \frac{U_{cil} L_{cil}}{\nu}, \quad (1.1)$$

with U_{cil} the mean cilia velocity, L_{cil} the cilia height, and ν the kinematic viscosity of the surrounding fluid around. Depending on the type of cilia and its behavior, Re_{cil} can range from $\sim 10^{-5}$ to $\sim 10^{-1}$ [15].

In computational fluid dynamics (CFD), simulating such low Reynolds number flows presents a significant challenge. The primary constraint is the strict time-step limitation imposed by the viscous Courant-Friedrichs-Lewy (CFL) condition, which can generate impractically small time steps, rendering explicit time-integration schemes computationally infeasible. Consequently, a temporal scheme that is not restricted by this viscous stability limit is required.

Fully implicit methods eliminate time-step restrictions entirely; however, their implementation is complex due to the non-linear systems that must be solved at each step. Recently, Implicit-Explicit (IMEX) schemes have been applied in this context [16–18], offering a simpler yet effective alternative that balances computational efficiency with stability.

1.3 SP-Wind

The numerical simulation of cilia is performed using the in-house code *SP-Wind*, developed at KU Leuven. The code solves the three-dimensional, incompressible Navier–Stokes equations, presented in Section 2.1, and supports both Large Eddy Simulations (LES) and Direct Numerical Simulations (DNS). *SP-Wind* employs a pseudo-spectral discretization, which is well suited for turbulent flows in simple geometries and delivers high performance in simulations of wind farms within the atmospheric boundary layer, despite its limited flexibility with complex geometries [19]. The code applies a fourth-order spatial integration scheme and an explicit fourth-order Runge–Kutta (RK4) method for time integration, see [20] and Section 2.2.1 respectively.

A central challenge in airflow simulations is solving the Poisson equation for pressure. General-purpose codes often encounter significant performance issues when solving this equation on large-scale supercomputers, since it requires solving a large system of equations across many processors. *SP-Wind* addresses this efficiently by using Fast Fourier Transforms (FFT), significantly accelerating the computations. Additionally, it employs an LU decomposition method (described in Section 2.2.7), which provides an efficient strategy for solving linear systems.

From a technical perspective, *SP-Wind* is written in Fortran 90 and is parallelized using a three-dimensional domain decomposition of the computational grid. Inter-processor communication is handled through MPI with pencil decomposition for Fourier transforms as well as fringe-region forcing. Turbine models are integrated into the framework. The code depends on HDF5 and FFTW libraries, with input provided primarily through namelists and output stored in HDF5 format.

SP-Wind serves both as a research and production tool. As a research code, it is under continuous development, with frequent extensions and experimental implementations. Consequently, it is provided without guarantees, and the source code itself remains the ultimate reference. As a high-performance tool for production runs, however, it has been benchmarked and profiled, providing a level of assurance regarding its efficiency and correctness.

The code has been used for the optimal control of wind-farms using the adjoint-based optimization method [21, 22], channel flow simulation [23, 24] and many other applications. In this thesis, a new case study is implemented in *SP-Wind* by modifying the boundary conditions and interactive elements. The analysis shows that the viscous CFL condition dominates, imposing a strict time-step restriction that prevents low-cost simulations. To address this, a code is developed that applies an IMEX scheme as the time integrator, based on the formulation presented in Section 2.2.3.

Lastly, due to confidentiality reasons we cannot show any piece of *SP-Wind*'s code.

1.4 Thesis Objectives

The overarching goal of this thesis is to develop a numerical model in which a fixed and static vertical cilia is placed between two fixed parallel plates and anchored to the bottom plate in a controlled environment. The work focuses on (i) implementing a simplified model for the cilia geometry in the *SP-Wind* code base, and (ii) designing, implementing, and validating a numerical code for time integration using an IMEX scheme. The objective is to assess whether increasing the time-step size through IMEX methods can compensate for the additional computational cost per step, which arises from solving an extra linear system. For the method to be viable, the gain in time-step size must be significant enough to reduce the overall wall-time and make simulations computationally feasible.

1.5 Thesis Outline

The thesis is organized into five chapters.

Chapter 2 – Methodology: This chapter presents the governing equations for Navier–Stokes and Stokes flows in both dimensional and non-dimensional form, adapted to the *SP-Wind* framework. The body-force term is introduced as the driving mechanism for approximating cilia geometry. Numerical integration methods, including Runge–Kutta schemes, are described with emphasis on their stability properties. Particular attention is given to the pressure projection method, as it constitutes a critical point in the simulations, together with the linear solvers required for both velocity and pressure fields. Fully implicit and IMEX schemes are introduced, motivating the shift away from explicit schemes limited by CFL constraints.

Chapter 3 – Numerical Validation: This chapter presents benchmark tests, including the 1D Burgers equation and the lid-driven cavity, used to validate the IMEX scheme. Results are compared with classical Runge–Kutta solutions. Convergence rates, physical accuracy, and time-step sensitivity are analyzed to assess the effectiveness and limitations of IMEX methods.

Chapter 4 – Application to 3D Cilia Flows: The validated IMEX approach is applied to three-dimensional cilia-driven flow. The case setup is shown to be consistent and to provide satisfactory solutions, but the classical Runge–Kutta scheme performs more robustly as a temporal integrator under current constraints. The challenges and computational trade-offs of applying IMEX schemes in 3D are discussed.

Chapter 5 – Conclusions and Future Work: The thesis concludes by summarizing the main findings and evaluating the potential of IMEX schemes for simulating cilia-driven low Reynolds number flows. Possible extensions and recommendations for future research are outlined.

Chapter 2

Methodology

This chapter presents the methodologies employed to model and simulate cilia-driven flows. We begin by defining the governing equations, the Navier–Stokes equations, with particular emphasis on the low-Reynolds-number regime, where the Stokes flow approximation becomes especially relevant.

The chapter then addresses the numerical procedures used for temporal integration. The family of Runge–Kutta methods is introduced in Section 2.2.1, while fully implicit methods are discussed in Section 2.2.2 as a theoretically optimal solution to time-step restrictions, although their non-linear character makes them computationally challenging to implement. IMEX schemes are presented in Section 2.2.3 as a practical compromise, where viscous terms are treated implicitly and non-linear terms explicitly. The stability analysis of these temporal schemes is divided into two parts: Section 2.2.4 examines the stability regions of each method and Section 2.2.5 derives the corresponding time-step restrictions, including the influence of the viscous CFL condition.

Finally, Section 2.2.6 examines the incompressibility constraint through the pressure projection step, which represents a critical component of the simulations. Both direct and iterative linear solvers applied to the velocity and pressure fields are presented in Section 2.2.7, with a discussion of their efficiency and scalability for large, sparse systems.

2.1 Governing Equations

In engineering, it is of interest to describe how fluids behave under various conditions to better understand and predict their flow. For this purpose, a set of mathematical equations, known as Navier-Stokes equations, arise as the backbone of fluid dynamics, combining conservation of mass and momentum.

In general, the incompressible Navier-Stokes equations for Newtonian fluids are defined as

[25]:

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{V}}{\partial t} + \mathbf{V} \cdot \nabla \mathbf{V} = -\frac{1}{\rho} \nabla p + \nu \nabla^2 \mathbf{V} + \mathbf{g} + \mathbf{f}_D, \quad (2.1)$$

$$\nabla \cdot \mathbf{V} = 0. \quad (2.2)$$

where Equations (2.1) and (2.2) describe the momentum and mass balance, respectively. There, $\mathbf{V}$ and p are respectively the velocity and pressure fields, ρ the density, $\mathbf{g}$ the gravitational acceleration vector, and $\mathbf{f}_D$ the body force exerted by the cilia motion, see Section 2.1.2.

Often, there is an interest in non-dimensionalizing the Navier-Stokes equations to allow for the comparison of the relative magnitudes of different terms within the equations. To achieve this, it is first necessary to define appropriate scaling parameters, as listed in Table 2.1.

Table 2.1: Scaling parameters used to non-dimensionalize the momentum and continuity equations, together with their primary dimensions. {M} denotes mass, {L} length, and {T} time; together they form the primary dimensional group {MLT}.

Scaling Parameter	Description	Primary Dimensions
L_c	Characteristic length	$\{L\}$
V_c	Characteristic speed	$\{LT^{-1}\}$
f	Characteristic frequency	$\{T^{-1}\}$
$p_0 - p_\infty$	Reference pressure difference	$\{ML^{-1}T^{-2}\}$
g	Gravitational acceleration	$\{LT^{-2}\}$

Then, we define the dimensionless variables as follows,

$$t^* = ft; \quad \mathbf{x}^* = \frac{\mathbf{x}}{L_c}; \quad \mathbf{V}^* = \frac{\mathbf{V}}{V_c}; \quad (2.3)$$

$$p^* = \frac{p - p_\infty}{p_0 - p_\infty}; \quad \mathbf{g}^* = \frac{\mathbf{g}}{g}; \quad \nabla^* = L_c \nabla. \quad (2.4)$$

The non-dimensional Navier-Stokes equations are then written as follows,

$$[St] \frac{\partial \mathbf{V}^*}{\partial t^*} + (\mathbf{V}^* \cdot \nabla^*) \mathbf{V}^* = -[Eu] \nabla^* p^* + \left[\frac{1}{Fr^2} \right] \mathbf{g}^* + \left[\frac{1}{Re} \right] \nabla^{*2} \mathbf{V}^* + \mathbf{f}_D^*. \quad (2.5)$$

The dimensionless numbers are defined as follows [1]:

1. Strouhal number: This dimensionless parameter quantifies the ratio of inertial forces arising from flow unsteadiness (local acceleration) to those associated with velocity variations in the flow field (convective acceleration). It is defined as

$$[St] = \frac{f L_c}{V_c}. \quad (2.6)$$

2. Euler number: This dimensionless number quantifies the ratio between pressure forces and inertia forces. It is given by

$$[Eu] = \frac{p_0 - p_\infty}{\rho V_c^2}. \quad (2.7)$$

3. Froude number: This dimensionless number quantifies the ratio of inertial forces to gravitational forces. It is defined as

$$[Fr] = \frac{V_c}{\sqrt{gL_c}}. \quad (2.8)$$

4. Reynolds number: This dimensionless number quantifies the ratio between inertial forces and viscous forces. It is defined as

$$[Re] = \frac{V_c L_c}{\nu}. \quad (2.9)$$

To remain consistent with the in-house simulation code SP-Wind used in this thesis (see Section 1.3), the density is set to unity ($\rho = 1$). The reference velocity and length scales, (V_c) and (L_c), are defined such that $\nu = 1/Re$. The remaining characteristic quantities are chosen so that the Strouhal, Euler, and Froude numbers do not appear in the equations. The resulting form of the Navier–Stokes equations applied in this thesis is

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{V}^*}{\partial t^*} + \mathbf{V}^* \cdot \nabla \mathbf{V}^* = -\nabla p^* + \left[\frac{1}{Re} \right] \nabla^2 \mathbf{V}^* + \mathbf{g}^* + \mathbf{f}_D^*, \quad (2.10)$$

$$\nabla \cdot \mathbf{V}^* = 0. \quad (2.11)$$

2.1.1 Stokes Flow Formulation

Besides Navier-Stokes, this thesis also focuses on Stokes flow, also referred to as creeping flow, which is a subset of laminar flows occurring at very low Reynolds numbers ($Re \ll 1$). In practical terms, this corresponds to either a flow with relatively low fluid density (ρ), relatively low characteristic velocity (V_c), or relatively small characteristic length scale (L_c), or alternatively, from relative high viscosity, or any combination of these factors [26]. This regime was first investigated by Stokes [27], who demonstrated that under such conditions, viscous forces dominate inertial effects. As a result, the convective acceleration term in the Navier–Stokes equations, represented by $\mathbf{V} \cdot \nabla \mathbf{V}$, becomes negligible. This simplification yields the governing form of the Stokes flow equation:

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{V}}{\partial t} = -\frac{1}{\rho} \nabla p + \nu \nabla^2 \mathbf{V} + \mathbf{f}_D, \quad (2.12)$$

$$\nabla \cdot \mathbf{V} = 0. \quad (2.13)$$

In this limit, inertial forces become negligible compared to viscous forces, leading to a flow that is entirely governed by viscosity. This results in a predictable motion without flow separation

or turbulence, a hallmark of creeping flow. These features are illustrated in Figure 2.1, which depicts a representative example of a creeping flow around a cylindrical object, highlighting the smooth and symmetric streamlines that typical occur in this regime. To further understand the

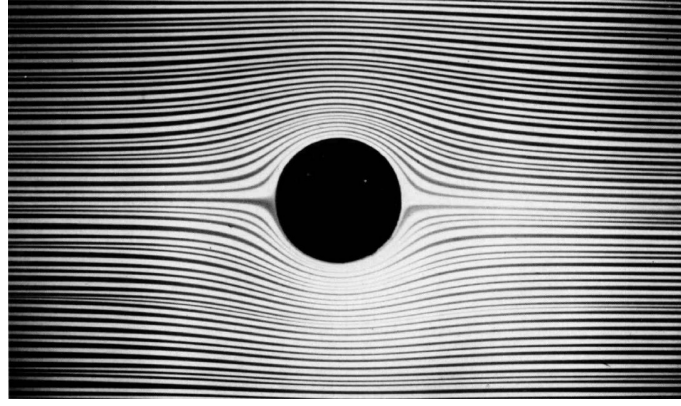


Figure 2.1: Visualization of Stokes flow past a circular cylinder confined between glass plates. The dye traces the streamlines in water flowing at 1 mm/s. Photograph by D. H. Peregrine (1982).

physics of Stokes flow, an additional non-dimensional analysis is conducted. However, this time, as considered by [28], the pressure cannot be scaled with density as this last parameter is considered to be zero in the Stokes flow approximation, leading to a different choice of characteristic groups. In [28] the following non-dimensional quantities are proposed:

$$t^* = \frac{tV_c}{L_c}, \quad \mathbf{x}^* = \frac{\mathbf{x}}{L_c}, \quad \mathbf{V}^* = \frac{\mathbf{V}}{V_c}, \quad p^* = \frac{p - p_\infty}{\mu V_c / L_c}, \quad \nabla^* = L_c \nabla. \quad (2.14)$$

Substituting these non-dimensional variables into the Stokes equations leads to the dimensionless form of the unsteady Stokes equation:

$$[Re] \frac{\partial \mathbf{V}^*}{\partial t^*} = -\nabla p^* + \nabla^{*2} \mathbf{V}^*. \quad (2.15)$$

As the Reynolds number approaches zero, the inertial term on the left-hand side vanishes entirely, yielding a steady-state form of the momentum equation known as the Stokes condition:

$$Re \rightarrow 0: \quad \nabla p^* = \nabla^{*2} \mathbf{V}^*. \quad (2.16)$$

For small but finite Reynolds numbers, this approximation remains valid, leading to the general assumption used for creeping flow:

$$Re \ll 1: \quad \nabla p^* \approx \nabla^{*2} \mathbf{V}^*. \quad (2.17)$$

Another particular characteristic of the creeping flow assumption is that its application is not restricted to Reynolds numbers less than unity. Although its definition arose from this procedure, in practice, the consideration of Stokes regime can always be done when the advective term can be

neglected, just as in the case of a fully developed duct flow [28].

The cilia are modeled as cylinders for simplicity. In the equations, the associated geometric parameters are expressed in dimensionless form. The non-dimensional cilia height h_{cil}^* and diameter D_{cil}^* are defined as the respective dimensional quantities normalized by L_c

2.1.2 Cilia Modeling: Stokes Flow Past an Immersed Cylinder

The drag force acting on the cilia, $\mathbf{f}_D^*$, is modeled as a non-dimensional source acting on the fluid, meaning that no explicit no-slip condition is enforced on the cilia boundary; this will therefore be referred to as a body force. To represent the cilia geometry, we approximate it as a cylinder, an assumption commonly adopted in the literature [9, 29, 30].

Moreover, its the bodyforce is based on the approach from Meyers and Meneveau [31]. The total non-dimensional body force is obtained by integrating the non-dimensional force per unit volume over the height of the cilia, as follows:

$$\mathbf{f}_D^* = \int_0^{h_{cil}^*} \frac{C_D (\overline{Re}_D) A_p^*}{2\psi^*} |\overline{\mathbf{U}}^*|^2 \hat{\mathbf{e}}_D dz^*. \quad (2.18)$$

Here, C_D is the drag coefficient, a function of the Reynolds number based on the cilia's diameter and the mean non-dimensional velocity magnitude $|\overline{\mathbf{U}}^*|$. The term $\hat{\mathbf{e}}_D$ is a unit vector that ensures that the drag force acts in the direction opposite to the flow, i.e. $\mathbf{U}_i^* / |\mathbf{U}_i^*|$. In addition, the projected area is set as $D_{cil}^* z^*$ and the volume is defined as $A_p^* dx$.

For the numerical simulation, this continuous formulation is projected onto the computational grid. The non-dimensional body force is calculated for each segment of the cilia, z_i , as:

$$\mathbf{f}_D^* = \sum_{k=1}^{N_{z,cil}} \mathbf{f}_{D,k}^* = \sum_{i=1}^{N_{z,cil}} \frac{1}{2} C_D (\overline{Re}_{D,k}) |\overline{\mathbf{U}}_k^*|^2 \hat{\mathbf{e}}_D. \quad (2.19)$$

The mean velocity $\overline{\mathbf{U}}_i^*$ is calculated by applying a Gaussian filter, $G(\mathbf{x}_j)$, to the local fluid velocity, $\mathbf{V}_j^*$, at every cell in a horizontal plane at location z_i :

$$\overline{\mathbf{U}}_k^* = \sum_{i=1}^{N_{elm,x}} \sum_{j=1}^{N_{elm,y}} \mathbf{V}_{i,j,k}^* G(\mathbf{x}_{i,j,k}), \quad k = 1, \dots, N_{z,cil}, \quad (2.20)$$

where $N_{z,cil}$ denotes the number of elements defined along the cilium height.

Extensive experimental data on the drag coefficient of immersed cylinders exist across a wide range of Reynolds numbers [32]. Based on these data, a reference curve for smooth cylinders was established by Munson et al. [1]. To provide mathematical descriptions of the dependence of C_D on Re , several empirical formulas were also proposed, each valid within specific Reynolds number ranges.

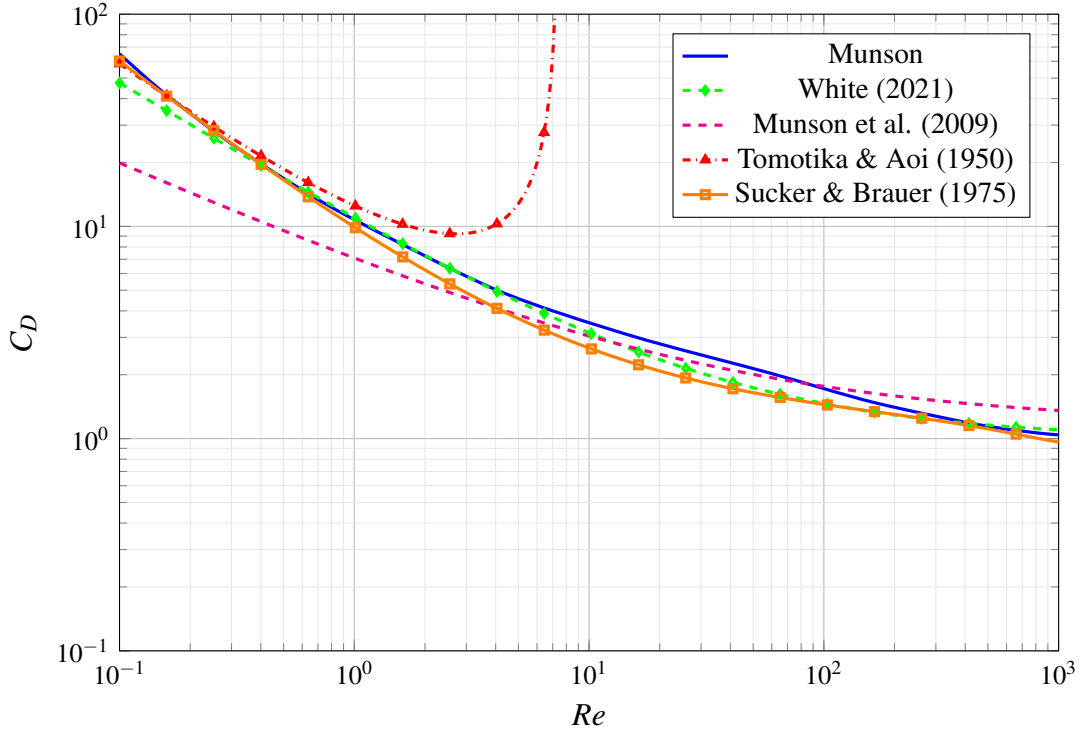


Figure 2.2: Drag coefficient, C_D , as a function of Reynolds number ($Re_D = \bar{U}D/\nu$) for a smooth cylinder.

The most commonly used drag relations are:

- White [28] obtained a curve fit formula, based on the data from Tritton [33] and Wieselsberger [34], which is reasonable up to $Re < 2.5 \times 10^5$:

$$C_D = 1 + \frac{10}{Re_D^{2/3}}. \quad (2.21)$$

- Munson et al. [1] suggests a formula which assumes the flow's boundary layer separation to occur at the angle of 130° , but the results are considered rough:

$$C_D = 1.17 + \frac{5.93}{\sqrt{Re_D}}. \quad (2.22)$$

- Tomotika and Aoi [35] show an asymptotic expression for low Re_D , that diverges when Re_D tends to 1:

$$C_D = \frac{8\pi}{Re_D(0.5 - \gamma_e + \ln(8/Re_D))} \quad (2.23)$$

. Here, γ_e is the Euler–Mascheroni constant approximately equal to 0.57721.

- Sucker and Brauer [36] obtained a curve fit formula that shows good accuracy for $10^{-4} < Re_D < 10^5$:

$$C_D = 1.18 + \frac{6.8}{Re_D^{0.89}} + \frac{1.96}{\sqrt{Re_D}} - \frac{4 \times 10^{-4} \times Re_D}{1 + 3.63 \times 10^{-7} \times Re_D^2}. \quad (2.24)$$

Based on the curves shown in Figure 2.2, the Sucker and Brauer [36] model shows the highest reliability compared to the others; therefore, their formulation will be adopted in the remainder of this work.

2.2 Numerical Procedure

Solving both the Navier-Stokes and Stokes equations analytically can be humanly challenging or even impossible, depending on the flow type and conditions. A common approach is to compute a numerical solution, by discretizing the governing equations over the spatial domain, and advancing them in time step by step, thereby simulating the flow. However, performing those steps can be computationally demanding, mainly due to the time-step restriction (see Section 2.2.5).

To that end, we developed an IMEX scheme to mitigate the CFL restriction. First, Section 2.2.1 presents the family of explicit Runge-Kutta (ERK) schemes, which are the basis for the selected solution approach and provide a comparative benchmark for the applied method. Next, Section 2.2.2 addresses implicit Runge-Kutta (IRK) schemes. This section outlines their properties as a desired solution class, due to its unrestricted stable time-step, and explains the rationale for not employing them in this work. Subsequently, in Section 2.2.3 we enter the core of this thesis, where implicit-explicit linear multi-step Runge-Kutta schemes (IMEX) are presented and justified as the selected solution. The discussion begins with a relevant historical background before detailing their formulation applied to a fluid mechanics problem. Furthermore, Butcher tables are presented for second- and third-order IMEX methods. Although these methods are lower-order than the classical fourth-order Runge-Kutta (RK4) method, they offer significantly enhanced stability with respect to the viscous time-step restriction, a fact demonstrated by an analysis of their stability regions (see Section 2.2.4). In addition, particular attention is given to the pressure projection step, as its implementation can be non-trivial (see Section 2.2.6). Lastly, Section 2.2.7 describes the set of suitable linear solvers employed in this work to solve the discretized governing equations.

2.2.1 Explicit Runge-Kutta Schemes (ERK)

In the context of operator splitting, an s -stage method proceeds through s successive Euler steps, each associated with a time increment Δt_i and a specific directional estimate or slope of the field's $\mathbf{y}$ rate of change, denoted as $\mathbf{K}_i$. Butcher [37] proposed a notation that simplifies the representation of multi-step methods. A general RK method is composed of three parameters, commonly called the Runge-Kutta matrix $[\mathbf{A}]$, the weights $\mathbf{b}$, and the node vectors $\mathbf{c}$. Their values are stored in a mnemonic device, known as a Butcher tableau, of type:

Table 2.2: General form for a Butcher Tableau

$\mathbf{c}$	$[\mathbf{A}]$
	$\mathbf{b}$

Definition 2.2.1 (Explicit Runge-Kutta Method (ERK)). Let $s \in \mathbb{N}$, $a_{i,j} \in \mathbb{R}$, $1 \leq j \leq i \leq s$, $b_i \in \mathbb{R}$ for $1 \leq i \leq s$, and $c_i = \sum_{j=1}^{i-1} a_{i,j}$. Consider the problem,

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{y}}{\partial t} = \mathcal{F}(t, \mathbf{y}), \quad (2.25)$$

with initial condition,

$$\mathbf{y}(t^{(0)}, \mathbf{y}^{(0)}), \quad (2.26)$$

The scheme,

$$\mathbf{K}_1 = \mathcal{F}\left(t^{(n)} + \Delta t c_1, \mathbf{y}^{(n)}\right), \quad (2.27)$$

$$\mathbf{K}_i = \mathcal{F}\left(t^{(n)} + \Delta t c_i, \mathbf{y}^{(n)} + \Delta t \sum_{j=1}^{i-1} a_{i,j} \mathbf{K}_j\right), \quad \text{for } i = 2, \dots, s, \quad (2.28)$$

$$\mathbf{y}^{(n+1)} = \mathbf{y}^{(n)} + \Delta t \sum_{i=1}^s b_i \mathbf{K}_i, \quad (2.29)$$

has the name of s -stage explicit Runge-Kutta method.

Therefore, there are two constraints that dictate both the viability and the order of these types of methods.

Definition 2.2.2. Let $s \in \mathbb{N}$, $a_{i,j} \in \mathbb{R}$, $1 \leq j \leq i \leq s$, $b_i \in \mathbb{R}$. Applying Taylor series expansions to Equation (2.25), a Runge-Kutta method is consistent if and only if,

$$\sum_{i=1}^{s-1} b_i = 1. \quad (2.30)$$

Definition 2.2.3. Let $s \in \mathbb{N}$, $a_{i,j} \in \mathbb{R}$, $1 \leq j \leq i \leq s$ and $b_i \in \mathbb{R}$ for $1 \leq j \leq s$. For a certain method to have an order $\hat{p} \in \mathbb{N}$ and local truncation error $\mathcal{O}(\Delta t^{\hat{p}+1})$,

$$\sum_{j=1}^{i-1} a_{ij} = c_i, \quad \text{for } i = 1, 2, \dots, s. \quad (2.31)$$

This last definition alone is neither sufficient nor necessary for consistency [38]. Furthermore, Butcher [39] proven that, in general, for an explicit s -stage Runge-Kutta method to achieve order $\hat{p}$, the number of stages must satisfy $s \geq \hat{p}$, and if $\hat{p} \geq 5$, then $s \geq \hat{p} + 1$. However, it is not known whether these bounds are sharp in all cases. In some instances, it has been proven that the bounds cannot be reached. For example, Butcher showed that for $\hat{p} > 6$, there is no explicit RK method with $s = \hat{p} + 1$, and for $\hat{p} > 7$, there is no explicit RK method exists with $s = \hat{p} + 2$. In general, the precise minimum number of stages s required for an explicit Runge-Kutta method to achieve order $\hat{p}$ remains an open problem.

In most engineering applications, an ERK method of 4– stages (4^{th} – order) is used. This method is also known by the name Classical Runge-Kutta or RK4, and is the time integration method employed in *SP-Wind*. Table 2.3 shows the Butcher tableau for RK4.

Table 2.3: Butcher tableau for the Classical Runge-Kutta

0	0	0	0	0
1/2	1/2	0	0	0
1/2	0	1/2	0	0
1	0	0	1	0
	1/6	1/3	1/3	1/6

Since its Butcher tableau has all the elements below the lower sub-diagonal equal to zero, the method is said to be low-storage. In other words, the computation of the i^{th} slope variable does not require storing the previously computed slopes.

The Runge-Kutta time integration method is traditionally formulated to solve systems of Ordinary Differential Equations (ODEs). In the context of Navier-Stokes equations, special care should be taken in formulating the pressure correction (see Section 2.2.6). In the following, we explain how the pressure correction step is included in the ERK defined above. The description is consistent with the implementation in both *SP-Wind* and the cavity case study, which will be presented later in this work. To accommodate the ERK scheme in this context, the momentum equation is first recast as:

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{V}^*}{\partial t} = \text{RHS}(\mathbf{V}^*) - \nabla p^*, \quad (2.32)$$

where $\text{RHS}(\mathbf{V}^*)$ contains all the terms on the right-hand side of the momentum equation (2.10), except the pressure gradient. Two distinct approaches were followed to implement the pressure projection in Runge-Kutta methods, each corresponding to the cavity case and to *SP-Wind*.

1. **Single Projection Method:** This formulation computes the velocity and corresponding slope variable $\mathbf{K}_i^*$ at each stage while excluding the pressure term. In this approach, $\mathbf{K}_i^*$ expresses only the right-hand side operator, $\text{RHS}\{\mathbf{V}^*\}$, with the pressure projection performed exclusively at the advancing step (see Equation (2.29)). This methodology offers computational efficiency by minimizing the number of pressure solves required and is the one applied in the cavity case study;
2. **Stage-wise Projection Method:** This approach applies pressure projection at every intermediate stage to enforce continuous incompressibility. Here, $\mathbf{K}_i^*$ incorporates the complete right-hand side of the Navier-Stokes equations, including pressure gradient terms. This method is only practical when employing a direct solver for the pressure-Poisson equation. Consequently, the final solution $\mathbf{V}^{*(n+1)}$, which is a linear combination of divergence-free fields, inherently satisfies the incompressibility constraint without requiring a final projection in the advancing step. This approach was followed in *SP-Wind*.

Furthermore, the stage-wise projection method is unsuitable for iterative solvers. When applying this method, we must correct the stages velocities, rather than the slope variables. The motivation behind this statement is that the inherent tolerance of iterative solvers introduces small but cumulative errors in the divergence constraint for the velocities if the pressure-Poisson equation is solved in its closed form,

$$\nabla^{*2} p_i^* = \nabla^* \cdot \mathbf{K}_i^{*\#}, \quad (2.33)$$

with $\mathbf{K}_i^{*\#}$ expressing the non-conservative slope variable, so that

$$\mathbf{K}_i^* = \mathbf{K}_i^{*\#} - \nabla^* p_i^*. \quad (2.34)$$

Therefore, $\mathbf{K}_i^*$ would be considered numerically divergence-free, but

$$\mathbf{U}_i^* = \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \Delta t^* \mathbf{K}_i^*, \quad (2.35)$$

will diffuse the tolerance error in

$$\mathbf{V}^{*(n+1)} = \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \Delta t^* \sum_{i=1}^s b_i \mathbf{K}_i^*, \quad (2.36)$$

making the divergence of the final velocity field, past some iterations, orders of magnitude higher than this same tolerance. This behavior is worst with grid refinement, as we saw in the cavity case study. To illustrate this behavior, Figure 2.3 shows the influence of the pressure projection method on the velocity divergence field, when applied to the 2D cavity case (the numerical setup for this case will be discussed later in Section 4.2). In the figure on the left, the stage-wise projection method is performed leading to a divergence field error of order one. In the figure on the right, a single projection method is employed, leading to a numerical divergence-free velocity field.

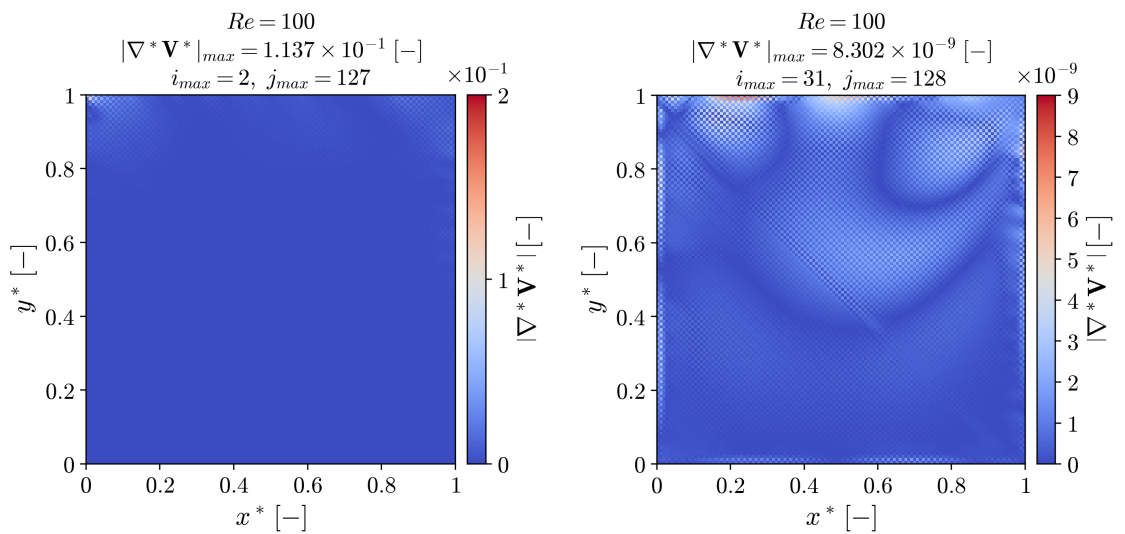


Figure 2.3: Influence of the pressure projection correction method on the divergence of the velocity field.

Both pressure projection methods discussed above are implemented algorithmically as outlined in Algorithm 1, with the distinction between iterative and direct solvers handled through conditional branching.

Algorithm 1 Explicit Low Storage s –stage Runge-Kutta

```

1: procedure RK4( $\mathbf{V}^{*(n)}, p^{*(n)}, t^*$ )
2:   if ProjectionMethod == Iterative then
3:      $\mathbf{K}_1^{*\#} \leftarrow \text{RHS}(\mathbf{V}^{*(n)})$ 
4:      $\mathbf{U}_2^{*\#} \leftarrow \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \frac{\Delta t^*}{2} \mathbf{K}_1^*$ 
5:     for  $i = 2$  to  $s$  do
6:        $\mathbf{K}_i^{*\#} \leftarrow \text{RHS}(\mathbf{U}_i^{*\#})$ 
7:        $\mathbf{U}_{i+1}^{*\#} \leftarrow \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + a_{i,i-1} \Delta t^* \mathbf{K}_i^*$ 
8:     end for
9:      $\mathbf{V}^{*\#} \leftarrow \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \Delta t^* \sum_{i=1}^s b_i \mathbf{K}_i^{*\#}$ 
10:     $p^{*(n+1)} \leftarrow \text{solve} \left[ [\nabla_n^{*2}] p^{*(n+1)} = \frac{\nabla^* \cdot \mathbf{V}^{*\#}}{\Delta t^*} \right]$ 
11:     $\mathbf{V}^{*(n+1)} \leftarrow \mathbf{V}^{*\#} - \Delta t^* \nabla^* p^{*(n+1)}$ 
12:  else if ProjectionMethod == Direct then
13:     $\mathbf{K}_1^{*\#} \leftarrow \text{RHS}(\mathbf{V}^{*(n)})$ 
14:     $p_1^* \leftarrow \text{solve} \left[ [\nabla_n^{*2}] p_1^* = \nabla^* \cdot \mathbf{K}_1^{*\#} \right]$ 
15:     $\mathbf{K}_1^* \leftarrow \mathbf{K}_1^{*\#} - \nabla^* p_1^*$ 
16:     $\mathbf{U}_2^* \leftarrow \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + a_{1,1} \Delta t^* \mathbf{K}_1^*$ 
17:    for  $i = 2$  to  $s$  do
18:       $\mathbf{K}_i^{*\#} \leftarrow \text{RHS}(\mathbf{U}_i^*)$ 
19:       $p_i^* \leftarrow \text{solve} \left[ [\nabla_n^{*2}] p_i^* = \nabla^* \cdot \mathbf{K}_i^{*\#} \right]$ 
20:       $\mathbf{K}_i^* \leftarrow \mathbf{K}_i^{*\#} - \nabla^* p_i^*$ 
21:       $\mathbf{U}_{i+1}^* \leftarrow \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + a_{i,i-1} \Delta t^* \mathbf{K}_i^*$ 
22:    end for
23:     $\mathbf{V}^{*(n+1)} \leftarrow \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \Delta t^* \sum_{i=1}^s b_i \mathbf{K}_i^*$ 
24:  end if
25: end procedure

```

2.2.2 Implicit Runge-Kutta (IRK)

The implicit Runge-Kutta (IRK) scheme is based on the same fundamentals as the explicit formulation; however, it differs in the way it defines the slope parameters. In the implicit case, the summation domain is extended from $i - 1$ to s , where s denotes the total number of RK stages.

Definition 2.2.4 (Implicit Runge-Kutta Method (IRK)). *Let $s \in \mathbb{N}$, $a_{i,j} \in \mathbb{R}$, $1 \leq j \leq i \leq s$, $b_i \in \mathbb{R}$ for $1 \leq j \leq s$, and $c_i = \sum_{j=1}^s a_{i,j}$. Consider the problem,*

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{y}}{\partial t} = \mathcal{F}(t, \mathbf{y}), \quad (2.37)$$

with initial condition,

$$\mathbf{y}(t^{(0)}, y^{(0)}), \quad (2.38)$$

where $\mathcal{F}(t, y)$ represents the right-hand side of the differential equation (i.e., the time derivative of y as a function of t and y) The scheme,

$$K_i = \mathcal{F}\left(t + \Delta t c_i, \mathbf{y}^{(n)} + \Delta t \sum_{j=1}^s a_{ij} \cdot K_j\right), \quad \text{for } i = 2, \dots, s, \quad (2.39)$$

$$\mathbf{y}^{(n+1)} = \mathbf{y}^{(n)} + \Delta t \sum_{i=1}^s b_i K_i, \quad \text{for } i = 1, \dots, s. \quad (2.40)$$

has the name of s -stage implicit Runge-Kutta scheme.

In this case, $\mathbf{K}_i$ is a function of all other stages $\mathbf{K}_j$, $j = 1, \dots, s$, so all $\mathbf{K}_i$ must be solved simultaneously as a heavy system. This formulation reflects how the future intermediate stage is influenced not only by its current value but also by an integrated history of its response to governing forces over the course of a full time step and the further future intermediate stages. The implicit nature of the scheme allows for greater numerical stability, disabling the dependence on a time-step restriction.

There are multiple possibilities for the composition of both the matrix $[\mathbf{A}]$ and the weight vector $\mathbf{b}$. The simplest case is to consider a matrix and weight vector consisting of a single element, both equal to one, leading to the Backward Euler method, a first-order implicit integration scheme. Additionally, several other well-known implicit time integration schemes can be derived using the general Runge-Kutta formulation. Some examples are the Crank-Nicolson (see Table 2.4, second-order accurate) and Gauss-Legendre (see Table 2.5, fourth-order accurate) schemes.

Table 2.4: Butcher tableau for the Crank–Nicolson scheme

0	0	0
1	1/2	1/2
	1/2	1/2

Table 2.5: Butcher tableau for the Gauss–Legendre scheme

$\frac{1}{2} - \frac{\sqrt{3}}{6}$	$\frac{1}{4}$	$\frac{1}{4} - \frac{\sqrt{3}}{6}$
$\frac{1}{2} + \frac{\sqrt{3}}{6}$	$\frac{1}{4} + \frac{\sqrt{3}}{6}$	$\frac{1}{4}$
	$\frac{1}{2}$	$\frac{1}{2}$

Furthermore, Diagonally Implicit Runge–Kutta (DIRK) methods are widely employed for numerical integration of stiff initial value problems [40]. A key advantage of this class of methods lies in the structure of the coefficient matrix $[\mathbf{A}]$, which is lower triangular. This property allows the system of equations to be solved sequentially rather than simultaneously, which means that each K_i depends only on itself and the stage values previously computed K_r for $r < i$. This significantly reduces computational complexity and makes the scheme more feasible for numerical implementation, especially in large-scale or stiff systems. Examples of these schemes are Crouzeix’s three-stage scheme with $\alpha = \frac{2}{\sqrt{3}} \cos \frac{\pi}{18}$ (see Table 2.6, a 4th order Diagonally Implicit Runge–Kutta scheme) and the Nørsett’s three-stage scheme (see Table 2.7, a 4th order Diagonally Implicit Runge–Kutta scheme) where x is one of the three roots of the cubic equation,

$$x^3 - \frac{3x^2}{2} + \frac{x}{2} - \frac{1}{24} = 0. \quad (2.41)$$

Table 2.6: Butcher tableau for the Crouzeix’s three-stage scheme

$\frac{1+\alpha}{2}$	$\frac{1+\alpha}{2}$	0	0
$\frac{1}{2}$	$-\frac{\alpha}{2}$	$\frac{1+\alpha}{2}$	0
$\frac{1-\alpha}{2}$	$1+\alpha$	$-(1+2\alpha)$	$\frac{1+\alpha}{2}$
	$\frac{1}{6\alpha^2}$	$1 - \frac{1}{3\alpha^2}$	$\frac{1}{6\alpha^2}$

Table 2.7: Butcher tableau for the Nørsett’s three-stage scheme

x	x	0	0
1/2	$1/2 - x$	x	0
$1 - x$	$2x$	$1 - 4x$	x
	$\frac{1}{6(1-2x)^2}$	$\frac{3(1-2x)^2-1}{3(1-2x)^2}$	$\frac{1}{6(1-2x)^2}$

Fully implicit methods, even in their diagonally implicit form, require solving a non-linear system at each time step. Given the time constraints of this thesis, an alternative approach is considered, presented in Section 2.2.3.

2.2.3 Implicit-Explicit Linear Multi-step Runge-Kutta (IMEX-RK)

To overcome the challenges for IRK methods outlined above, a Diagonally Implicit-Explicit (DIMEX) linear multi-step time-discretization scheme is employed. This approach treats the non-linear terms explicitly while maintaining the linear viscous and pressure terms implicitly, thereby reducing computational complexity without sacrificing stability.

In practical terms, the discretized Navier–Stokes equations are decomposed into a discrete implicit Stokes operator, viscous plus pressure terms, and an explicit contribution related to the advection term and potential body forces (e.g., those associated with the cilia motion).

Moreover, IMEX schemes have been extensively used in the literature, particularly alongside spectral methods [41]. These schemes have demonstrated successful application not only to the incompressible Navier–Stokes equations [42], but also to their compressible counterparts [43].

A significant contribution to the development and analysis of IMEX schemes comes from the group of Prof. Uri M. Ascher. In particular, the study presented in [44] offers a comprehensive analysis of multistep IMEX methods, highlighting their stability behavior and performance in convection-diffusion and reaction-diffusion problems. The authors propose improved schemes that mitigate issues related to high-frequency error propagation and aliasing, particularly when spectral collocation methods or multigrid solvers are used, by selecting schemes with stronger damping properties. The findings show that, for this class of problems, the use of weak damping schemes, such as the popular Crank-Nicolson and second-order Adams-Bashforth combination, is discouraged, and more robust alternatives are proposed. Moreover, the study explores a wide variety of combinations for the implicit-explicit partitioning, resulting in IMEX schemes of the second to fourth order, depending on the chosen formulation.

Based on these insights, the same authors further advanced the field in a subsequent work [45], where they introduced multi-step (Runge-Kutta-based) IMEX schemes with enhanced stability properties. Unlike traditional IMEX schemes, which can suffer from restrictive time-step limitations unless diffusion dominates, the Runge-Kutta formulations presented in their study offer broader stability regions across a wider range of problem parameters.

Having the referred works as a starting point, the governing equations can then be decomposed into implicit and explicit blocks, respectively $\mathcal{I}$ and $\mathcal{E}$, as follows:

$$\frac{\partial \mathbf{V}^*}{\partial t} = \mathcal{I}(\mathbf{V}^*, p^*) + \mathcal{E}(\mathbf{V}^*, \mathbf{f}_D^*), \quad (2.42)$$

where

$$\mathcal{E} = -\mathbf{V}^* \cdot \nabla \mathbf{V}^* + \mathbf{f}_D^*(\mathbf{V}^*), \quad (2.43)$$

and

$$\mathcal{I} = \nu \nabla^2 \mathbf{V}^* - \nabla p^*. \quad (2.44)$$

Furthermore, to integrate the implicit term $\mathcal{I}$, Ascher et al. [45] proposes an s -stage Diagonally Implicit Runge–Kutta (DIRK) scheme. This scheme is defined by the Butcher tableau represented by the matrix $[\mathbf{A}] \in \mathbb{R}^{s \times s}$ and the time and weight vectors, respectively, $\mathbf{c}, \mathbf{b} \in \mathbb{R}^s$. In

turn, the same reference considers for the explicit block $\mathcal{E}$ a Diagonally Explicit Runge–Kutta method with $\sigma = s + 1$ stages. This method is described by abscissae $\check{\mathbf{c}}^T = (0, \mathbf{c})$, coefficient matrix $\check{\mathbf{A}} \in \mathbb{R}^{\sigma \times \sigma}$, and weights $\check{\mathbf{b}} \in \mathbb{R}^\sigma$.

The time integration over a single step from $t^{*(n)}$ to $t^{*(n+1)} = t^{*(n)} + \Delta t^*$, starting from the initial velocity field $\mathbf{V}^{*(n)}$, begins by computing the first explicit slope variable,

$$\check{\mathbf{K}}_1^* = \mathcal{E}(\mathbf{V}^{*(n)}). \quad (2.45)$$

Then, for each stage $i = 1, \dots, s$, the corresponding stage velocity field $\mathbf{U}_i^*$ is calculated as

$$\mathbf{U}_i^* = \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \Delta t^* \sum_{j=1}^i a_{i,j} \mathbf{K}_j^* + \Delta t^* \sum_{j=1}^i \check{a}_{i+1,j} \check{\mathbf{K}}_j^*, \quad (2.46)$$

with

$$\mathbf{K}_i^* = \mathcal{J}(\mathbf{U}_i^*, p_i^*). \quad (2.47)$$

An alternative formulation, proposed by Guesmi et al. [46], introduces a pressure-splitting term, $\mathbf{P}_i^*$, which groups the pressure contributions of different stages:

$$\mathbf{P}_i^* = a_{dd} \nabla^* p_i^* + \sum_{k=1}^{i-1} a_{i,k} \nabla^* p_k^*. \quad (2.48)$$

This leads to the reformulated stage velocity:

$$\mathbf{U}_i^* = \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + v \Delta t^* \sum_{j=1}^i a_{i,j} \nabla^{*2} \mathbf{U}_j^* + \Delta t^* \sum_{j=1}^i \check{a}_{i+1,j} \check{\mathbf{K}}_j^* + \Delta t^* \mathbf{P}_i^*, \quad (2.49)$$

which simplifies the implementation by removing the need to explicitly store the stage-level pressures. Consequently, solving Equation (2.49) requires s linear systems for the s stage velocities, together with s pressure projection steps. By excluding $\tilde{\mathbf{P}}_i$ and introducing the non-conservative stage velocity field $\mathbf{U}_i^\#$, we obtain

$$([\mathbf{I}] - v \Delta t^* a_{dd} [\Lambda]) \mathbf{U}_i^\# = \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \Delta t^* \check{a}_{i+1,i} \check{\mathbf{K}}_i^* + v \Delta t^* \sum_{j=1}^{i-1} a_{i,j} \mathbf{K}_j^* + \Delta t^* \sum_{j=1}^{i-1} \check{a}_{i+1,j} \check{\mathbf{K}}_j^*. \quad (2.50)$$

Note that $[\Lambda]$ denotes the Laplacian matrix applied to the velocity field. This distinction is necessary because the operator differs when applied to velocity or pressure due to the imposed boundary conditions; for pressure, the Laplacian is represented as ∇_n^2 . Although the mathematical form is the same, the actual values differ in practice. In addition, we set a_{dd} as the diagonal element of the implicit Butcher tableau, since its value does not change for all rows. Therefore, the solution of this system, which involves numerical inversion of the operator

$$[\mathbf{M}]_i = [\mathbf{I}] - v \Delta t^* a_{dd} [\Lambda], \quad (2.51)$$

constitutes the computational bottleneck of the method. The intermediate conservative velocity fields are then written as

$$\mathbf{U}_i^* = \mathbf{U}_i^{*\#} - \Delta t^* \mathbf{P}_i^*, \quad (2.52)$$

with the respective velocity-Poisson equation,

$$[\nabla_n^{*2}] \mathbf{P}_i^* = \frac{\nabla_n^* \cdot \mathbf{U}_i^{*\#}}{\Delta t^*}. \quad (2.53)$$

Finally, the next time step solution is calculated using Equation (2.54), considering, one more time, a pressure projection step.

$$\mathbf{V}^{*(n+1)} = \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \Delta t^* \sum_{i=1}^s b_i \mathbf{K}_i^* + \Delta t^* \sum_{i=1}^{s+1} \check{b}_i \check{\mathbf{K}}_i^* - \nabla_n^* p^{*(n+1)}. \quad (2.54)$$

All steps are summarized in the following algorithm.

Algorithm 2 IMEX Runge-Kutta method with pressure projection

```

1: procedure IMEX_RK( $\mathbf{V}^{(n)}, t$ )
2:    $\check{\mathbf{K}}_1^* \leftarrow \mathcal{E}(\mathbf{V}^{*(n)})$ 
3:   for  $i = 1$  to  $s$  do
4:      $\mathbf{U}_i^{*\#} \leftarrow \text{solve} \left[ ([\mathbf{I}] - \nu \Delta t^* a_{dd}[\Lambda]) \mathbf{U}_i^{*\#} = \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \Delta t \check{a}_{i+1,i} \check{\mathbf{K}}_i^* + \Delta t^* \sum_{j=1}^{i-1} a_{i,j} \mathbf{K}_j^* + \check{a}_{i+1,j} \check{\mathbf{K}}_j^* \right]$ 
5:      $\mathbf{P}_i^* \leftarrow \text{solve} \left[ [\nabla_n^{*2}] \mathbf{P}_i^* = \frac{\nabla_n^* \cdot \mathbf{U}_i^{*\#}}{\Delta t^*} \right]$ 
6:      $\mathbf{U}_i^* \leftarrow \mathbf{U}_i^{*\#} - \Delta t^* \mathbf{P}_i^*$ 
7:      $\mathbf{K}_i^{*\#} \leftarrow \mathcal{I}(\mathbf{U}_i^*)$ 
8:     if  $i < s$  then
9:        $\check{\mathbf{K}}_{i+1}^* \leftarrow \mathcal{E}(\mathbf{U}_i^*, \mathbf{f}_D)$ 
10:    end if
11:  end for
12:   $\check{\mathbf{K}}_{s+1}^* \leftarrow \mathcal{E}(\mathbf{U}^{*(s)})$ 
13:   $\mathbf{V}^{*\#} \leftarrow \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \Delta t^* \sum_{i=1}^s b_i \mathbf{K}_i^* + \Delta t^* \sum_{i=1}^{s+1} \check{b}_i \check{\mathbf{K}}_i^*$ 
14:   $p^{*(n+1)} \leftarrow \text{solve} \left[ [\nabla_n^2] p^{*(n+1)} = \frac{\nabla_n^* \cdot \mathbf{V}^{*\#}}{\Delta t^*} \right]$ 
15:   $\mathbf{V}^{(n+1)} \leftarrow \mathbf{V}^{(n+1)} - \Delta t \nabla \tilde{\mathbf{p}}^{(n+1)}$ 
16: end procedure

```

Moreover, it is important to properly define the combination of Butcher tableaus to be used. Following once again the work of Ascher et al. [45], two special cases for constructing the Butcher tableau for $\mathcal{E}$ are of particular interest. First, some methods modify the Butcher tableau for $\mathcal{I}$ by adding a row of zeros at the top and a column of zeros at the beginning, in order to construct the Butcher tableau for $\mathcal{E}$. This results in:

Table 2.8: Implicit Butcher tableau padded with zeros at the left column and top line

0	0	0	0	...	0
c_1	0	a_{11}	a_{12}	...	a_{1s}
c_2	0	a_{21}	a_{22}	...	a_{2s}
$\vdots$	$\vdots$	$\vdots$	$\vdots$	$\ddots$	$\vdots$
c_s	0	a_{s1}	a_{s2}	...	a_{ss}
	0	b_1	b_2	...	b_s

This approach will lead to the simplification of Equation (2.54) as follows:

$$\mathbf{V}^{*(n+1)} = \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \Delta t^* \sum_{i=1}^s b_i (\mathbf{K}_i^* + \check{\mathbf{K}}_i^*) - \Delta t^* \nabla^* p^{*(n+1)}. \quad (2.55)$$

Second, some methods set the last explicit weight, $\check{b}_s$, to zero, thus eliminating the need to evaluate $\check{\mathbf{K}}_s^*$, since it will not be included in Equation 2.54. Additionally, the implicit scheme is defined as stiffly accurate with $c_s = 1$:

$$b_j = a_{s,j}, \check{b}_j = \check{a}_{\sigma,j}, \quad j = 1, \dots, s, \quad (2.56)$$

leading to

$$\mathbf{V}^{(n+1)} = \mathbf{U}_s^\# - \Delta t \tilde{\mathbf{p}}^{(n+1)}. \quad (2.57)$$

This last formulation has proven particularly advantageous in stiff regimes, as shown by Ascher et al. [45].

The works of Ascher [44, 45] present a set of Butcher tableaus defining schemes with accuracies ranging from first to third order. In the present work, first-order schemes were not considered because of their insufficient accuracy for the intended objectives. Furthermore, the schemes will be referred to the initials of Ascher, since they were created in his work, followed by the triplet $(s, \sigma, \hat{p})$, where s is the number of implicit stages, σ the number of explicit stages ($\sigma = s + 1$ for case (1), defined by Equation (2.55), and $\sigma = s$ for case (2), defined by Equations (2.56) and (2.57)) and $\hat{p}$ is the combined order of the scheme.

Beginning, with the second-order schemes, Ascher consider an L-stable, two-stage, second-order DIRK ASC(2,2,2), which is stiffly accurate and has the following Butcher tableaux

Table 2.9: ASC(2,2,2) implicit block butcher tableau

γ	γ	0
1	$1-\gamma$	γ
	$1-\gamma$	γ

Table 2.10: ASC(2,2,2) explicit block butcher tableau

0	0	0	0
γ	γ	0	0
1	δ	$1-\delta$	0
	δ	$1-\delta$	0

where, $\gamma = \frac{2-\sqrt{2}}{2}$ and $\delta = 1 - \frac{1}{2\gamma}$.

The third-order methods proposed by Ascher require four stages, since no pair consisting of a three-stage, L-stable DIRK and a four-stage ERK satisfying condition (2.56) with a combined third-order accuracy could be found [45]. They set $c_1 = c_3 = b_4 = a_{43} = \frac{1}{2}$, as well as the diagonal elements of the implicit BT, so that the final method, ASC(4,4,3) is, third-order and L-stable. The respective Butcher tableau are:

Table 2.11: ASC(4,4,3) implicit block butcher tableau

$\frac{1}{2}$	$\frac{1}{2}$	0	0	0
$\frac{2}{3}$	$\frac{1}{6}$	$\frac{1}{2}$	0	0
$\frac{1}{2}$	$-\frac{1}{2}$	$\frac{1}{2}$	0	$\frac{1}{2}$
1	$\frac{3}{2}$	$-\frac{3}{2}$	$\frac{1}{2}$	$\frac{1}{2}$
	$\frac{3}{2}$	$-\frac{3}{2}$	$\frac{1}{2}$	$\frac{1}{2}$

Table 2.12: ASC(4,4,3) explicit block butcher tableau

0	0	0	0	0	0
$\frac{1}{2}$	$\frac{1}{2}$	0	0	0	0
$\frac{2}{3}$	$\frac{11}{18}$	$\frac{1}{18}$	0	0	0
$\frac{1}{2}$	$\frac{5}{6}$	$-\frac{5}{6}$	$\frac{1}{2}$	0	0
1	$\frac{1}{4}$	$\frac{7}{4}$	$\frac{3}{4}$	$-\frac{7}{4}$	0
	$\frac{1}{4}$	$\frac{7}{4}$	$\frac{3}{4}$	$-\frac{7}{4}$	0

2.2.4 Stability

The key motivation for this analysis is to evaluate whether IMEX schemes provide a wider stability range compared to classical explicit methods, as this would indicate their potential to overcome the strict time-step limitations imposed by viscous CFL conditions. To investigate this, we compare the stability properties of IMEX schemes with those of the classical RK4 scheme by plotting their stability regions. These regions provide a visual characterization of the areas in the complex plane where the numerical solution of the linear test equation, Equation (2.59), remains bounded.

This analysis is particularly relevant for IMEX schemes because their implicit and explicit components interact in a coupled manner that strongly influences overall stability. By contrasting their stability regions with that of RK4, we assess the extent to which IMEX schemes are better suited for handling stiff terms while retaining efficiency for non-stiff dynamics.

In this context, the desired outcome for IMEX schemes is to exhibit unconditional stability along the negative real axis, reflecting their ability to handle diffusive terms without restriction from the CFL condition.

Definition 2.2.5 (Stability Function). *Let $[\mathbf{A}] \in \mathbb{R}^{s \times s}$ and $\mathbf{b} \in \mathbb{R}^s$ be the coefficients of an implicit Runge-Kutta method and $z \in \mathbb{C}$. The function*

$$R(z) = \frac{\det([\mathbf{I}] - z[\mathbf{A}] + z[\mathbf{1}]\mathbf{b}^T)}{\det([\mathbf{I}] - z[\mathbf{A}])}, \quad (2.58)$$

is the stability function of the method, where $[\mathbf{1}] = (1, \dots, 1)^T$. It corresponds to the numerical solution applied to the test equation:

$$\frac{dy}{dt} = \lambda y, \quad y^{(n)} = 1, \quad (2.59)$$

where $\lambda \in \mathbb{C}$ is the eigenvalue governing the solution $y(t) = e^{\lambda t}$, and $z = \Delta t \lambda$, for step size $\Delta t \in \mathbb{R}$.

Definition 2.2.6 (Stability Domain). The **stability domain** S , also referred to as the region of absolute stability of a numerical method, is defined as the set of all complex numbers $z \in \mathbb{C}$ for which the stability function $R(z)$ satisfies:

$$S = \{z \in \mathbb{C} : |R(z)| \leq 1\}. \quad (2.60)$$

The method is called **A-stable** if its stability domain contains the entire left-half complex plane, i.e., when:

$$S \subset \mathbb{C}^-, \quad \text{where } \mathbb{C}^- = \{z \in \mathbb{C} : \text{Re}(z) \leq 0\}. \quad (2.61)$$

Definition 2.2.7 (L-stable). Let $z \in \mathbb{C}$. A Runge-Kutta scheme is **L-stable** if and only if it is A-stable, and it additionally holds that

$$\lim_{z \rightarrow \infty} R(z) = 0. \quad (2.62)$$

Proposition 2.2.1. Let $[\mathbf{A}] \in \mathbb{R}^{s \times s}$ and $\mathbf{b} \in \mathbb{R}^s$, with $s \in \mathbb{N}$, be an s -stage implicit A-stable Runge-Kutta scheme such that $[\mathbf{A}]$ is non-singular. If $[\mathbf{A}]$ and $\mathbf{b}$ satisfy at least one of the following conditions:

$$b_j = a_{sj}, \quad \text{for } j = 1, \dots, s, \quad (2.63)$$

$$b_1 = a_{i1}, \quad \text{for } i = 1, \dots, s, \quad (2.64)$$

the scheme is called L-stable.

We will now analyze the stability properties for the numerical schemes considered in this work, in particular RK4 from Section 2.2.1 and the IMEXs from Section 2.2.3. Rather than analyzing the stability regions of the implicit and explicit components separately, the stability region of the combined scheme is considered. Calvo et al. [47] defined the stability function of an IMEX Runge-Kutta scheme as:

$$R(x + iy) = \frac{\det \left([\mathbf{I}]d - x[\mathbf{A}] - iy \begin{bmatrix} \check{\mathbf{A}} \end{bmatrix} + z[\mathbf{1}]\mathbf{b}^T + iy[\mathbf{1}]\check{\mathbf{b}}^T \right)}{\det \left([\mathbf{I}]d - x[\mathbf{A}] - iy \begin{bmatrix} \check{\mathbf{A}} \end{bmatrix} \right)}. \quad (2.65)$$

In this context, $x = \Delta t \alpha$ and $y = \Delta t \beta$, where $\alpha \in \mathbb{R}$ and $\beta \in \mathbb{R}$ represent the eigenvalue of the implicit and explicit blocks, respectively, resulting from a scalar test equation:

$$\frac{dx}{dt} = \alpha x + i\beta x, \quad (2.66)$$

where $\alpha \leq 0$, $\beta > 0$ and $i = \sqrt{-1}$. The stability functions for the considered schemes are:

1. **Classical Runge-Kutta** [39]

$$R(x+iy) = 1 + z + \frac{z^2}{2} + \frac{z^3}{6} + \frac{z^4}{24}. \quad (2.67)$$

2. **ARS(2,2,2)** [48]

$$R(x+iy) = \frac{1 + (1-2\gamma)x + \gamma(\delta-1)y^2 + i[y + \gamma(1-\delta-\gamma)xy]}{(1-\gamma x)^2}. \quad (2.68)$$

3. **ARS(4,4,3)** [48]

$$R(x+iy) = \frac{48(6-6x+x^3) - 144(1-x)y^2 + 3x^2y^2 - 7y^4}{18(x-2)^4} + \quad (2.69)$$

$$+ \frac{i[48(6-6x-y^2)y + 29x^3y + 57xy^3]}{18(x-2)^4} \quad (2.70)$$

Figure 2.4 shows the stability region for several time-integration schemes.

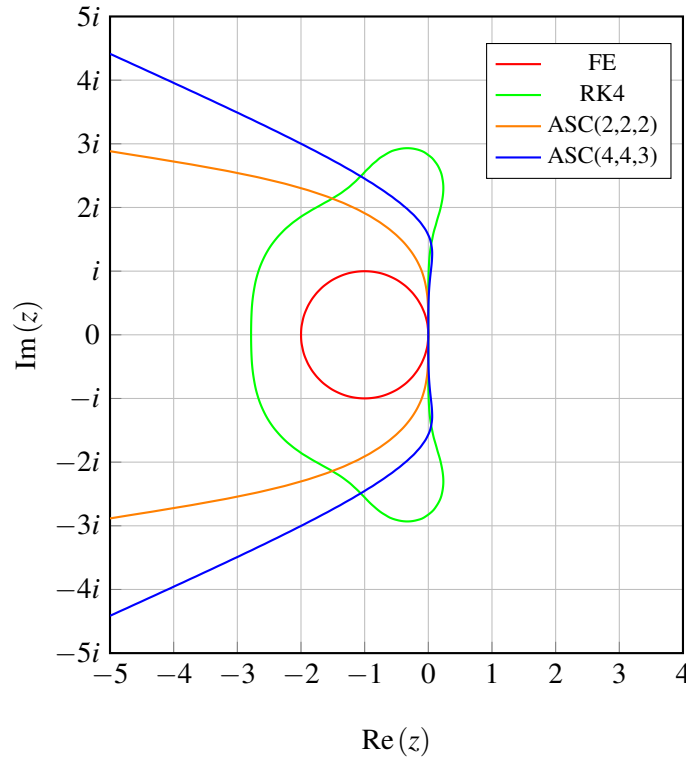


Figure 2.4: Stability regions comparison in the complex plane for several time-integration schemes. The interior of each curve represents the stable region where $|R(z)| \leq 1$.

These stability regions were obtained through a numerical process (detailed in Appendix E) since directly solving the inequality in Equation (2.60) is analytically intractable. The numerical

approach evaluates the stability function $R(z)$ across the complex plane and identifies the boundary where $|R(z)| < 1$.

Table 2.13 summarizes the most important characteristics of each stability region.

Table 2.13: Characteristics of each stability region

	Re_{min}	Re_{max}	Im_{min}	Im_{max}	P_{Re}
FE	-2.00	0	$-i$	i	(0,0)
RK4	-2.79	0.24	$-2.93i$	$-2.93i$	$(0, + - 2.93)$
ARS(2,2,2)	$-\infty$	0.00055	$-\infty$	$+\infty$	(0,0)
ARS(4,4,4)	$-\infty$	0.061	$-\infty$	$+\infty$	$(0, + - 0.33)$

As seen, the results demonstrate stability properties consistent with theoretical expectations:

1. Explicit Schemes Comparison

The fourth-order Runge-Kutta scheme (RK4) exhibits a significantly larger stability region compared to the Forward Euler (FE) method, with its boundary fully encompassing FE's stability domain. The RK4's expanded stability region (39.5% times larger along the imaginary axis than FE and 39.5% times larger in the real axis) confirms its superior tolerance to higher-frequency modes;

2. Implicit Schemes Characteristics

In contrast, the implicit ARS schemes demonstrate open stability regions extending infinitely along the negative real axis, meaning an unconditionally stable character for the diffusive term. Between the two IMEX formulations, ARS(4,4,3) shows greater stability coverage than ARS(2,2,2);

3. Comparative Stability Performance

Notably, the IMEX schemes unbounded real axis character displaces a superior role when applied to stiff regime problems, although their orders are lower than the RK4. Both ARS(4,4,3) and RK4 exhibit stability regions that extend to the positive real axis, with RK4 demonstrating a significantly larger stable area in this regime.

All things considered, giving the bigger stability region for the IMEX, potentially implies a greater admissible time-step, as explained in the next Subsection.

2.2.5 Time Step Restriction

Both the FE and RK4 schemes have closed stability regions. This property of explicit schemes leads to two time-step restrictions, known as CFL conditions [49], corresponding to the convective and diffusive terms. These conditions limit the admissible time step to ensure numerical stability.

Moukalled et al. [49] defines the general N_{dim} —dimensional convective CFL condition as

$$\Delta t_u \leq \frac{Co_u^{max}}{\sum_{i=1}^{N_{dim}} \frac{V_i}{\Delta x_i}}, \quad (2.71)$$

and the diffusive CFL condition as

$$\Delta t_v \leq \frac{Co_v^{max}}{v \sum_{i=1}^{N_{dim}} \frac{1}{\Delta x_i^2}}, \quad (2.72)$$

where V_i is the i —th velocity component. The stable Δt corresponds to the minimum value satisfying these constraints across all grid cells. The standard limits $Co_u^{max} = 1$ and $Co_v^{max} = 0.5$ are derived for the FE scheme and are considered by default in *SP-Wind*. However, higher-order time integrators are stable for larger Courant numbers.

In the cavity case study, we use the stability analysis from Saad and Karam [50], which provides precise Co_u^{max} and Co_v^{max} values for high-order Runge-Kutta schemes. This allows for a larger, stable time step compared to the conventional FE-based criterion.

For IMEX schemes, a general CFL condition remains undefined [48]. Their open stability region along the negative real axis exhibits no intersection point, rendering these schemes effectively unconditionally stable with respect to viscous time-step restrictions.

2.2.6 Pressure Projection Method

As seen previously, the pressure projection method constitutes a critical step not only in terms of computational time but also in terms of accuracy. The reason is that this stage requires solving Equations (2.52) and/or (2.54), which constitutes a large, sparse linear system, which can be computationally expensive, therefore dominating the cost of the overall simulation. Moreover, the projection directly determines the accuracy with which the divergence-free condition is enforced in the velocity field. Any inaccuracies in this step propagate throughout the solution, numerical instabilities, or loss of mass conservation. For these reasons, we find it important to clearly describe this step in detail. Consider that any time-integrator can be written as,

$$[\mathbf{M}] \mathbf{V}^{*(n+1)} = \mathbf{H}^{*(n)} - \Delta t^* \cdot \nabla_n^* P^{*(n+1)}, \quad (2.73)$$

where $\mathbf{H}^{*(n)} = \mathbf{V}^{*(n)} + \Delta t^* \cdot \text{RHS}(\mathbf{V}^{*(n)})$ expresses the sum of the explicit terms of the numerical scheme applied. Recall that $\text{RHS}(\mathbf{V}^{*(n)})$ accounts for all terms on the right side of the momentum equation, except the pressure. Furthermore, $[\mathbf{M}]$ is set as the mass matrix, expressing all the interaction coefficients between cells and, in fact, $[\mathbf{M}]$ determines whether the numerical method is implicit or explicit; in the latter case, it reduces to the identity matrix, $[\mathbf{I}]$.

The principle behind this method is the fundamental theorem of vector calculus, known as Helmholtz-Hodge decomposition, which states that any sufficiently smooth, rapidly decaying vector field can be resolved into the sum of an irrotational vector field (curl-free) and a solenoidal vector field (divergence-free) [51, 52]. Applied to the velocity field, we can write

$$\mathbf{V}^{*\#} = \mathbf{V}_\perp^* + \mathbf{V}_\parallel^*, \quad (2.74)$$

where $\mathbf{V}_\parallel^*$ and $\mathbf{V}_\perp^*$ are the irrotational and solenoidal velocity components, respectively, i.e.,

$$\nabla^* \cdot \mathbf{V}_\perp^* = 0, \quad (2.75)$$

$$\nabla^* \times \mathbf{V}_\parallel^* = 0. \quad (2.76)$$

In practice, the form,

$$\mathbf{V}_\perp^* = \mathbf{V}^{*\#} - \mathbf{V}_\parallel^*, \quad (2.77)$$

is what we want to solve for, the incompressible field. Since the irrotational component $\mathbf{V}_\parallel^*$ is curl-free, it can be expressed as the gradient of a scalar potential ϕ^* :

$$\mathbf{V}_\parallel^* = \nabla^* \phi^*, \quad (2.78)$$

thus leading to,

$$\mathbf{V}_\perp^* = \mathbf{V}^{*\#} - \nabla^* \phi^*. \quad (2.79)$$

In the context of the incompressible Navier-Stokes equations, the scalar potential ϕ^* is identified with the pressure gradient, scaled by the time step. Hence, the final velocity field that satisfies the incompressibility constraint is recovered as:

$$\mathbf{V}^{*(n+1)} = \mathbf{V}^{*\#} - \Delta t^* \nabla^* p^*. \quad (2.80)$$

All things considered, the workflow of the pressure correction step begins by considering the discrete Navier-Stokes equations without the pressure term and computing a provisional, non-conservative velocity field $\mathbf{V}^{*\#}$. This intermediate velocity is subsequently corrected to enforce incompressibility through the introduction of the pressure term by solving a Poisson equation for the pressure. If we consider an iterative solver, just as we did in the cavity case study (see Section 4.2), we solve for:

$$\nabla_n^* \cdot \nabla_n^* p^* = \frac{1}{\Delta t^*} \nabla_n^* \cdot \mathbf{H}^{*(n)}. \quad (2.81)$$

Hence, when applying a direct solver, just as in *SP-Wind*, we could solve for the closed form of (2.81):

$$\nabla_n^* \cdot \nabla_n^* p^* = \nabla_n^* \cdot \text{RHS} \left(\mathbf{V}^{*(n)} \right). \quad (2.82)$$

Although there is a natural tendency to simplify the left-hand side of this equation from $\nabla_n^* \cdot \nabla_n^* p^*$ to $[\nabla_n^{*2}] p^*$ - a transformation that is always valid in a continuous domain - its assumption may

introduce a potential caveat. Depending on the selected discretization method and the grid arrangement, this statement may not always be valid. A well-known example arises from the Ladyzhenskaya–Babuška–Brezzi (LBB) condition [53, 54] – also referred to as the divergence stability condition – in finite element analysis. This condition states that using a finite difference (FD) scheme on a collocated grid leads to an even–odd decoupling of the pressure field, resulting in nonphysical solutions for both pressure and velocity. To address this issue, one may employ staggered grids, adopt different interpolation orders for pressure and velocity, or modify the continuity equation to introduce artificial compressibility [55]. This consideration supports the choice of employing the finite-volume method (FVM) in the cavity case study and the option of solving the w -velocity component on a staggered grid in *SP-Wind*. Thus, Equations (2.81) and (2.82) can then be written as well-known Poisson equations, respectively,

$$[\nabla_n^{*2}] p^* = \frac{1}{\Delta t} \nabla_n^* \cdot \mathbf{H}^{*(n)}, \quad (2.83)$$

$$[\nabla_n^{*2}] p^* = \nabla_n^* \cdot \text{RHS} \left(\mathbf{V}^{*(n)} \right). \quad (2.84)$$

The Poisson equation essentially boils down to solving a linear system. In general, the associated computational cost scales according to N^3 (where N refers to the dimension of the system), although more efficient implementations can be obtained by exploiting the sparsity of the matrices or through a smart choice for discretization. However, it is still considered one of the most time-consuming processes in common CFD codes [56, 57]. On the one hand, when selecting a direct solver, the "exact" solution is found, affected only by round-off errors; however, they scale severely in time with the number of elements. On the other hand, in response to this behavior, iterative solvers emerge, consisting, as the name indicates, of an iterative process that approximates, up to a certain desired tolerance, the system solution. As this tolerance increases in demand, so does the time and accuracy. The stability of the linear solvers can be consulted in the Appendix [A].

2.2.7 Linear Solvers

In this section, we present the linear solvers under consideration throughout the test cases. They express ways of solving systems of type $[\mathbf{A}] \mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$.

- **LU Decomposition (SP-Wind):** LU decomposition factorizes the matrix $[\mathbf{A}]$ into a lower triangular matrix $\mathbf{L}$ and an upper triangular matrix $\mathbf{U}$, i.e.,

$$[\mathbf{A}] = [\mathbf{L}] [\mathbf{U}]. \quad (2.85)$$

Once $[\mathbf{L}]$ and $[\mathbf{U}]$ are computed, solving $[\mathbf{A}] \mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ reduces to simple forward and backward substitutions. This approach is efficient when the iteration matrix remains constant and only the right-hand side $\mathbf{b}$ changes. In this work, the LU solver is applied using the implementation available in *SP-Wind*.

- **Conjugate Gradient Method (CG):** The Conjugate Gradient method is an iterative technique for solving linear systems where the matrix is symmetric and positive definite, i.e.,

$$\mathbf{A} = \mathbf{A}^T \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{x}^T \mathbf{A} \mathbf{x} > 0 \quad \forall \mathbf{x} \neq 0. \quad (2.86)$$

It can be derived by minimizing the quadratic objective function

$$Q(\mathbf{x}) = \frac{1}{2} \mathbf{x}^T \mathbf{A} \mathbf{x} - \mathbf{b}^T \mathbf{x} + c, \quad (2.87)$$

whose gradient

$$\nabla Q(\mathbf{x}) = \mathbf{A} \mathbf{x} - \mathbf{b}, \quad (2.88)$$

vanishes at the solution $\mathbf{x}^*$, satisfying

$$\mathbf{A} \mathbf{x}^* = \mathbf{b}. \quad (2.89)$$

The method generates a sequence of conjugate search directions to converge efficiently to $\mathbf{x}^*$. In practice, we will use `scipy.sparse.linalg.cg` [58] to apply this method, as can be seen in Appendix D.

- **Algebraic Multigrid (AMG):** AMG is an iterative solver for large, sparse linear systems that accelerates convergence by operating across multiple levels of coarsened grids. The key idea is that a low-frequency error on a fine grid appears as a high-frequency error on a coarser grid, which is easier to smooth. When convergence slows, the solver switches to a coarser grid.

AMG automatically constructs coarse representations of the system, smoothing errors on fine levels and correcting them on coarse levels. For an in-depth knowledge, see [59]. In the cavity case study, the AMG solver is implemented using `pyAMG.ruge_stuben_solver` [60], also seen in Appendix D.

Chapter 3

Numerical Setups and Case Description

This chapter describes three numerical case studies designed to validate the IMEX schemes (ARS (2,2,2) and ARS (4,4,3)), see Section 2.2.3. The case studies were chosen to follow a logical progression in complexity, gradually increasing both the dimensionality of the problem and the numerical operations involved, such as the addition of the pressure projection method.

The first test, described in Section 3.1, focuses on a one-dimensional convection–diffusion problem. By simplifying the governing equations, this case served as the initial step in the code development. Its main purpose was to examine the sensitivity of the methods to periodic boundary conditions and to provide a controlled environment to validate the basic implementation.

The second test case, presented in Section 3.2, extends the formulation to two dimensions through the classical Lid-Driven Cavity problem, where the full Navier–Stokes equations are solved. This represents a key step forward, as it introduces the pressure term and the projection step. The goal here is twofold: to better understand the pressure projection method and to assess the physical reliability of the IMEX solutions. This case also serves as the basis for a convergence study analyzing the error behavior under spatial and temporal refinement.

Finally, a three-dimensional case, discussed in Section 3.3, is considered by adapting the *SP-Wind* code, originally developed for wind farm simulations, to a cilia-driven flow configuration. Despite considerable effort, the IMEX schemes could not be successfully integrated into this framework. Although the code was rewritten twice, issues related to boundary condition enforcement and inter-processor communication prevented the simulations from yielding physically meaningful results.

3.1 Burgers’ Equation (1D)

Burgers’ equation is a fundamental one-dimensional model that captures the interplay of non-linear convection and viscous diffusion. Due to its simplicity and analytical tractability, it is widely used as a reference for testing new time integration schemes in fluid dynamic codes.

Early numerical studies applied pseudospectral, finite-element and finite-difference discretizations together with explicit or implicit, single-step, time integration schemes [61, 62]. More recently, a study by Mukundan and Awasthi [63] proposed a novel numerical scheme based on the method of lines (MOL) to solve the nonlinear time-dependent Burgers' equation. This approach utilized second-order finite differences for spatial discretization and an implicit linearized scheme for time integration. The resulting system was then integrated using an implicit scheme, which allowed for the treatment of stiff terms in the equation. Related to the goal of this thesis, Rottmann-Matthes [64] introduced an IMEX-RK scheme to capture similarity solutions in the multidimensional Burgers' equation. The scheme was based on a method of lines (semi-)discretization and proved second-order convergence for smooth solutions. Numerical experiments demonstrated the method's effectiveness across various viscosity regimes, suggesting its suitability for capturing similarity solutions in general hyperbolic-parabolic partial differential equations.

To facilitate the comparison, we choose the work of Javidi [65], which presents a numerical solution of Burgers' equation using a modified extended backward differentiation formula (MF-MEBDF) scheme. This approach combined the method of lines with a matrix-free implementation of the MF-MEBDF, providing an efficient and accurate solution to Burgers' equation. As a spatial discretisation scheme, it applies the 4th–order finite difference method on a cell-centered grid (see Darvishi and Javidi [66]). The results obtained demonstrated the effectiveness of the method, with numerical solutions that closely matched exact solutions for several viscosity values. The Burgers' equation is

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial t} + u \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = \nu \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial x^2}, \quad (3.1)$$

with initial condition,

$$u(0, x) = u_{exact}(0, x), \quad (3.2)$$

and boundary conditions,

$$BC_1^{(n)} = u_{exact}(t_n, 0), \quad (3.3)$$

$$BC_2^{(n)} = u_{exact}(t_n, N_x). \quad (3.4)$$

The exact solution is defined as,

$$u(t, x) = \frac{0.1e^{-A} + 0.5e^{-B} + e^{-C}}{e^{-A} + e^{-B} + e^{-C}}, \quad (3.5)$$

where,

$$A = \frac{0.05}{\nu} (x - 0.5 + 4.95t), \quad (3.6)$$

$$B = \frac{0.25}{\nu} (x - 0.5 + 0.75t), \quad (3.7)$$

$$C = \frac{0.5}{\nu} (x - 0.5 + 0.375t). \quad (3.8)$$

For the IMEX scheme, the conjugate gradient method was used to solve the momentum equations (Equation (2.50)), with a tolerance of 10^{-6} . This value was chosen based on trial-and-error, and is coherent with the tolerance defined at the cavity case. The code for this test case is shown in Appendix [F].

3.2 Lid-Driven Cavity Flow (2D)

Next, we turn our attention to the Lid-Driven Cavity flow in a two-dimensional domain. This benchmark problem is widely recognized in CFD as a standard test for the implementation of numerical schemes. In the present work, it also marks the first application of the implemented IMEX schemes to the full Navier–Stokes equations (see (2.10) and (2.11)). Unlike the previous one-dimensional case, the lid-driven cavity introduces additional physical meaning through the pressure–velocity coupling and projection step, providing a meaningful validation of the solver.

Starting with the most relevant work in the field, Ghia et al. [67] study introduced a coupled-strongly-implicit multigrid (CSI-MG) algorithm to solve the two-dimensional incompressible Navier–Stokes equations for the lid-driven cavity flow, with a constant lid velocity at Reynolds numbers up to 10,000 on uniform meshes (fine mesh as 257×257 grid points). Using a vorticity stream function formulation and a full multigrid (FMG) cycle, the authors achieved convergence rates that were far superior to conventional Gauss-Seidel iterations, reducing the CPU time for a grid 129×129 at $Re = 1000$ to only 1.5 min on an AMDAHL 470 V/6 computer. Furthermore, in their study, benchmark results for the u and v velocity components along the vertical centerline, the stream-function and vorticity fields, and the locations and strengths of the primary and secondary vortices were reported for a cavity with an aspect ratio equal to 1. In addition, they also reported the mean kinetic energy for several Re numbers. These quantities were compared with previously published data for $Re = 100, 400$ and 1000 , and the agreement of the velocity profiles and streamline patterns served as the primary validation of their CSI-MG solver.

Later, Benjamin and Denny [68] obtained high- Re solutions ($Re = 10,000$) on a non-uniform 151×151 grid, but required computational times of an hour or more. Agarwal [69] used a uniform 121×121 mesh with a third-order upwind scheme to reach $Re = 7500$, again at substantial cost. Together, these works form a comprehensive theoretical and numerical baseline for evaluating IMEX schemes on the lid-driven cavity flow problem. Recently, the work by Erturk [70] provided high-accuracy reference solutions for $Re \leq 100$, using second-order central differencing and fine uniform grids to eliminate discretization error in the viscous-dominated limit. Then Khorasanizade and Joao Sousa [71] studied the same problem at moderate Reynolds numbers using the incompressible Smoothed Particle Hydrodynamics (SPH) method. The authors developed and tested a new treatment for no-slip boundary conditions that improves the accuracy of wall shear stress calculations. They also incorporated a particle shifting algorithm to avoid particle clustering and enhance numerical stability. The method was applied for Reynolds numbers of 100, 400, 1000, and 3200, and the obtained results were consistent with the data from Ghia et al. Ghia et al. [67]. The main result was that the new boundary condition reduces errors in the wall force

calculations and improves the formation of vortices inside the cavity. A recent validation study from Sumesaraayi and Ihmsen [72] reproduced the case $Re = 100$, confirming that the total kinetic energy reaches a steady state after ≈ 10 s with a value of 0.034, with the calculated u and v profiles corresponding to the Ghia data within numerical tolerance.

The test case under consideration is the classical lid-driven cavity flow, consisting of a square cavity with an aspect ratio of 1, as shown in Figure 3.1, and described by the Navier-Stokes equations. The top wall (lid) moves with a constant velocity U_{lid} , while all others remain stationary. Table 3.1 summarizes the characteristic lengths for the lid-driven cavity flow case study.

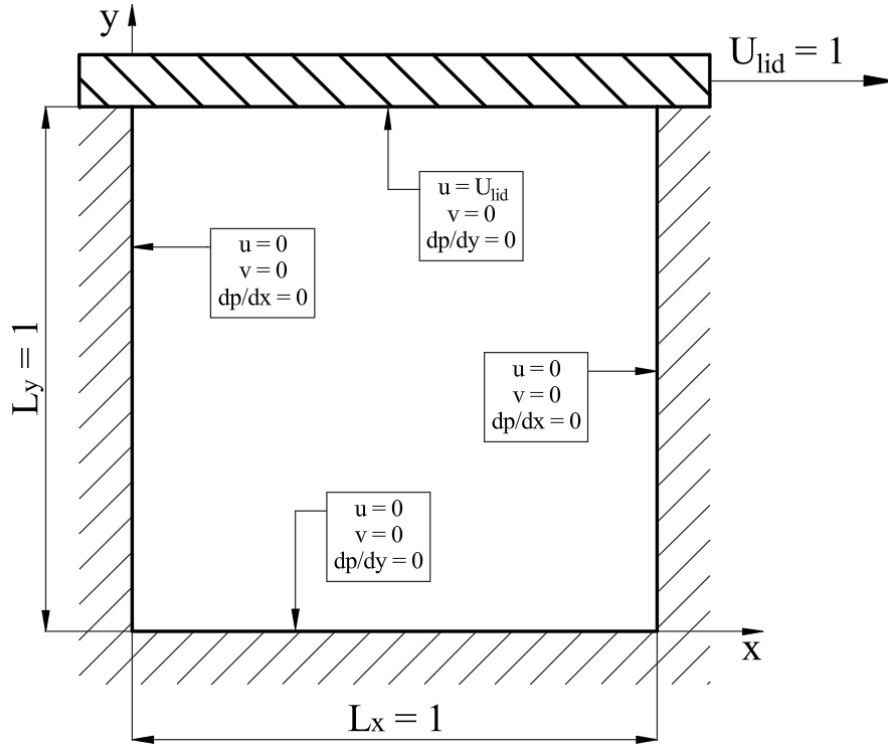


Figure 3.1: Sketch of the domain and boundary conditions for the lid-driven cavity flow case study.

Table 3.1: Scaling parameters used to non-dimensionalize the momentum equations and continuity equation, along with their primary dimensions, for the lid-driven cavity flow case study

Scaling Parameter	Associated Variable	Value
L_c	L_x	1
V_c	U_{lid}	1
f	U_{lid}/L_x	1
$p_0 - p_\infty$	U_{lid}^2	1

Furthermore, we applied a second-order Finite Volume method for spatial discretization along with the boundary conditions shown in Table 3.2. Note that due to the left-staggered grid arrangement

Table 3.2: Boundary conditions for the lid-driven cavity flow domain

Left-wall	Bottom-wall	Right-wall	Top-wall
$u_{y,2}^* = 0$	$u_{0,x}^* = -u_{1,x}^*$	$u_{y,N_x+1}^* = 0$	$u_{N_y+1,x}^* = 2U_{lid}^* - u_{N_y,x}^*$
$v_{y,1}^* = -v_{y,2}^*$	$v_{1,x}^* = 0$	$v_{y,N_x+1}^* = -v_{y,N_x}^*$	$v_{N_y+1,x}^* = 0$
$p_{y,1}^* = p_{y,2}^*$	$p_{0,x}^* = p_{1,x}^*$	$p_{y,N_x+1}^* = p_{y,N_x}^*$	$p_{N_y+1,x}^* = p_{N_y,x}^*$

(see Figure B.1 in Appendix B), for the same wall, a combination of Dirichlet and Neumann boundary conditions is applied.

Lastly, the IMEX schemes are evaluated at a Reynolds number of 100, a regime where the time step is restricted primarily by the viscous CFL condition. This setting provides a controlled, yet challenging environment for assessing the accuracy, stability, and efficiency of the proposed approach.

3.3 Cilia Case Study (3D)

The setup of the cilia-driven flow is established with two main steps. First, we take the wind-farm case already implemented in *SP-Wind* software and changed the boundary conditions on the upper and lower walls to the no-slip condition, maintaining the periodic inlet-outlet. Then, we disable the modules for the blades and nacelle, as well as the aero-elastic module applied to the wind turbine's tower. Lastly, we adapt the code to also include the correct equation for the drag coefficient, Equation (2.24), and the post-processing subroutine to accommodate these changes.

It is important to emphasize that, although the cilia operate in a low-Reynolds-number regime where the Stokes approximation is often valid, all simulations in this thesis solve the full incompressible Navier–Stokes equations, Equation (2.10).

Our domain is now characterized by two fixed parallel plates, with a fixed-to-the-ground cylinder (representing the cilia) in-between as seen in Figure 3.2.

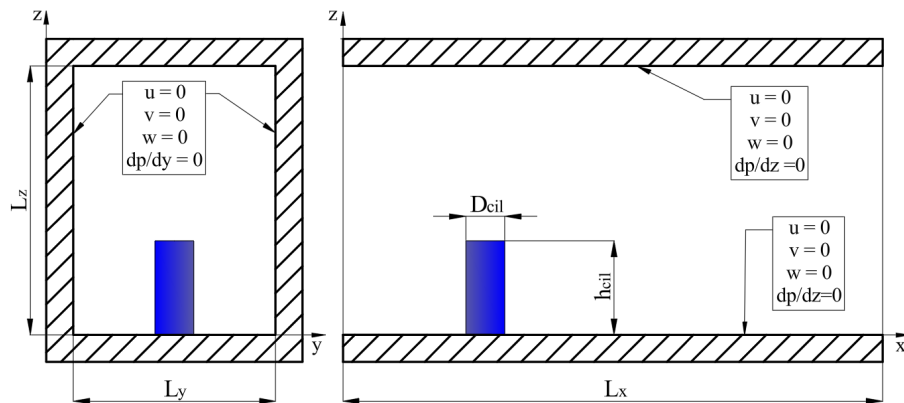


Figure 3.2: Sketch of the domain and boundary conditions for the cilia case.

The selected characteristic lengths are summarized in Table 3.3.

Table 3.3: Scaling parameters used to non-dimensionalize the momentum equations and continuity equation, along with their primary dimensions, for the cilia case study

Scaling Parameter	Associated Variable	Value
L_c	h	1
V_c	$\bar{u}_h = u(h)$	1
f	$\bar{u}_h/h$	1
$p_0 - p_\infty$	$\bar{u}_h^2$	1

In addition, the inlet velocity profile is set based on the analytical solution of the Navier-Stokes equations for a steady one-dimensional, laminar flow ((depend only on the vertical coordinate (z))) that hoes by,

$$u^*(z^*) = \frac{Re_{h^*} \cdot h^{*2}}{2} \left| \frac{\partial p^*}{\partial x^*} \right| [2z^* - z^{*2}]. \quad (3.9)$$

The reader is referred to the Appendix C for a detailed demonstration. Here, Re_{h^*} is the Reynolds number based on the channel half-width h^* and the mean inlet velocity $\bar{u}_h^* = u^*(h^*)$. The forcing term, $|\partial p^*/\partial x^*|$, is defined by the pressure gradient in the main flow direction x . By default, *SP-Wind* assumes $\rho = 1$ and all quantities are non-dimensional, such that $Re = 1/\nu$. The boundary conditions defined as no-slip everywhere, except for the inlet-outlet, that is of type, periodic.

Furthermore, the dimensions of the cilia, following the conventions in Section 1, the aspect ratio is bounded by:

$$40 \leq \frac{h_{cil}^*}{D_{cil}^*} \leq 60. \quad (3.10)$$

In real conditions, the cilia operate in domains much larger than their size. The case studied here is therefore only representative, chosen to be simple enough to verify whether the IMEX scheme overcomes the viscous time-step restriction. We set the cilia height to half the channel half-width, $h_{cil}^* = 0.5$, which gives $D_{cil}^* = 0.01$, corresponding to the mid-value aspect ratio $\frac{h_{cil}^*}{D_{cil}^*} = 50$. In addition, when considering two cilia, the spacing (l_{cil}) is defined such that the applied mesh captures both cilia. Hence, a more correct approach would be to, based on Sedaghat et al. [30], define the cilia spacing as approximately three cilia diameters, i.e. $l_{cil} \approx 0.03$. This implies a further refinement of the grid, since in the current case $\Delta x^* = 0.222$.

Chapter 4

Results and Discussion

This chapter presents the computational results obtained from implementing and validating IMEX time integration schemes. The investigation progresses systematically from one-dimensional Burgers' equation, in Section 4.1, to two-dimensional lid-driven cavity flow, Section 4.2, culminating in a preliminary three-dimensional cilia flow study, presented in Section 4.3.

The numerical schemes are evaluated based on their accuracy, convergence behavior, and computational efficiency, in all sections. Spatial and temporal convergence analysis are conducted using Richardson extrapolation techniques, as seen in Section 4.2, with results benchmarked against established reference data. The performance of IMEX schemes is compared with classical Runge-Kutta methods to assess potential advantages in handling stiff problems.

We consider as validation metrics L^2 -norm errors for Burgers' equation in Section, mean kinetic energy and velocity profiles for cavity flow in Section, and flow characteristics for cilia configurations. The cilia flow analysis examines both single cilium behavior and cilium-cilium interaction dynamics where we examine qualitatively the flow characteristics, providing sense for this type of flows.

4.1 Burgers' Equation (1D)

We implemented a computational code (see Appendix F) to perform the numerical integration of Burgers' equation. A test case defined by Javidi [65] was evaluated, with the discretization of 10 elements for an end simulation time of 1 second. The time-step is set equal to 10^{-4} , and the kinematic viscosity is equal to 1.

As shown in Figure 4.1, the IMEX solutions coincide with the RK4 solution, and both are in close agreement with the analytical solution given in Equation (3.5).

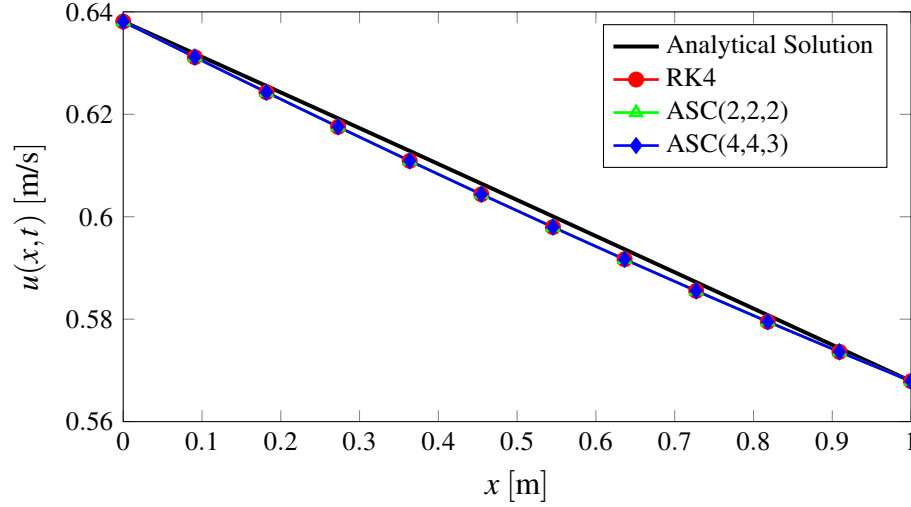


Figure 4.1: Comparison of numerical solutions obtained using classical Runge-Kutta (RK4) and IMEX schemes (ARS(2,2,2) and ARS(4,4,3)) against the analytical solution, for $t = 1$, $\nu = 1$ and $N_x = 10$, for the one-dimensional Burgers' equation case study.

Table 4.1 shows the L^2 -norm velocity errors for each of the time integration schemes used compared to the exact solution. The results obtained are also compared with those reported by Javidi [65].

Table 4.1: L^2 -norm velocity errors for the one-dimensional Burgers' equation case study using $\nu = 1$ [m²/s] and $N_x = 12$, for $\Delta t = 1 \times 10^{-4}$ [s]

t	RK4	ASC(2,2,2)	ASC(4,4,3)	Javidi
0.2	4.2425×10^{-3}	4.2430×10^{-3}	4.2413×10^{-3}	2.4244×10^{-11}
0.4	4.5292×10^{-3}	4.5297×10^{-3}	4.5280×10^{-3}	6.4101×10^{-11}
0.6	4.7337×10^{-3}	4.7343×10^{-3}	4.7323×10^{-3}	3.7221×10^{-10}
0.8	4.9284×10^{-3}	4.9291×10^{-3}	4.9268×10^{-3}	6.0105×10^{-10}
1.0	5.1125×10^{-3}	5.1133×10^{-3}	5.1108×10^{-3}	6.3600×10^{-10}

We conclude that the IMEx implementation as a proof of concept is successful.

4.2 Lid-Driven Cavity Flow (2D)

With the IMEX scheme encoded and validated in a one-dimensional case study, the next step is to analyze its behaviour in a two-dimensional case study. Using reference data from Ghia et al. [67] and Khorasanizade and Joao Sousa [71], we evaluated the velocity components u and v in the mid-planes (x and y directions) under steady-state conditions. In addition, an order-of-accuracy analysis based on the Richardson extrapolation method [73, 74] is carried out to study how the numerical error evolves with spatial and temporal refinement. These results are presented in Section 4.2.2 and Section 4.2.3, respectively.

Finally, in Section 2.2.5, we investigate whether admissible time-step enlargement in IMEX schemes can compensate for their additional complexity, thereby justifying their use.

4.2.1 Linear Solver Selection

As a first step, an appropriate linear solver was chosen for both the pressure Poisson equation, Equation (2.53), and the stage velocities equations, Equation (2.50). The selection process began with the RK4 time integration scheme. The underlying premise is that the most efficient and/or accurate pressure solver would remain optimal for the IMEX schemes, given identical mesh configurations and boundary conditions. Subsequently, with the pressure solver established, the optimal solver for the momentum equations was determined, within the ARS(4,4,3) time integration scheme.

Two linear solvers were evaluated: Conjugate Gradient (CG) and Algebraic Multigrid (AMG), see Section 2.2.7. The computational efficiency was quantified by the temporal cost per iteration ($C_{\Delta t}$), defined as the total wall time divided by the number of iterations. Figure 4.2 presents these results on a log-log scale, revealing the distinct scaling characteristics of each solver. The AMG solver demonstrates slightly faster convergence relative to the CG, particularly at higher resolutions, making it the preferred choice for pressure system solutions.

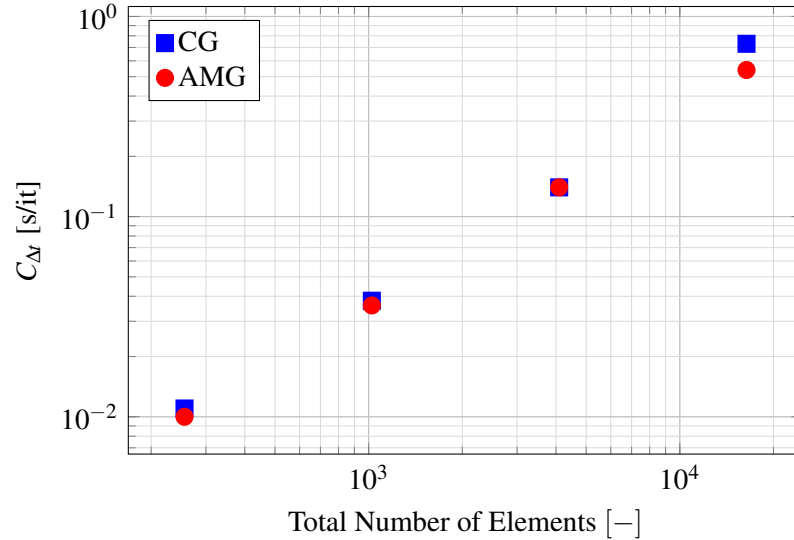


Figure 4.2: Comparative performance analysis of Conjugate Gradient (CG) and Algebraic Multigrid (AMG) linear solvers for the pressure Poisson equation using the RK4 time integration scheme for the two-dimensional lid-driven cavity flow case study.

Following the selection of AMG as the optimal linear solver for the pressure system, the same comparative approach was applied to solve the linear systems as part of the stage velocity calculation. The results again demonstrated that the numerical solution accuracy remains insensitive to the choice of linear solver. However, in contrast to the pressure system results, the CG method slightly outperformed AMG for the velocity calculations, as illustrated in Figure 4.3. Another important observation is the inherently higher computational cost associated with the IMEX scheme

compared to the RK4 method, when merging Figure 4.2 and 4.3. This was anticipated, as the IMEX formulation requires solving an additional linear system per iteration, thereby increasing the overall computational burden.

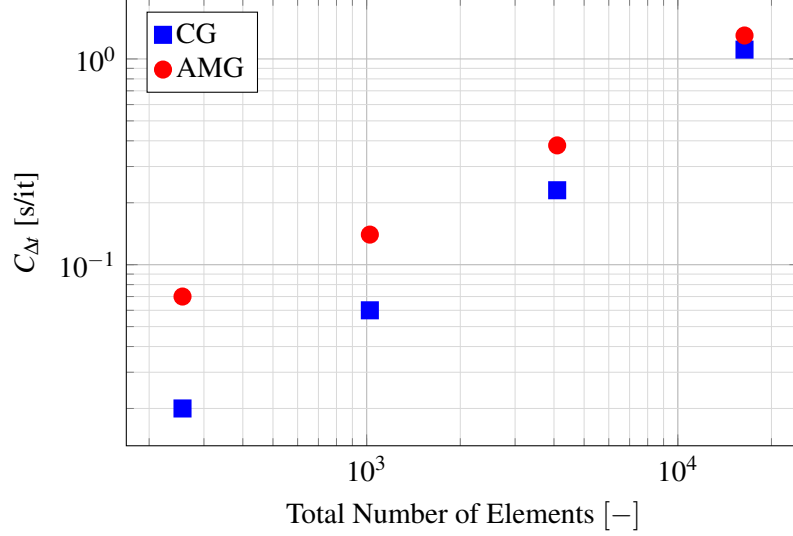


Figure 4.3: Comparative performance analysis of Conjugate Gradient (CG) and Algebraic Multi-grid (AMG) linear solvers for the momentum equations using the IMEX ASC(4,4,3) time integration scheme for the two-dimensional lid-driven cavity flow case study.

The final choice will be to consider AMG as the pressure-Poisson solver and CG as the stage velocities solver, when used. The computational codes for the RK4 and IMEX time integration schemes can be found in Appendix G.

4.2.2 Spatial Convergence Analysis

Prior to presenting the spatial convergence results, it is essential to specify the physical quantity to be monitored during the convergence analysis. This quantity must be global in nature to avoid sensitivity to local variations between different grid resolutions. Following established practices in lid-driven cavity flow studies [67, 71, 73, 75], the mean kinetic energy of the cavity ($\bar{E}_k$) was selected as the convergence metric defined as:

$$\bar{E}_k = \frac{1}{2V_T} \int_{\mathcal{V}} |\mathbf{V}|^2 d\mathcal{V} \approx \frac{1}{2V_T} \sum_{i=1}^{N_{elm}} |\mathbf{V}|^2 \mathcal{V}_i = \frac{1}{2N_{elm}} \sum_{i=1}^{N_{elm}} |\mathbf{V}|^2, \quad (4.1)$$

where N_{elm} is the total number of mesh elements, given by $N_x \times N_y$, and V_T denotes the total volume of fluid within the cavity, expressed as $l_x \times l_y \times 1$.

Proceeding with the spatial convergence analysis, four uniform computational grids $G_i\{N_i\}$ were used, each with N_i elements per direction and a constant refinement ratio of $r = N_{i+1}/N_i = 2$ between successive grids. In our studies, we have used $N_1 = 16$, $N_2 = 32$, $N_3 = 64$, and $N_4 = 128$ elements per direction, which corresponds to a total of 256, 1024, 4096, and 16,384 mesh

elements, respectively. For each simulation, we consider an end time of , which corresponds to the time at which the flow reaches steady state [72], requiring 10,000 iterations. The iteration count was determined by the CFL condition for G_4 at $Re = 100$, with a safety factor of ≈ 1.5 applied.

Table 4.2 summarizes the $\bar{E}_k$ and velocity results obtained with our code and those reported by Ghia et al. [67] and Khorasanizade and Joao Sousa [71]. An observed order of grid convergence of 1.469 and 2.115 was obtained for the sets S_1 and S_2 , respectively (see also Figure 4.4). These results are consistent with the theoretical second-order accuracy of the spatial scheme. Both sets of meshes extrapolate the same continuum value, $\bar{E}_{k,h_0}^* = 0.0343$, indicating that the mean kinetic energy approaches this value as the grid spacing tends to zero. This result is in agreement with the reference data from Ghia et al. [67] and Khorasanizade and Joao Sousa [71]. According to NASA Glenn Research Center [74], the error order for Richardson-extrapolated values is one unit higher than the theoretical order, which implies that the final extrapolated results have a third order error.

Next, we evaluate the fractional error E_1 for each grid set, defined as

$$E_1 = \frac{\varepsilon}{r^{\hat{p}} - 1} = \frac{\bar{E}_{k,2}^* - \bar{E}_{k,1}^*}{\bar{E}_{k,1}^* (r^{\hat{p}} - 1)}, \quad (4.2)$$

where indices 1 and 2 correspond to the finest and medium grids of each set. This quantity serves as an ordered error estimator and provides a good approximation of the discretization error on the fine grid, if G_3 and G_4 , for the respective sets S_1 and S_2 , were computed with sufficient accuracy, i.e., $E_1 < 1$. As observed in Table 4.2, this condition is satisfied. Note that the relative error (ε) alone should not be used as an error estimator, since it does not account for the refinement ratio r or the observed order p , which may lead to underestimation or overestimation of the error [74].

Moreover, we compute the Grid Convergence Index (GCI) for the finest (GCI_{12}) and coarser (GCI_{23}) grid pairs in both sets S_1 and S_2 . The GCI measures the percentage deviation of the computed solution from the asymptotic value, providing an error band that indicates how much the solution would change with further grid refinement [74]. To correctly assess this distance, we use the Asymptotic Rate of Convergence (ARC) metric, defined as

$$ARC = \frac{CGI_{23}}{r^{\hat{p}} \cdot CGI_{12}}. \quad (4.3)$$

Since both sets yield small ARC values, that is, close to unity, we conclude that the computations are within the asymptotic range.

Table 4.2: Richardson-extrapolation analysis for the mean kinetic energy of the two-dimensional lid-driven cavity flow case study. Maximum and minimum velocity components are also shown for comparison against Ghia et al. (1982) and Khorasanizade and Sousa (2014) results.

$N_i = N_x = N_y$	Present				Ghia et al. [67]	Sousa [71]
	16	32	64	128		
$\overline{E}_k^*$	0.02903	0.03265	0.03386	0.03421	0.034 [76]	0.0333
$\hat{p}$	-	-	1.469	2.115	-	-
$\overline{E}_{k,h0}^*$	-	-	0.0343	0.0343	-	-
$ \overline{E}_k^* - \overline{E}_{k,h0}^* \times 10^3$	5.27	1.65	0.437	0.0814	-	-
E_1	-	-	-1.29%	-0.24%	-	-
GCI_{12}	-	-	3.868%	0.7186%	-	-
GCI_{23}	-	-	18.81%	3.21%	-	-
ARC	-	-	1.756	1.032	-	-
u_{min}	-0.1950	-0.2084	-0.2123	-0.2132	-0.2109	-0.2024
y_{min}	0.4688	0.4531	0.4609	0.4570	0.4531	-
v_{min}	-0.2377	-0.2476	-0.2515	0.2525	-0.2453	-0.2368
x_{min}	0.8438	0.8281	0.8047	0.8086	0.8047	-
v_{max}	0.1618	0.1742	0.1774	0.1782	0.1753	-
x_{max}	0.2188	0.2344	0.2422	0.2383	0.2344	0.1669

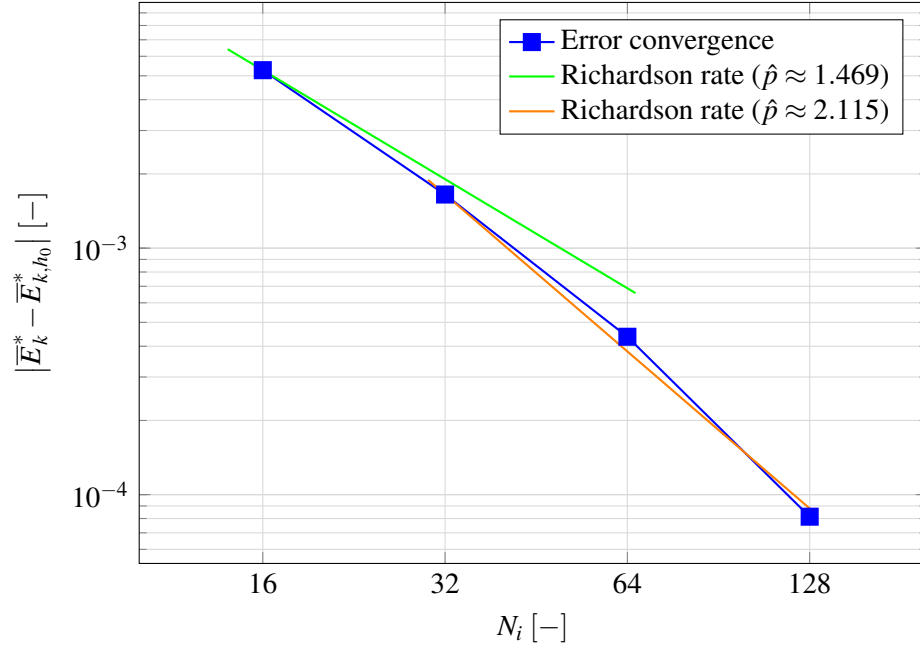


Figure 4.4: Order of convergence for the mean kinetic energy error $|\bar{E}_k^* - \bar{E}_{k,h_0}^*|$ with respect to grid resolution. The semi-log scale demonstrates the second-order convergence rate, as the error decreases approximately quadratically with increasing grid resolution.

Table 4.3 shows the relative errors of the mean kinetic energy compared to the reference data of Ghia et al. [67].

Table 4.3: Relative errors between $\bar{E}_k^*$ and data from Ghia et. al (1982) for G_1 , G_2 , G_3 and G_4

	$G_1\{16\}$	$G_2\{32\}$	$G_3\{64\}$	$G_4\{128\}$
ϵ_{ghia}^r	-14.62%	-3.97%	-0.41%	0.66%
ϵ_{ks}^r	-12.58%	-1.91%	1.65%	2.68%

When comparing the velocity profiles in the mid-planes, starting with the u^* -velocity along the x^* -centerline, the results show good agreement with the reference data from Ghia et al. [67], as illustrated in Figure 4.5, except for the coarsest grid $G_1\{16\}$. Table 4.4 shows the relative error between u_{min}^* , y_{min}^* and the data from [67] at $x^* = 0.5$.

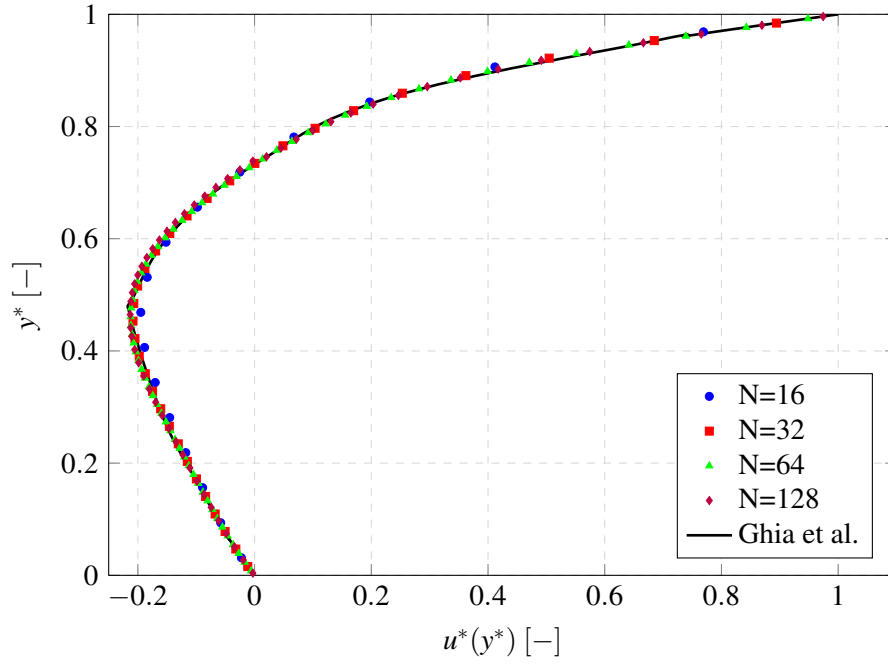


Figure 4.5: Vertical velocity profile ($u^*(y^*)$) along the cavity x^* –centerline plane for different grid resolutions. The results show convergence toward the reference data from Ghia et al. (1982) as grid resolution increases.

Table 4.4: Relative errors between u_{min}^* and its position y_{min}^* and the data from Ghia et al. (1982) at $x^* = 0.5$ plane

	$G_1\{16\}$	$G_2\{32\}$	$G_3\{64\}$	$G_4\{128\}$
$\varepsilon_{u_{min}^*}^r$	-7.55%	-1.20%	0.66%	1.09%
$\varepsilon_{y_{min}^*}^r$	3.45%	0.01%	1.73%	0.87%

For the v^* -velocity along the y^* centerline, similar conclusions hold, as shown in Figure 4.6. Table 4.5 reports the relative errors for v_{min}^* , v_{max}^* , and their respective positions.

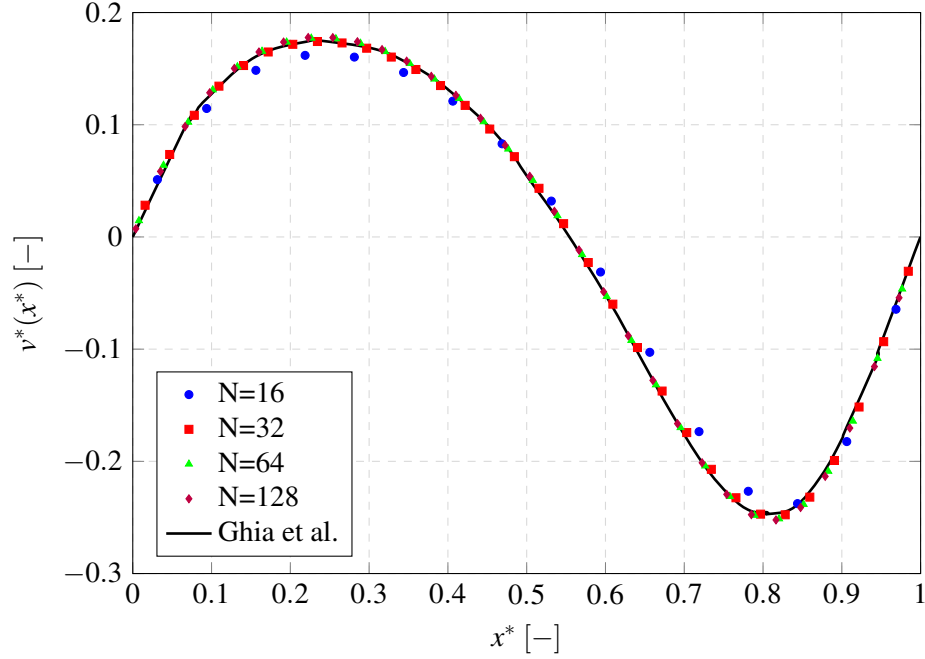


Figure 4.6: Horizontal velocity profile ($v^*(x^*)$) along the cavity y^* -centerline plane for different grid resolutions. The results show convergence toward the reference data from Ghia et al. (1982) as grid resolution increases.

Table 4.5: Relative errors for v_{min}^* , v_{max}^* and its respective position x_{min}^* and x_{max}^* with the data from Ghia et al. (1982) at $y^* = 0.5$

	$G_1\{16\}$	$G_2\{32\}$	$G_3\{64\}$	$G_4\{128\}$
$\mathcal{E}_{v_{min}^*}^r$	-3.13%	0.94%	2.53%	2.90%
$\mathcal{E}_{x_{min}^*}^r$	4.86%	2.91%	0.00%	0.48%
$\mathcal{E}_{v_{max}^*}^r$	-7.67%	-0.62%	1.20%	1.65%
$\mathcal{E}_{x_{max}^*}^r$	-6.66%	0.00%	3.33%	1.66%

As a final note, the non-monotonic trends in Tables 4.4 and 4.5 are due to the local nature of these velocity extrema. Their positions vary with grid refinement, so a direct comparison with the reference data (based on a 129×129 mesh) may not fully reflect the true convergence. The aim of these results is to confirm that our solutions are consistent with known reference data.

Lastly, in Figure 4.7, we show the contour plot for the velocity magnitude and the divergence of the velocity field at $Re = 100$ with mesh 128×128 . Moreover, the stream-lines plot is also shown in Figure 4.8. The moving lid drives a large, central primary vortex that dominates most of the cavity interior. At this Reynolds number, small, weak secondary vortices are just beginning to form in the bottom corners of the cavity. Strong shear layers are visible near the moving top lid and the vertical side walls. The divergence of the velocity field in the domain is of the order

of 10^{-9} , demonstrating that the projection method implemented within the IMEX time integration scheme provides divergence-free solutions with physical meaning.

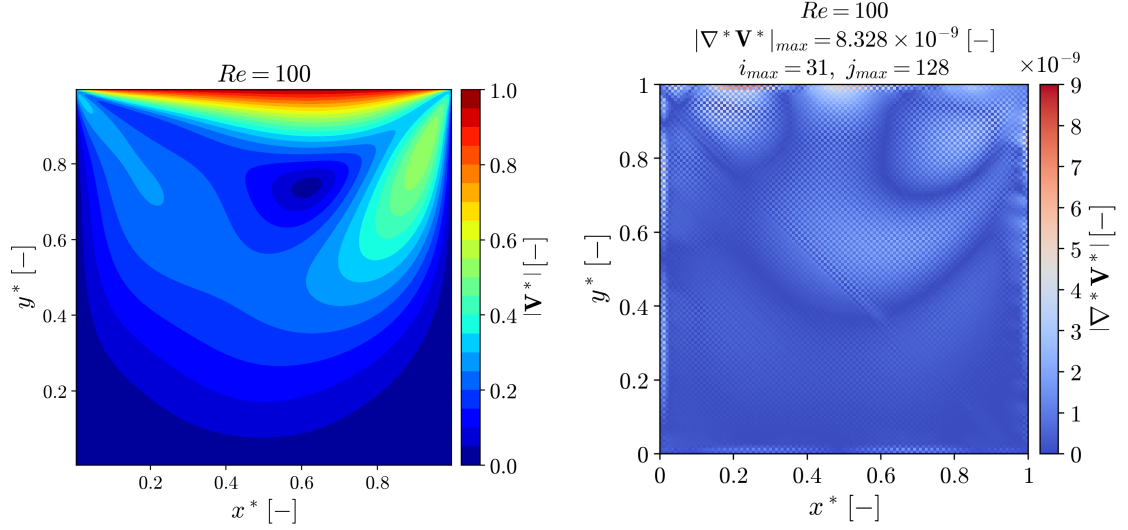


Figure 4.7: On the left, the velocity magnitude contour plot. On the right, the divergence of the velocity field. Results for a grid of 128×128 elements and $Re = 100$.

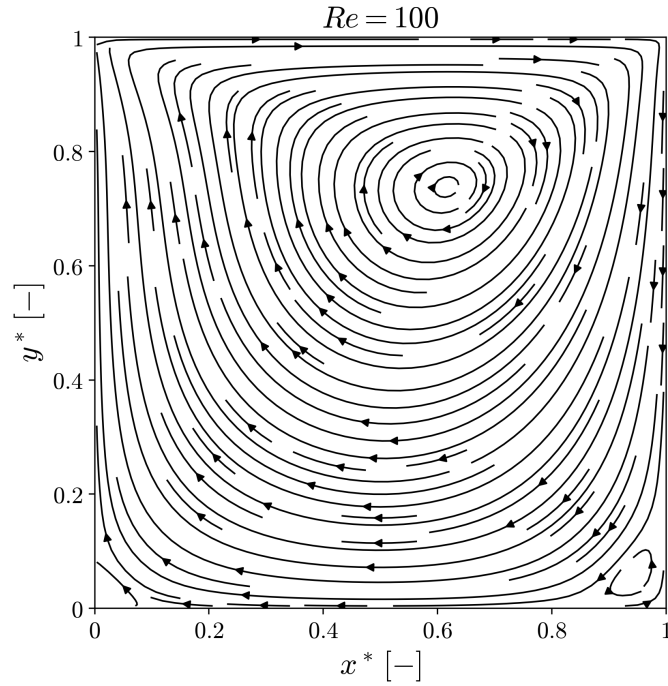


Figure 4.8: Streamline plot of the lid-driven cavity flow for a grid of 128×128 elements and $Re = 100$.

4.2.3 Temporal Convergence Analysis

We proceed into the temporal convergence analysis, considering the following uniform grids $G_1\{16\}$ and $G_2\{32\}$. The quantities of interest were evaluated using five successive time-step sizes Δt_i^* with a refinement ratio of 2, over a simulation period of 10 s. For G_1 , the time-step sets were defined as

$$T_1^{G1} = \{0.1, 0.05, 0.025\}, \quad T_2^{G1} = \{0.05, 0.025, 0.0125\}, \quad T_3^{G1} = \{0.025, 0.0125, 0.00625\}.$$

Similarly, for G_2 , we used,

$$T_1^{G2} = \{0.02, 0.01, 0.005\}, \quad T_2^{G2} = \{0.01, 0.005, 0.0025\}, \quad T_3^{G2} = \{0.005, 0.0025, 0.00125\}.$$

Figure 4.9 shows the results obtained for the order of convergence along simulation time for different groups of time step refinements using the RK4 time integration scheme. For the RK4 scheme on a 16×16 mesh (left panel), considering the first set of time steps T_1^{G1} (as defined in Section 4.2), the order decreases from ≈ 4.6 to 4.4, up to a simulation time of 1. For the second set, T_2^{G1} , the order decreases from roughly 4.3 to 4.2 up to $t \approx 0.7$, after which it exhibits minor oscillations around 4.2. For the 32×32 mesh (right panel), a similar trend is observed for all three temporal sets. The orders vary as follows: $T_1^{G2} \approx 4.50 - 4.30$, $T_2^{G2} \approx 4.23 - 4.14$, and $T_3^{G2} \approx 4.12 - 4.00$.

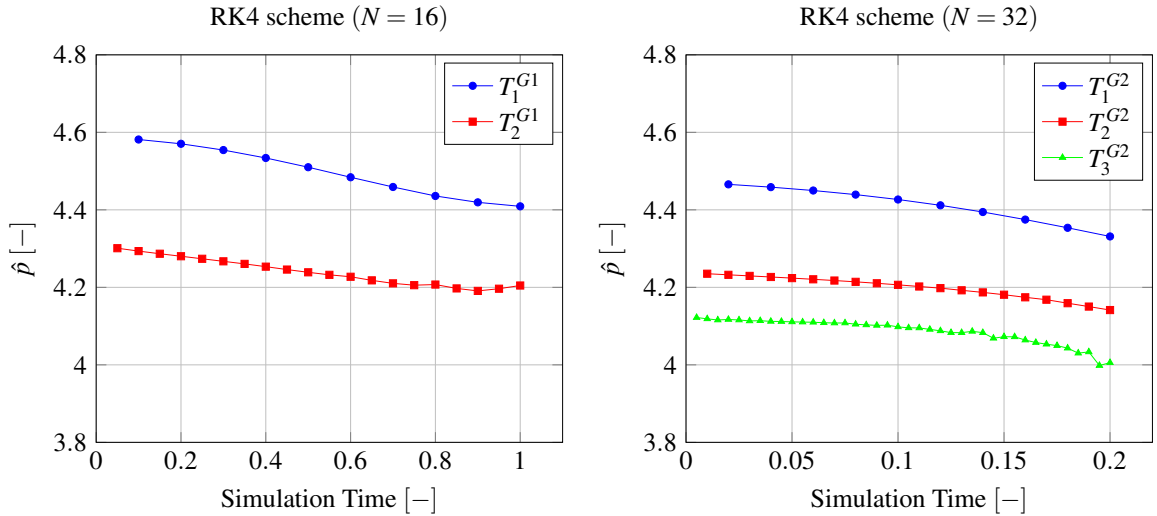


Figure 4.9: Temporal order $\hat{p}$ vs. simulation time for different mesh elements N with RK4 time integration scheme. The panel on the left is relative to the grid $G_1(16)$ and the temporal sets $T_1^{G1} = \{0.1, 0.05, 0.025\}$ and $T_2^{G1} = \{0.05, 0.025, 0.0125\}$. The panel on the right, is relative to the grid $G_2(32)$ and the temporal sets $T_1^{G2} = \{0.02, 0.01, 0.005\}$, $T_2^{G2} = \{0.01, 0.005, 0.0025\}$ and $T_3^{G2} = \{0.005, 0.0025, 0.00125\}$.

The simulation time is limited to $t^* = 1$ for $G_1\{16\}$ and $t^* = 0.2$ for $G_2\{32\}$. Beyond these points, the solutions obtained from successive time-step refinements no longer differ, indicating that temporal convergence is achieved. This explains the absence of T_3^{G1} in the left panel: for

coarse grids, the high-order RK4 method reaches temporal convergence almost immediately, while finer grids, such as $G_2\{32\}$, require smaller time steps. Although all grids converge to the same steady state value, coarser grids converge faster in time but provide less accurate solutions, as illustrated in Figure 4.10.

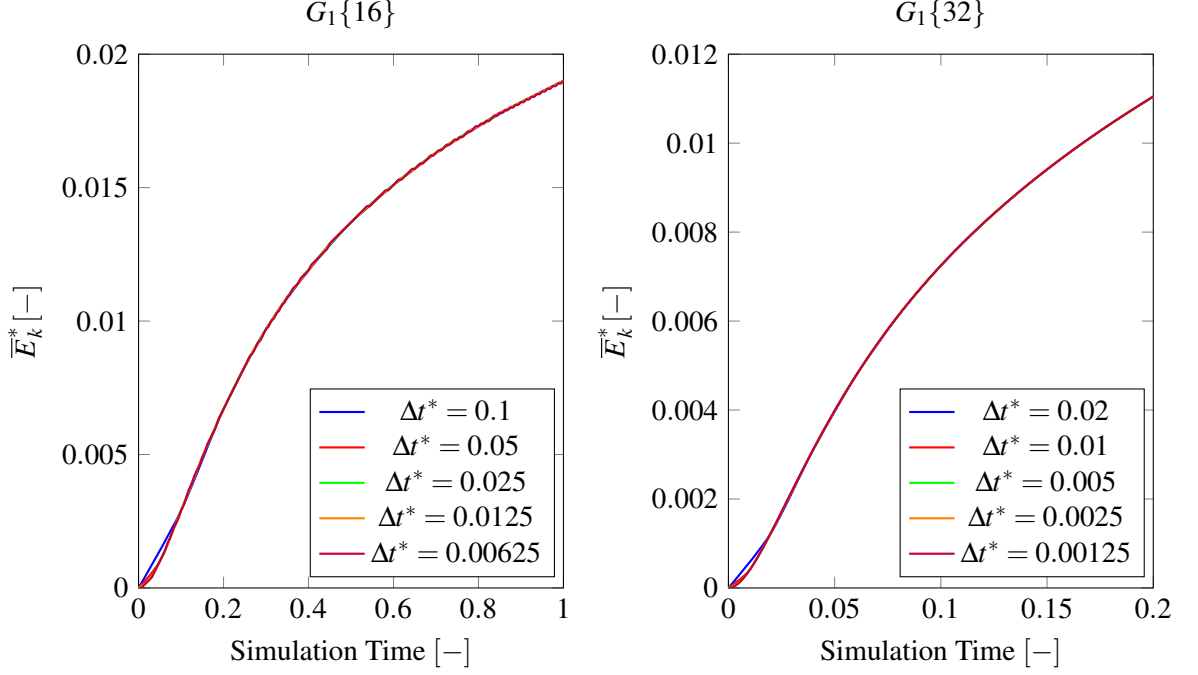


Figure 4.10: Mean non-dimensional kinetic energy ($\bar{E}_k^*$) evolution over time for different time steps using the RK4 time integration scheme. The panel on the left uses $G_1\{16\}$, and the panel on the right uses $G_1\{32\}$. The curves show convergence behavior as Δt^* decreases.

Figure 4.11 shows the extrapolated value of the mean non-dimensional kinetic energy, $\bar{E}_{k,h0}^*$, over time for the RK4 time integration scheme.

A similar analysis for the IMEX time integration schemes, ASC(2,2,2) and ASC(4,4,3), was carried out as seen in Figures 4.12 and 4.13, respectively.

We conclude that ASC(2,2,2) and ASC(4,4,3) exhibit different temporal-order behaviors. In Figure 4.12, ASC(2,2,2) on the grid 16×16 shows a consistent decay in order across all temporal sets, with the maximum value occurring at the start of the simulation. Specifically, T_1^{G1} , T_2^{G1} , and T_3^{G1} start at approximately 2.13, 2.04, and 2.01, respectively. Both T_2^{G1} and T_3^{G1} converge to nearly the same value, close to 2. Although T_1^{G1} begins with the highest order, it decreases to the lowest observed value of about 1.99. On the 36×36 grid, a similar trend is observed, but with smaller discrepancies. In this case, T_1^{G1} and T_2^{G1} converge to 2, while T_3^{G1} stabilizes at a slightly higher value. Notably, T_3^{G1} displays an increase–decrease behavior, while the other sets follow a purely decreasing trend.

In contrast, ASC(4,4,3) achieves higher order values compared to ASC(2,2,2) as expected, since its theoretical order is three, while ASC(2,2,2) is only two. In addition, ASC(4,4,3) exhibits

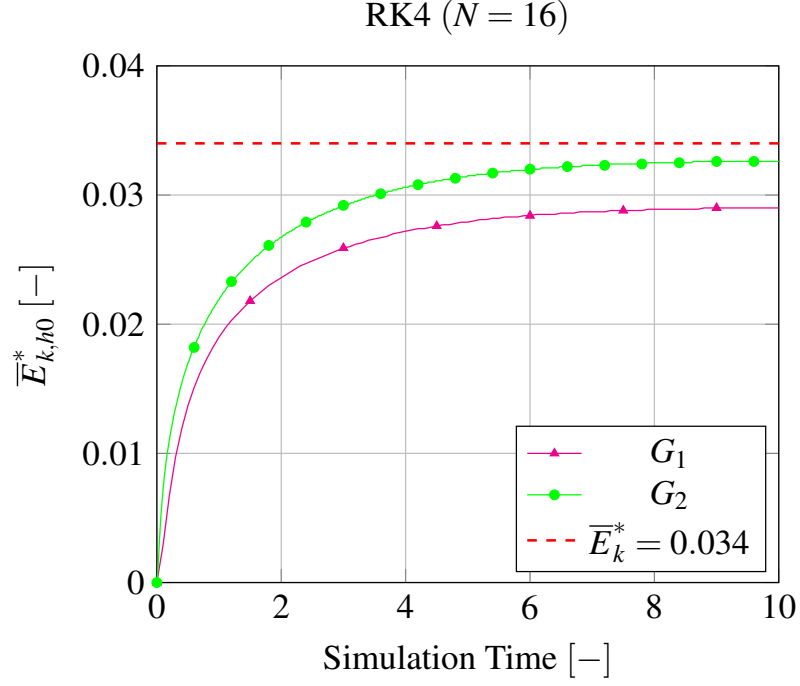


Figure 4.11: Evolution of $\bar{E}_{k,h0}^*$ over time for the RK4 time integration scheme.

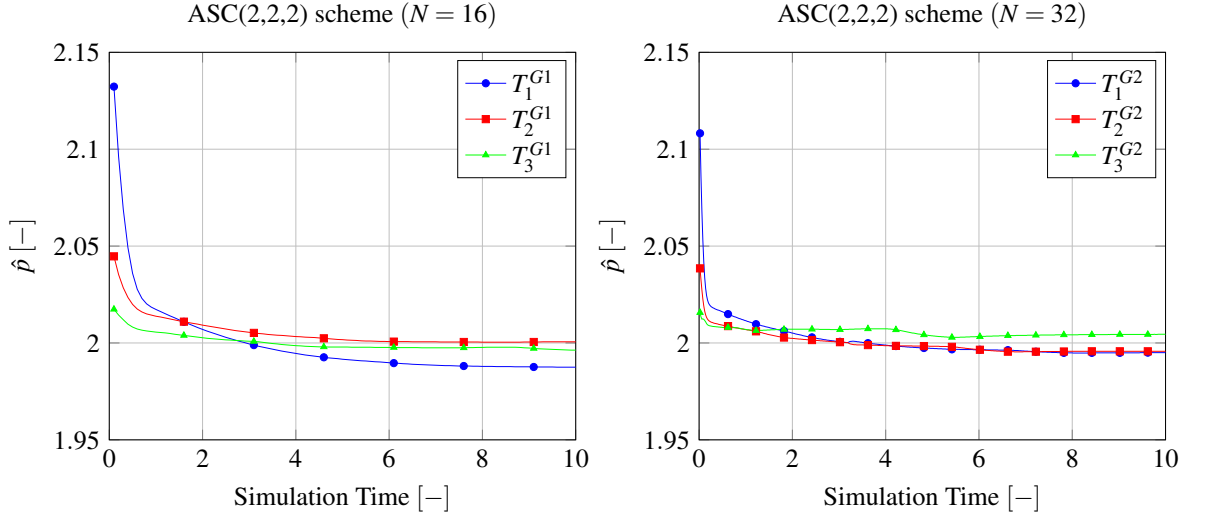


Figure 4.12: Temporal order $\hat{p}$ vs. simulation time for different mesh elements N with IMEX ASC(2,2,2) time integration scheme. The panel on the left is relative to the grid G_1 (16) and the temporal sets $T_1^{G1} = \{0.1, 0.05, 0.025\}$, $T_2^{G1} = \{0.05, 0.025, 0.0125\}$ and $T_3^{G1} = \{0.025, 0.0125, 0.00625\}$. The panel on the right is relative to the grid G_2 (32) and the temporal sets $T_1^{G2} = \{0.02, 0.01, 0.005\}$, $T_2^{G2} = \{0.01, 0.005, 0.0025\}$ and $T_3^{G2} = \{0.005, 0.0025, 0.00125\}$.

a more consistent behavior over time, without crossing among the curves of different temporal sets. The order of T_2^{G1} remains bounded between those of T_1^{G1} (upper) and T_3^{G1} (lower). However, we observe a significant reduction in the observed order compared to the theoretical value of ASC (4,4,3). In addition, the temporal order curve of ASC(4,4,3) is characterized by a minimum

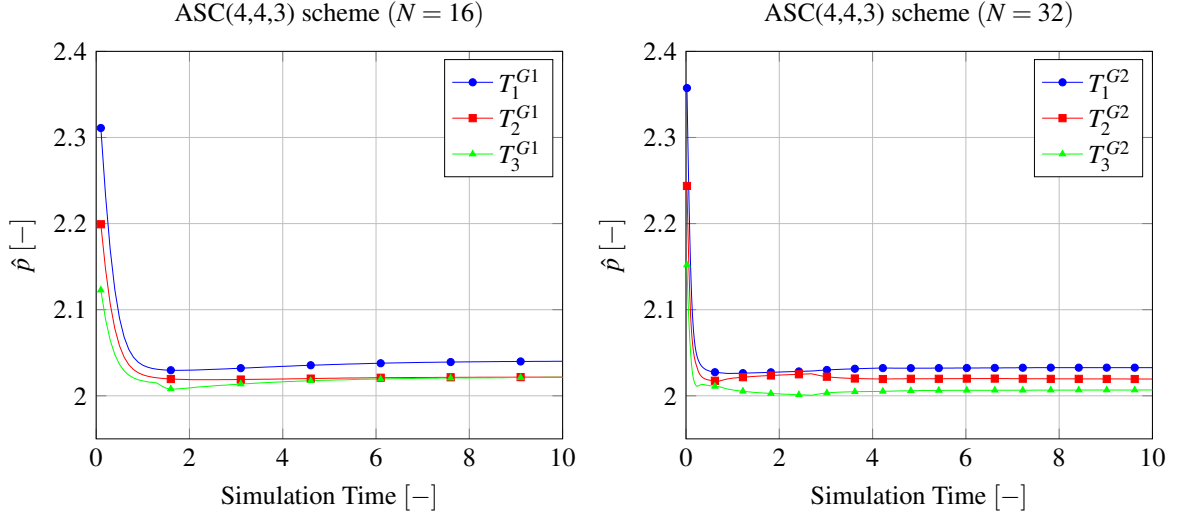


Figure 4.13: Temporal order $\hat{p}$ vs. simulation time for different mesh elements N with IMEX ASC(4,4,3) time integration scheme. The panel on the left is relative to the grid G_1 (16) and the temporal sets $T_1^{G1} = \{0.1, 0.05, 0.025\}$, $T_2^{G1} = \{0.05, 0.025, 0.0125\}$ and $T_3^{G1} = \{0.025, 0.0125, 0.00625\}$. The panel on the right is relative to the grid G_2 (32) and the temporal sets $T_1^{G2} = \{0.02, 0.01, 0.005\}$, $T_2^{G2} = \{0.01, 0.005, 0.0025\}$ and $T_3^{G2} = \{0.005, 0.0025, 0.00125\}$.

at approximately $t^* = [0.25, 1]$, after which it stabilizes (following a horizontal tendency) much faster than the other IMEX scheme.

Figures 4.14 and 4.15 show the evolution of the mean dimensionless kinetic energy with time for both IMEX schemes. Unlike the RK4, the curves remain separated for a longer time before approaching the same value, reflected by the lower-order character of these schemes.

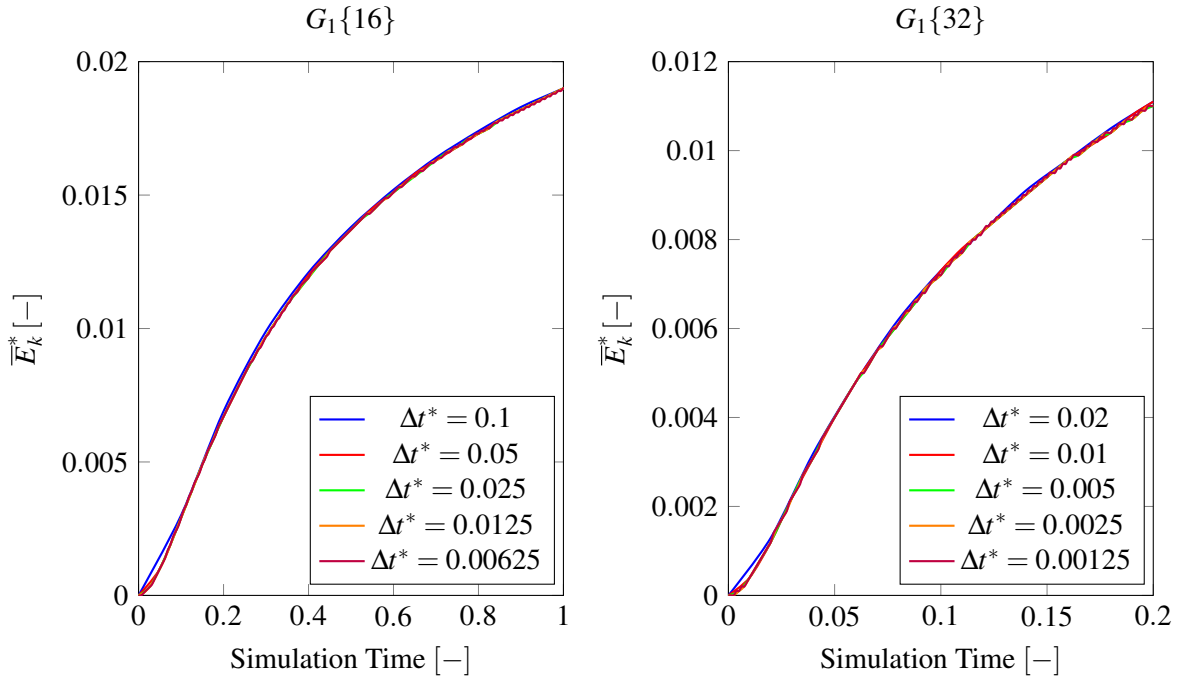


Figure 4.14: Mean non-dimensional kinetic energy ($\overline{E}_k^*$) evolution over time for different time steps using the ASC(2,2,2) time integration scheme. The panel on the left uses $G_1\{16\}$, and the panel on the right uses $G_1\{32\}$. The curves show convergence behavior as Δt^* decreases.

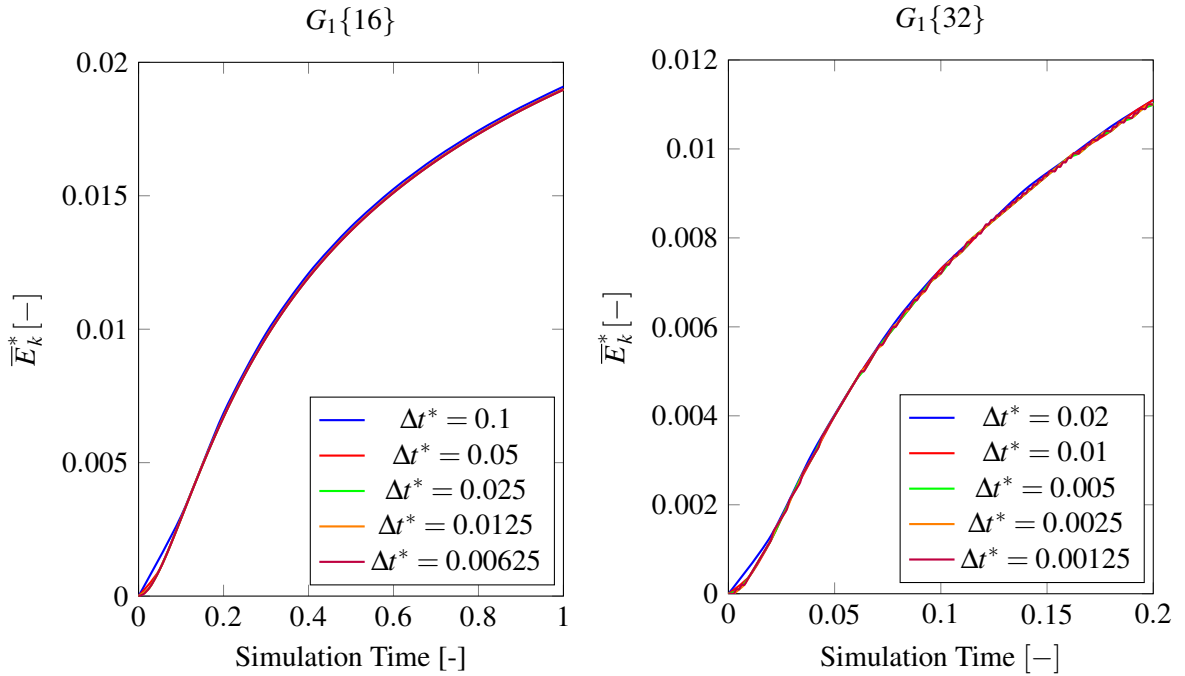


Figure 4.15: Mean non-dimensional kinetic energy ($\overline{E}_k^*$) evolution over time for different time steps using ASC(4,4,3) time integration scheme. The panel on the left uses $G_1\{16\}$, and the panel on the right uses $G_1\{32\}$. The curves show convergence behavior as Δt^* decreases.

Figure 4.16 shows the extrapolated value of the mean non-dimensional kinetic energy error, $\bar{E}_{k,h0}^*$, over time for the IMEX time integration schemes.

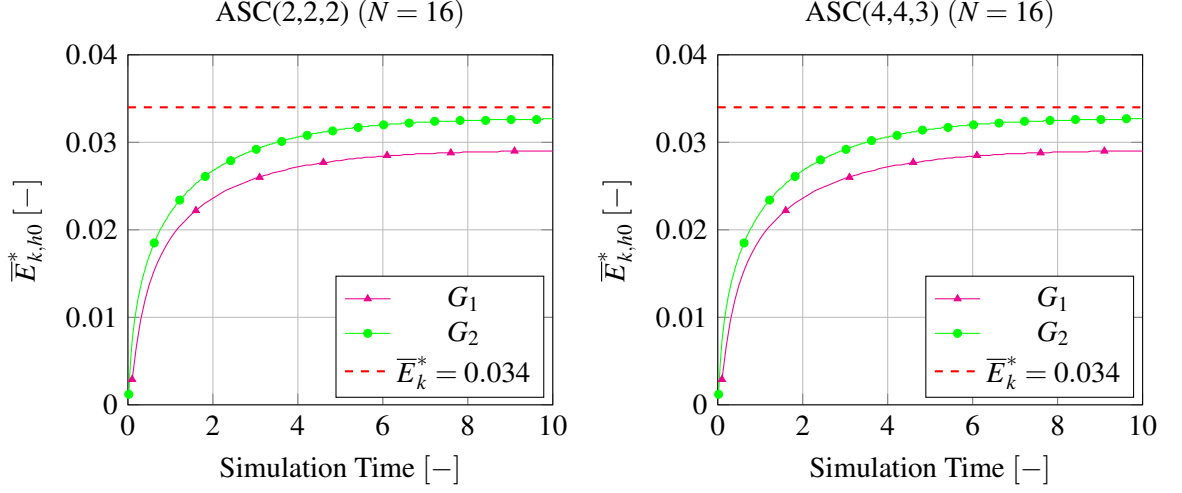


Figure 4.16: Evolution of $\bar{E}_{k,h0}^*$ over time for different IMEX time integration schemes: ASC(2,2,2) (left) and ASC(4,4,3) (right).

Figures 4.11 and 4.16 show that the time-interpolated solution converges to the steady spatial-interpolated solution.

4.2.4 Time-step Sensibility

To evaluate the temporal gains obtained by applying implicit-explicit (IMEX) time integration schemes, we measure the maximum admissible time step, Δt_{max}^* , which avoids numerical divergence of the simulations. Moreover, due to their stability properties (see Section 2.2.4), IMEX schemes are not constrained by viscous effects and are instead limited only by the convective time-step, which was estimated using a trial-and-error procedure, with an initial guess given by the classical CFL condition for advection,

$$\Delta t_{\lambda}^* \leq \frac{\Delta x}{U_{lid}}. \quad (4.4)$$

Although this approach is somewhat limited, the lack of a well-defined CFL condition for these schemes makes a direct assessment more difficult. We then run simulations on each grid, $G_1\{16\}$, $G_2\{32\}$, $G_3\{64\}$ and $G_4\{128\}$, using the RK4 method with its stable time step, Δt_{λ}^* , derived from the CFL condition defined by Saad and Karam [50].

In addition, for the RK4 time integration scheme, under the assumed $Re = 100$, the viscous CFL condition dominates over the convective condition for all tested grids. Saad and Karam [50] de-

find a stable time step as

$$\Delta t_{\lambda}^* \leq \min \left(\frac{Re}{1.45 \left(\frac{1}{\Delta x^{*2}} + \frac{1}{\Delta y^{*2}} \right)}, \frac{2\sqrt{2}\Delta x^*}{U_{lid}^{*2}} \right). \quad (4.5)$$

The results of the stable time-step obtained using the RK4 for different grid resolutions are shown in Table 4.6. These results are used as a reference for comparison with those obtained with the IMEX time integration schemes shown in Table 4.7.

Table 4.6: Results for the stable time-step using the RK4 time integration scheme with different grid resolutions

	RK4			
$N_x = N_y$	16	32	64	128
Δt_{λ}^*	0.133	0.0337	0.0084	0.0021
t_{wall} [s]	1.21	9.61	156.17	2331.86
$\bar{E}_k^*$	0.02903	0.03265	0.03386	0.03421
u_{min}^*	-0.1950	-0.2084	-0.2115	-0.2132
v_{min}^*	-0.2377	-0.2476	-0.2515	-0.2525
v_{max}^*	0.1603	0.1742	0.1774	0.1781

Table 4.7: Results for the stable time-step using the IMEX time integration schemes with different grid resolutions

	ASC(2,2,2)				ASC(4,4,3)			
$N_x=N_y$	16	32	64	128	16	32	64	128
Δt_{max}^*	0.3125	0.1333	0.0076	0.00434	0.5	0.167	0.05	0.01
t_{wall} [s]	0.43	3.08	35.92	1003.84	0.48	3.93	47.56	1126.01
$\bar{E}_k^*$	0.02954	0.03323	0.03416	0.03425	0.03233	0.03463	0.03465	0.03424
u_{min}^*	-0.1883	-0.2082	-0.2122	-0.2131	-0.1970	-0.2086	-0.2123	-0.2132
v_{min}^*	-0.2369	-0.2469	-0.2512	-0.2522	-0.2434	-0.2486	-0.2519	-0.2487
v_{max}^*	0.1625	0.1742	0.1773	0.1782	0.1668	0.1756	0.1777	0.1781

We conclude that increasing the time step to that of the RK stability limit reduces the accuracy of the mean kinetic energy. This occurs because larger time steps decrease the temporal resolution of the simulation, causing small-scale effects (such as the corner vorticity structures) to be poorly captured. As shown in Figure 4.17, these regions are not properly resolved, leading to errors in the overall kinetic energy balance.

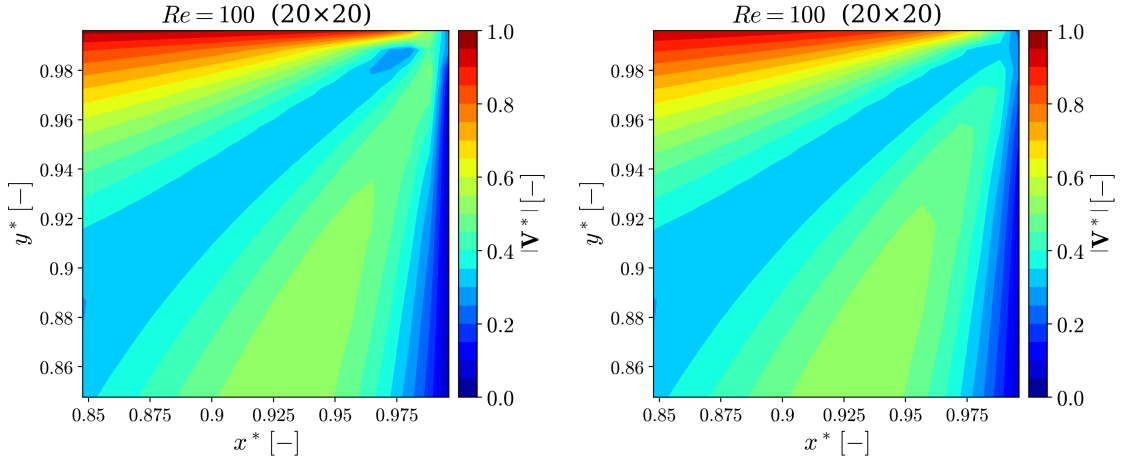


Figure 4.17: Comparison between the velocity magnitude in a zoomed region at the corner of the lid-driven cavity when using the IMEX(4,4,3) time integration scheme with $\Delta t^* = 0.01$ (left panel) and the RK4 time integration scheme with $\Delta t^* = 0.0021$ (right panel), for a 128×128 grid size at $t^* = 10$.

This effect can be mitigated with grid refinement. Finer grids, such as 256×256 , allow for larger relative time-step increases (Δt^{*+}) when compared to coarser grids, without compromising accuracy. Table 4.8 shows the % increase in the time-step value and the respective accuracy level of the mean kinetic energy and velocity components extrema.

Table 4.8: Comparison of the % increase of the time-step value employed on different grid-sizes when using the IMEX time integration schemes. The percentage reduction of the computational wall time of the simulations is also calculated. The relative errors for the mean kinetic energy and velocity components extrema are also shown.

	ASC (2,2,2)				ASC(4,4,3)			
$N_x = N_y$	16	32	64	128	16	32	64	128
Δt^{*+}	135%	296%	417%	107%	276%	396%	495%	376%
$t_{wall}^- [s]$	64%	68%	77%	57%	60%	59%	70%	52%
$\mathcal{E}_{E_k}^r$	1.76%	1.78%	0.89%	0.12%	11.37%	6.06%	2.33%	0.09%
$\mathcal{E}_{u_{min}}^r$	3.44%	0.10%	0.33%	0.047%	1.03%	0.10%	0.38%	0.00%
$\mathcal{E}_{v_{min}}^r$	0.34%	0.28%	0.12%	0.12%	2.40%	0.40%	0.16%	1.50%
$\mathcal{E}_{v_{max}}^r$	1.37%	0.00%	0.06%	0.06%	4.05%	0.80%	0.17%	0.00%

Note that we define accuracy as the relative error computed between the IMEX solution and the stable RK4 solution. Moreover, we confirm a good agreement between computation time reduction and accuracy for the IMEX time integration scheme. Hence, to further evaluate them, Figure 4.18 shows the accuracy loss per time unit saved.

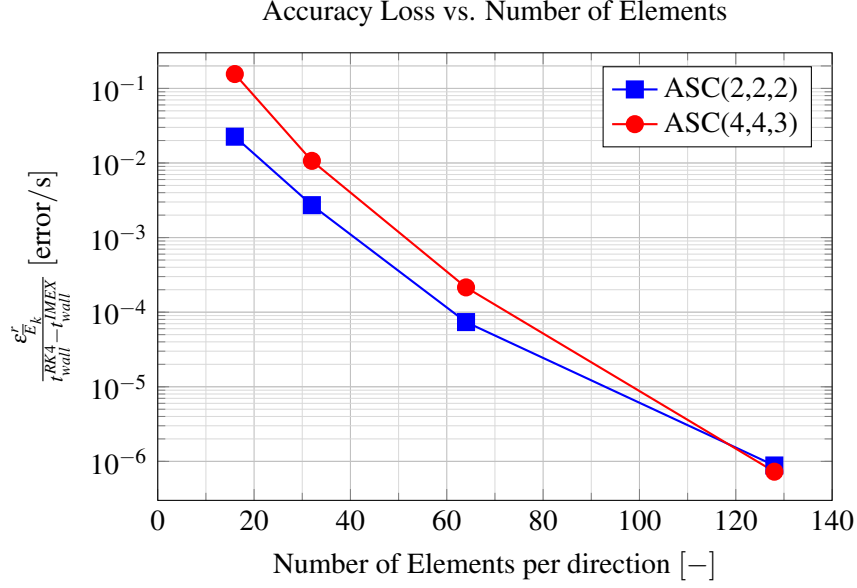


Figure 4.18: Accuracy loss per unit of time saved as a function of the number of elements. The plot uses a logarithmic scale on the y-axis to visualize the wide range of values across different element counts.

In conclusion, as we apply mesh refinement, the IMEX tends to be more viable. The values of this metric achieved by both IMEX schemes are closely comparable. Consequently, the determination of which scheme to use is largely dependent on the specific order of accuracy that is necessitated by the application at hand. For instance, since *SP-Wind* works by default with a temporal scheme of 4th order, we select ASC(4,4,3), so as not to have greater order losses. Moreover, by further extrapolating the trend observed in these error lines, it can be deduced that as refinements become more substantial, the rate of accuracy degradation per unit of time saved associated with the IMEX(2,2,2) scheme will eventually surpass that of the IMEX(4,4,3) scheme. Nonetheless, the mean velocity profiles along the mid-planes remain accurate, with errors on the order of $\sim 1\%$. Overall, the stable time-step for IMEX schemes is approximately one order of magnitude larger than that of RK4.

4.3 Cilia Flow (3D)

Lastly, we present the results obtained for the three-dimensional cilia flow. The simulation was performed at $Re_{D^*} = 0.1$ with an end time of 4, sufficient to reach a steady state. The grid was set to $N_x = 36$, $N_y = 36$, and $N_z = 56$ elements, corresponding to a coarse resolution, simulated using 1 node of 36 cores. The resulting time step was approximately 10^{-5} , leading to a simulation wall time of approximately 12 hours. Notice that this time-step is calculated using the viscous CFL condition, Equation (2.72), with Courant number equal to 0.4. We verify that going further than this value leads to numerical divergence. For non-steady simulations, such as modeling ciliary

motion, this restrictive time step would render the simulation unfeasible, making it inefficient to expend high computational resources on such physically simple flows.

Nevertheless, the results indicate promising behavior. As shown in Figure 4.19, the cilium is represented in the domain at approximately $(x_{cil}^*, y_{cil}^*) \approx (2.5, 3)$. The slight discrepancy in position is due to the coarse grid, which may not include a grid point at the exact location of the cilium. Despite this, the interaction between the cilium and the flow is clearly visible. The velocity magnitude also exhibits symmetry along the plane $y = 3$, reflecting the ordered and symmetric nature of low-Reynolds number flows.

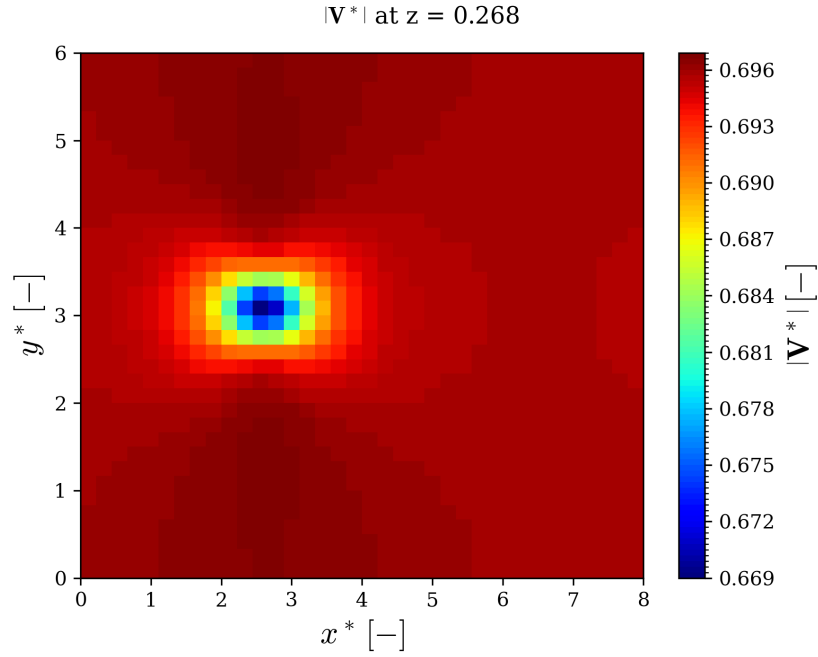


Figure 4.19: Contour of the velocity magnitude along the plane $z^* = 0.268$, with $Re_{D^*} = 0.1$, $N_x = 36$, $N_y = 36$, and $N_z = 56$, for the three-dimensional cilia flow using the RK4 time integration scheme.

Furthermore, in Figure 4.20, we confirm that the inlet velocity profile is being constructed correctly.

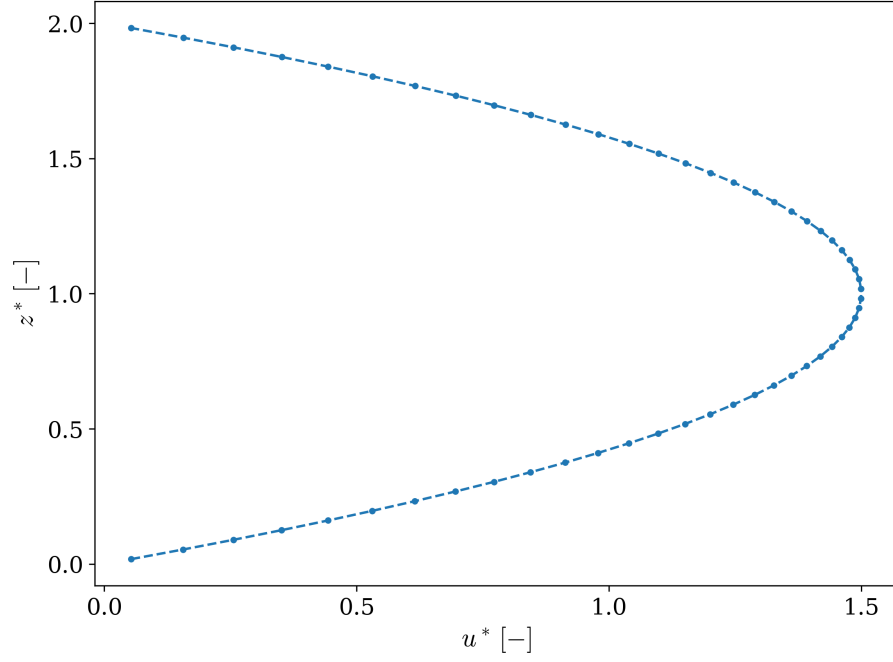


Figure 4.20: Inlet velocity profile at the latest time-step ($t^* = 4$), with $Re_{D^*} = 0.1$, $N_x = 36$, $N_y = 36$, and $N_z = 56$, for the three-dimensional cilia flow using the RK4 time integration scheme.

Next, we analyze the results obtained with the IMEX implementation for this cilia flow case study. To simplify the test, the body force was neglected in order to first verify whether the channel flow was correctly modeled. However, as shown in Figure 4.21, the velocity contour does not have a physical meaning.

Further examination revealed that the main issue is the incorrect enforcement of the imposed boundary condition near the top no-slip wall. Figure 4.22 shows the streamwise velocity profile, which confirms this discrepancy.

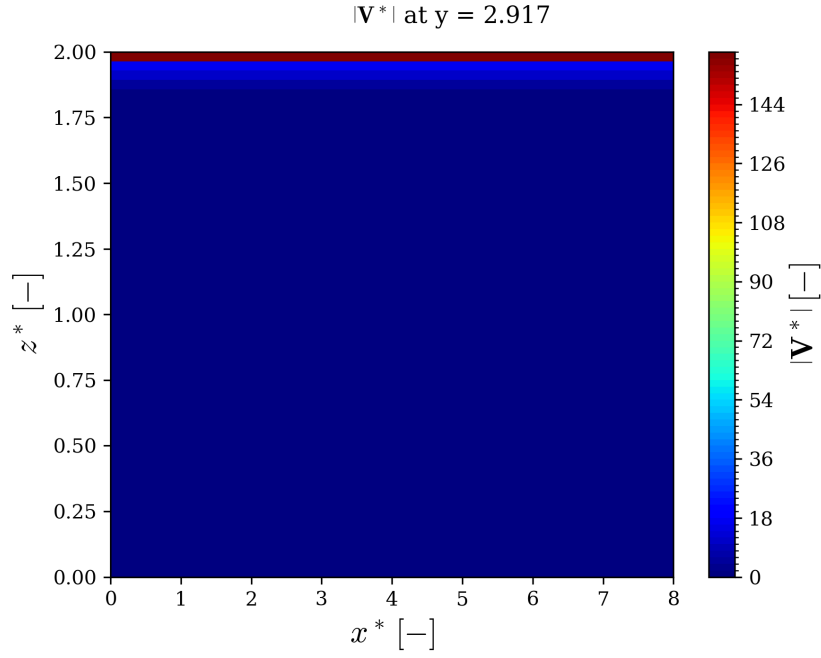


Figure 4.21: Contour of the velocity magnitude along the plane $y^* = 2.917$, with $Re_{D^*} = 0.1$, $N_x = 36$, $N_y = 36$, and $N_z = 56$, for the three-dimensional cilia flow using the IMEX(4,4,3) time integration scheme (after 3 iterations).

We hypothesize that the problem may be related either to the construction of the iteration matrix, Equation (2.51), or to halo communication within the linear solver for the stage velocities.

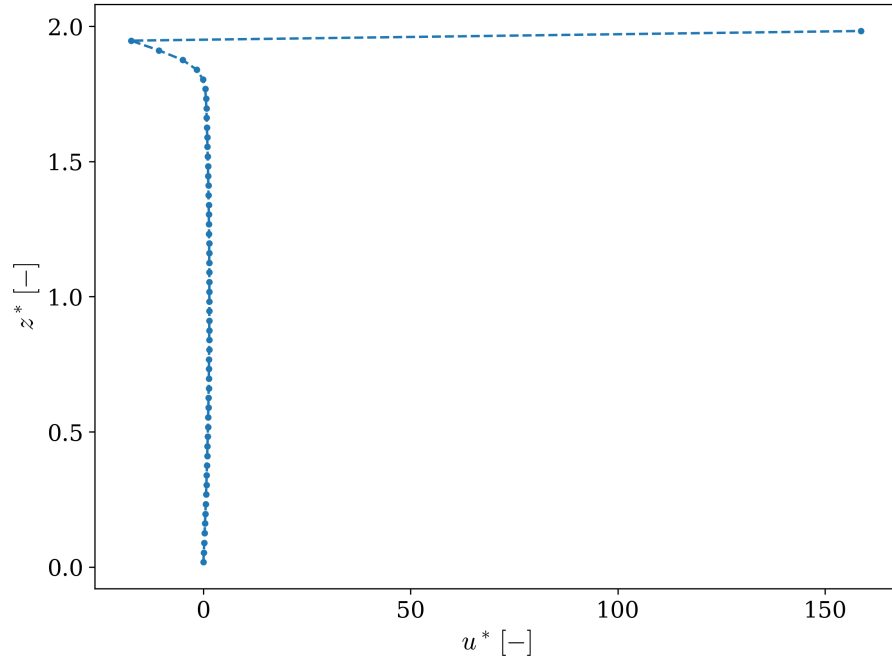


Figure 4.22: Inlet velocity profile, with $Re_{D^*} = 0.1$, $N_x = 36$, $N_y = 36$, and $N_z = 56$, for the three-dimensional cilia flow using the IMEX(4,4,3) time integration scheme (after 3 iterations).

The bottom no-slip boundary condition is correctly enforced. However, near the top wall an unexpected behavior is observed: the velocity profile crosses the y -axis, assumes negative values, and then overshoots at the last grid point to values greater than 150. This result is unphysical and indicates a numerical inconsistency in the solution. We conclude that the IMEX results do not preserve physical consistency, which poses a barrier to further studies using the current implementation.

Lastly, we evaluate the interaction between two cilia using the RK time integraton scheme on the same mesh. Figure 4.23 shows the velocity magnitude contour for the two cilia flow. We conclude that *SP-Wind* is able to interact the cilia.

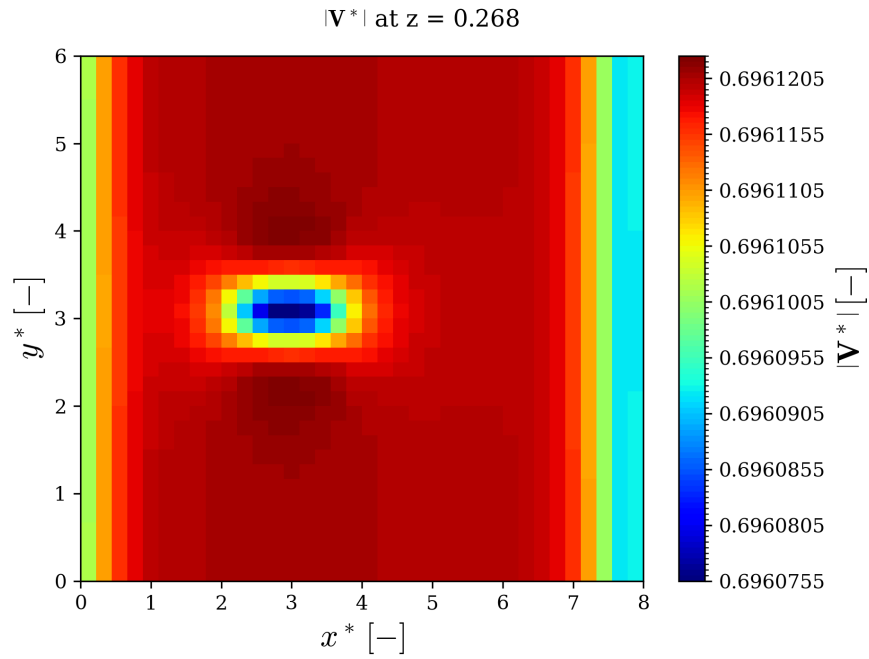


Figure 4.23: Contour of the velocity magnitude along the plane $z^* = 0.268$, with $Re_{D^*} = 0.1$, $N_x = 36$, $N_y = 36$, and $N_z = 56$, for the three-dimensional flow of two cilia using the RK4 time integration scheme.

Chapter 5

Conclusions and Future Work

The time-step restriction imposed by the viscous Courant–Friedrichs–Lewy condition renders the time steps used in the simulation of cilia-driven flows inadmissible for efficient computations. To perform viable time-dependent studies on cilia-driven flows, the time integration scheme must be one of implicit character.

Implicit-Explicit schemes constitute a good option, as they can eliminate these viscous restrictions, due to their unconditionally stable region along the negative real axis, without requiring the nonlinear advection term of the Navier-Stokes equations to be treated implicitly. However, unlike explicit temporal schemes, which allow the pressure correction step to be applied only at the advancing stage, IMEX schemes require it to be applied for all intermediate velocities and at the advancing step to avoid divergence. This, combined with the linear solver for the velocities, results in $2s + 1$ linear systems to solve per time step.

Our implementation of IMEX time integration schemes was first verified with the one-dimensional Burgers' equation test case. We conclude that the IMEX schemes performed well for the advection-diffusion problem and respect the imposed periodic boundary conditions. The results obtained showed L^2 errors of the order of 10^{-3} , which can be considered acceptable.

Subsequently, the lid-driven cavity case study was used to test the IMEX implementation in a two-dimensional flow. The results obtained showed that physical behavior is maintained when using IMEX. The velocity profiles u and v along the respective x and y centerlines showed good agreement with the data from Ghia et al. [67], and the mean kinetic energy also aligns well with the results from Ghia et al. [67], and Khorasanizade and Joao Sousa [71]. Additionally, the order-of-convergence analysis performed for both spatial and temporal discretizations was found to be satisfactory and coherent. All three methods used (RK4, ASC (2,2,2), and ASC (4,4,3)) showed the same results in the grid convergence test, indicating that the nature of the steady-state solution is independent of the numerical time integration method. For the temporal order, all methods demonstrate an observable order close to the theoretical one and converge quickly at each time step. A temporal analysis showed that IMEX schemes allow larger time steps, making their implementation viable when compared to explicit methods, since the increase in admissible time step compensates for the additional computational complexity.

Although the final goal of implementing the IMEX time integration scheme in *SP-Wind* was not achieved, the main structure is in place and only the issues related to boundary conditions and/or halo communications remain to be solved.

This work has provided a deeper understanding of the discretized Navier-Stokes equations. Concepts that were unclear at the beginning, such as the pressure projection step, the finite-volume method, staggered grids, and order-of-convergence analysis, are now more familiar. Furthermore, I have gained confidence in working with more complex topics such as HPC environments, as well as *Fortran* and *Python* programming. As an engineer, I conclude this work with significantly more skills and confidence than when I started, which is, after all, the ultimate goal of this journey.

Future work should first address the boundary condition issues encountered with the IMEX implementation. Once resolved, the scheme can be tested for three-dimensional problems. If successful, the next step would be to simulate multiple cilia. A natural progression would be to start with two cilia aligned in the flow direction and spaced by a fixed distance, then extend to larger arrays with different spatial arrangements to study their interaction.

After validating static cilia interactions, the next stage would involve incorporating ciliary motion, following approaches such as those in Salman et al. [9], Hadi et al. [29] and Sedaghat et al. [30]. This would require modifying the inlet condition to a quiescent field and analyzing flow development from rest until reaching a statistically steady state. An initial case could involve a single cilium that undergoes a simple periodic back-and-forth motion in the x -direction. Once this is understood, the framework could be extended to multiple cilia and, ultimately, to more realistic beating patterns.

If the IMEX scheme proves inadequate for three-dimensional simulations, a fully implicit method may be required. Although this introduces challenges in handling the non-linear terms, established linearization strategies could provide a feasible path forward.

In summary, this dissertation set ambitious goals, some of which remain incomplete but are feasible for future exploration. With the current foundation, the path is open for advancing toward more complex and realistic studies of cilia-driven flows.

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Appendix A

Stability of Linear Solvers

The use of an iterative solver requires that the iteration matrix exhibit two properties to ensure efficiency. $[\mathbf{M}]$ should be sparse — a characteristic commonly observed in pressure-Poisson equations — and diagonally dominant.

Definition A.0.1 (Sparse Matrix). *A matrix $[\mathbf{M}] \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times N}$ is said to be sparse if the ratio between the number of zero elements, denoted $n_0 \in \mathbb{N}$, and the total number of elements, $N_{\text{elm}} = N^2$, is greater than 0.5. That is,*

$$\text{Sp} = \frac{n_0}{N_{\text{elm}}} > 0.5, \quad (\text{A.1})$$

where Sp is referred to as sparsity of the matrix.

Definition A.0.2 (Diagonally Dominant Matrix). *Let $N \in \mathbb{N}$ and $m_{i,j} \in \mathbb{R}$. A matrix $[\mathbf{M}] \in \mathbb{R}^{N \times N}$ is said to be diagonally dominant if, for all rows $i = 1, \dots, N$, the magnitude of the diagonal element $m_{i,i} \in \mathbb{R}$ is greater than or equal to the sum of the magnitudes of all the non-diagonal elements in that row. Formally,*

$$|m_{i,i}| \geq \sum_{\substack{j=1 \\ j \neq i}}^N |m_{i,j}|, \quad \forall i \in \{1, \dots, N\}. \quad (\text{A.2})$$

In accordance with the spatial discretization scheme adopted, Equation (2.83) can be further expressed using a discrete Laplacian operator. Additionally, for convenience in notation, the right-hand side is denoted by $\mathbf{b}$, which yields the following finite volume formulation:

$$\frac{\tilde{p}_{i+1,j} + \tilde{p}_{i-1,j} - 2\tilde{p}_{i,j}}{\Delta x^2} + \frac{\tilde{p}_{i,j+1} + \tilde{p}_{i,j-1} - 2\tilde{p}_{i,j}}{\Delta y^2} = b_{i,j}. \quad (\text{A.3})$$

Rearranging Equation (A.3) to isolate $\tilde{p}_{i,j}$ yields a form that is particularly well-suited for iterative solvers applied to the Pressure-Poisson equation. The general iterative update expression can be written as:

$$\tilde{p}_{i,j}^{(k+1)} = \frac{1}{2 \left(\frac{1}{\Delta x^2} + \frac{1}{\Delta y^2} \right)} \left(\frac{\tilde{p}_{i+1,j}^{(C_1)} + \tilde{p}_{i-1,j}^{(C_2)}}{\Delta x^2} + \frac{\tilde{p}_{i,j+1}^{(C_3)} + \tilde{p}_{i,j-1}^{(C_4)}}{\Delta y^2} \right). \quad (\text{A.4})$$

If $\Delta x = \Delta y = h_k$, Equation (A.4) further simplifies to,

$$\tilde{p}_{i,j}^{(k+1)} = \frac{1}{4} \left(\tilde{p}_{i+1,j}^{(C_1)} + \tilde{p}_{i-1,j}^{(C_2)} + \tilde{p}_{i,j+1}^{(C_3)} + \tilde{p}_{i,j-1}^{(C_4)} - h_k^2 b_{i,j} \right). \quad (\text{A.5})$$

In these expressions, the superscripts indicate the iteration stage at which each neighboring pressure value is evaluated. The central node (i, j) is always updated at iteration $k + 1$, while the values of C_1, C_2, C_3 , and C_4 , called iteration identifiers, determine the specific iterative method being employed:

- If $C_1 = C_2 = C_3 = C_4 = k$, the Jacobi method is used, as all neighboring values come from the current iteration stage;
- If $C_1 = C_3 = k$ and $C_2 = C_4 = k + 1$, the scheme corresponds to the Gauss–Seidel method, where the right and top elements come from previous iterations and the left and bottom elements come from the new computed values.

All things considered, a more generalized and compact form of Equation (A.5) can be derived.

Definition A.0.3. Consider the linear system

$$[\mathbf{A}] \mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}, \quad (\text{A.6})$$

where $[\mathbf{A}] \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ is a given matrix, $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is the unknown vector, and $\mathbf{b} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is the right-hand side vector. A matrix $[\mathbf{P}] \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ is called a preconditioner for $[\mathbf{A}]$ if the condition number of the preconditioned matrix $[\mathbf{P}]^{-1} [\mathbf{A}]$ is smaller than that of $[\mathbf{A}]$, i.e.,

$$\kappa\{[\mathbf{P}]^{-1} [\mathbf{A}]\} < \kappa\{[\mathbf{A}]\}, \quad (\text{A.7})$$

where $\kappa\{\cdot\}$ denotes the condition number with respect to a chosen norm. Using the preconditioner, the original linear system can be rewritten as

$$[\mathbf{P}] \mathbf{x} = ([\mathbf{P}] - [\mathbf{A}]) \mathbf{x} + \mathbf{b}, \quad (\text{A.8})$$

which naturally leads to the iterative scheme

$$\mathbf{x}^{(k+1)} = [\mathbf{W}] \mathbf{x}^{(k)} + [\mathbf{P}]^{-1} \mathbf{b}, \quad (\text{A.9})$$

where the iteration matrix $[\mathbf{W}]$ is defined by

$$[\mathbf{W}] = [\mathbf{I}] - [\mathbf{P}]^{-1} [\mathbf{A}]. \quad (\text{A.10})$$

The convergence of such methods is entirely determined by the spectral properties of $[\mathbf{W}]$. In particular, the efficiency of a good preconditioner is derived from its ability to reduce the spectral radius $\rho\{[\mathbf{W}]\}$, thus accelerating convergence. This observation links directly to the following fundamental result on stationary iterative methods [107]:

Theorem A.0.1 (Convergence Criterion for Stationary Iterative Methods). *Let $[\mathbf{A}] \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$, and consider the linear system*

$$[\mathbf{A}] \mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}. \quad (\text{A.11})$$

Suppose the application of a stationary iterative method of the form

$$\mathbf{x}^{(k+1)} = [\mathbf{W}] \mathbf{x}^{(k)} + \mathbf{c}, \quad (\text{A.12})$$

where $[\mathbf{W}] \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$ is called the iteration matrix. Then the iterative method converges to the exact solution $\mathbf{x}^$ from any initial guess $\mathbf{x}^{(0)}$ if and only if*

$$\rho \{[\mathbf{W}]\} < 1, \quad (\text{A.13})$$

where $\rho \{[\mathbf{M}]\}$ denotes the maximum eigenvalue of $[\mathbf{W}]$, commonly known as spectral radius of $[\mathbf{W}]$.

Proof. Let the error at iteration k be defined by

$$\mathbf{e}^{(k)} = \mathbf{x}^{(k)} - \mathbf{x}^*, \quad (\text{A.14})$$

where $\mathbf{x}^*$ denotes the exact solution of the system, which satisfies

$$\mathbf{x}^* = [\mathbf{W}] \mathbf{x}^* + \mathbf{c}. \quad (\text{A.15})$$

Subtracting (A.15) from the iterative scheme

$$\mathbf{x}^{(k+1)} = [\mathbf{W}] \mathbf{x}^{(k)} + \mathbf{c}, \quad (\text{A.16})$$

yields

$$\mathbf{e}^{(k+1)} = [\mathbf{W}] \mathbf{e}^{(k)}. \quad (\text{A.17})$$

By repeated substitution (induction), it follows that

$$\mathbf{e}^{(k)} = [\mathbf{W}]^k \mathbf{e}^{(0)}. \quad (\text{A.18})$$

Convergence of the method requires that the error tends to zero for any initial error $\mathbf{e}^{(0)}$, i.e.,

$$\lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} \|\mathbf{e}^{(k)}\| = \lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} \|[\mathbf{W}]^k \mathbf{e}^{(0)}\| = 0. \quad (\text{A.19})$$

From the spectral radius theorem (Gelfand's formula), for any induced matrix norm,

$$\lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} \|[\mathbf{W}]^k\|^{1/k} = \rho \{[\mathbf{W}]\}, \quad (\text{A.20})$$

and asymptotically,

$$\|[\mathbf{W}]^k \mathbf{e}^{(0)}\| \approx (\rho \{[\mathbf{W}]\})^k. \quad (\text{A.21})$$

Thus, (A.19) holds if and only if

$$\rho\{[\mathbf{W}]\} < 1, \quad (\text{A.22})$$

□

Lastly, there are two metrics that define every linear solver: time and space complexity. The first refers to how long an algorithm would take to complete a given input of size n_i and is measured as the number of floating-point operations in an algorithm. Typically, iterative solvers are much cheaper in this sense for sparse matrices, i.e., matrices that are mainly composed of zeros. The second simply refers to an algorithm's memory requirements.

Appendix B

Schematic Grid Representations

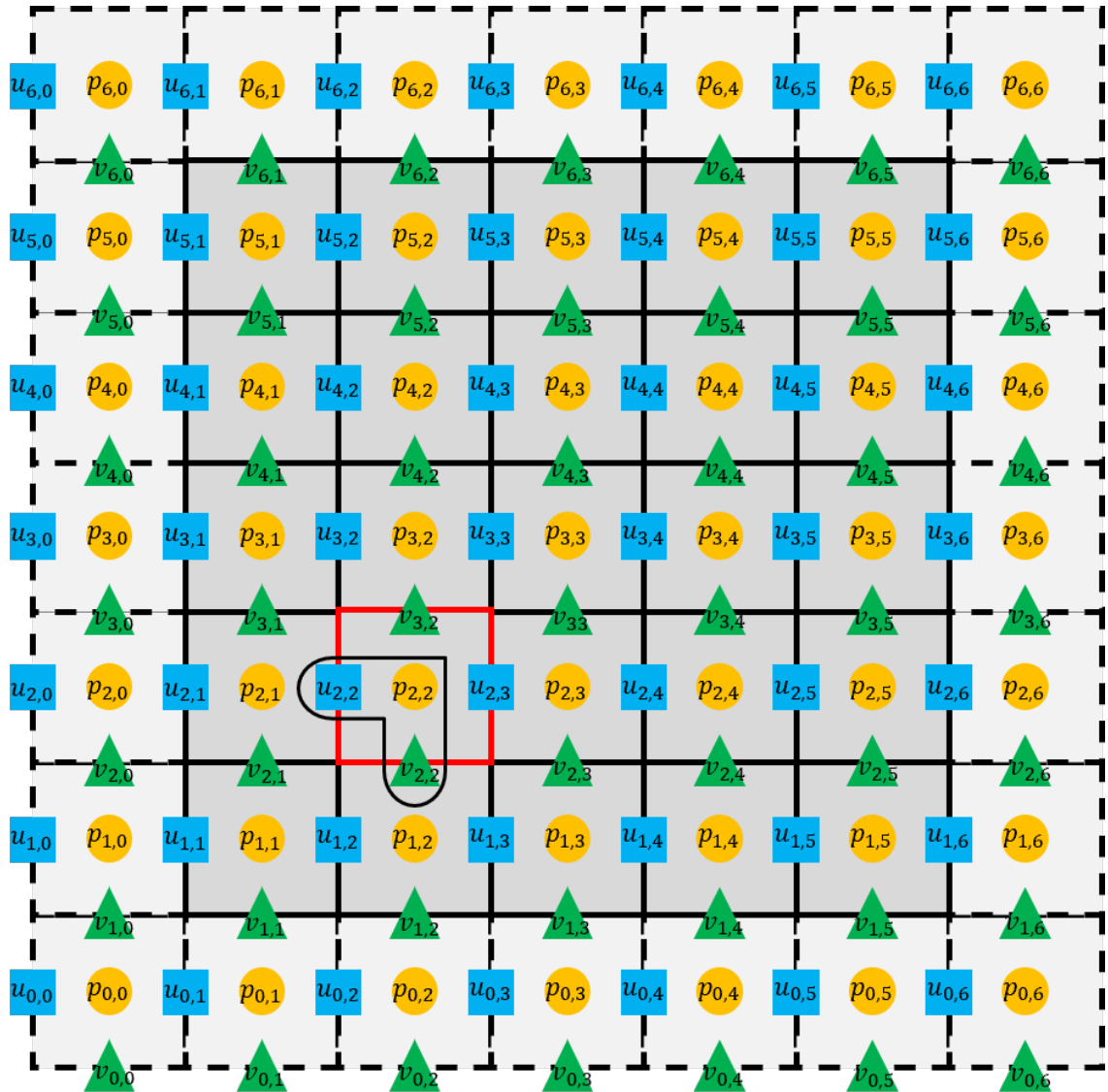


Figure B.1: Staggered grid scheme in Python notation.

Appendix C

Laminar Flow between two Horizontal Parallel Plates

Consider a steady and incompressible flow between two infinitely long parallel plates, oriented along the x -axis, with no velocity components in the y - and z - directions. The streamwise velocity component u varies only with the vertical coordinate z , Equation (C.1). The characteristic length and velocity scales for this configuration are defined as the half-distance between the plates, h , and the maximum velocity, u_{max} , which occurs at the mid-plane, $z = h$. In addition to the Neumann boundary condition, the problem is further defined by two Dirichlet boundary conditions corresponding to the no-slip condition on the upper and lower walls, Equations (C.2) and (C.3), respectively.

$$\frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = 0, \quad \forall x, z \in \Omega \quad (\text{C.1})$$

$$u \{z = 0\} = 0, \quad (\text{C.2})$$

$$u \{z = 2h\} = 0. \quad (\text{C.3})$$

The momentum equations can be then written as follows for x , y and z , respectively:

$$0 = -\frac{\partial p}{\partial x} + \mu \frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial z^2}, \quad (\text{C.4})$$

$$0 = \frac{\partial p}{\partial y}, \quad (\text{C.5})$$

$$0 = -\frac{\partial p}{\partial z} - \rho g. \quad (\text{C.6})$$

By merging Equations (C.5) and (C.6) and then integrating the result, yields:

$$p = -\rho g z + \chi_1 \{x\}, \quad (\text{C.7})$$

indicating that the pressure varies hydrostatically in the z direction. $\chi_1\{x\}$ expresses an integration function depending on x . Now, at the x -momentum, rewrite Equation (C.4) into:

$$\frac{\partial^2 u}{\partial z^2} = \frac{1}{\mu} \frac{\partial p}{\partial x}, \quad (\text{C.8})$$

and subsequently integrate with respect to z , twice:

$$u\{z\} = \frac{1}{2\mu} \left(\frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right) z^2 + c_1 z + c_2. \quad (\text{C.9})$$

Finally, employ the boundary conditions previously defined to obtain:

$$c_1 = -\frac{h}{\mu} \left(\frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right), \quad (\text{C.10})$$

$$c_2 = 0. \quad (\text{C.11})$$

Then substituting c_1 and c_2 back into Equation (C.9):

$$u\{z\} = \frac{z^2}{2\mu} \left(\frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right) - \frac{hz}{\mu} \left(\frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right). \quad (\text{C.12})$$

Isolating the term $-\frac{1}{2\mu} \left(\frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right)$ and simultaneously applying a mathematical identity of order h^2 to the right-hand-side of this last equation:

$$u\{z\} = -\frac{h^2}{2\mu} \left(\frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right) \left[2 \left(\frac{z}{h} \right) - \left(\frac{z}{h} \right)^2 \right]. \quad (\text{C.13})$$

Note that the pressure gradient is a negative quantity by default; therefore, when affected by a minus sign, its value coincides with its modulus, so that

$$u\{z\} = \frac{h^2}{2\mu} \left| \frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right| \left[2 \left(\frac{z}{h} \right) - \left(\frac{z}{h} \right)^2 \right]. \quad (\text{C.14})$$

In addition, an expression for the maximum velocity is now feasible to write:

$$u_{max} = u\{h\} = \frac{h^2}{2\mu} \left| \frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right|. \quad (\text{C.15})$$

The velocity at any point in the domain is equal to the maximum velocity scaled by a factor α , which is a function of the relative distance $\delta_z = z/h$.

$$u\{z\} = \alpha\{\delta_z\} \cdot u_{max}. \quad (\text{C.16})$$

Furthermore, the volumetric flow rate per unit of height, $\dot{\Psi}'$, passing between plates, is obtained from the following relationship:

$$\dot{\Psi}' = \int_0^{2h} \frac{h^2}{2\mu} \left| \frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right| \left[2 \left(\frac{z}{h} \right) - \left(\frac{z}{h} \right)^2 \right] dz, \quad (\text{C.17})$$

or,

$$\dot{\Psi}' = \frac{2h^3}{3\mu} \left| \frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right|, \quad (\text{C.18})$$

meaning that $\dot{\Psi}'$ is proportional to the pressure gradient, inversely proportional to the viscosity, and strongly dependent ($\sim h^3$) on the gap width. In terms of the mean velocity, $\bar{U}$, is given by

$$\bar{U} = \frac{h^2}{3\mu} \left| \frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right|. \quad (\text{C.19})$$

With this, the mean velocity relates with the maximum velocity as follows:

$$\bar{U} = \frac{2}{3} u_{max}, \quad (\text{C.20})$$

The final expression for the velocity profile $u\{z\}$, which will be applied in SP-Wind, is given by:

$$u\{z\} = u_{max} \left[2 \left(\frac{z}{h} \right) - \left(\frac{z}{h} \right)^2 \right]. \quad (\text{C.21})$$

Moreover, White [28] states that the flow will be laminar up to $Re = \frac{\rho \bar{U} h}{\mu} = 700$. Beyond this threshold, the flow transitions to a turbulent regime, rendering the previous laminar flow analysis invalid due to the emergence of complex, three-dimensional, and time-dependent flow characteristics. However, in the case of considering the value of the density equal to the unit, these relations still remain, with the kinematic viscosity replacing the dynamic one.

Considering the characteristic quantities assumed in the construction of the cilia case, i.e., half-channel width (h) and mean inlet u -velocity ($\bar{u}$) to be equal to the unit (see Table 3.3), the following relation stands:

$$Re_h = \frac{\bar{u} \cdot h}{\nu} = \frac{1}{\nu}. \quad (\text{C.22})$$

Turning our attention to the cilia, the cilia's Reynolds number is defined as:

$$Re_D = \frac{\bar{U}_{cil} D_{cil}}{\nu}, \quad (\text{C.23})$$

that simplifies into:

$$Re_D = Re_h \cdot \bar{U}_{cil} \cdot D_{cil}. \quad (\text{C.24})$$

Moreover, by integrating the velocity profile, Equation (C.21), into the projected cilia area, we derive an expression of the mean velocity that heats the cilia ($\bar{U}_{cil}$). Considering the discrete area

$dS = D_{cil} dz$ and the total projected area $A_p = D_{cil} \cdot h_{cil}$:

$$\overline{U}_{cil} = \frac{1}{h_{cil}} \int_0^{h_{cil}} u_{max} \left[2 \left(\frac{h_{cil}}{h} \right) - \left(\frac{h_{cil}}{h} \right)^2 \right] dz. \quad (C.25)$$

By solving this primitive, we obtain:

$$\overline{U}_{cil} = 1.5\overline{u} \left[\left(\frac{h_{cil}}{h} \right) - \frac{1}{3} \left(\frac{h_{cil}}{h} \right)^2 \right]. \quad (C.26)$$

Substituting Equation (C.26) into (C.24), and considering Equation (C.20) and the assumed dimensions, Re is written as:

$$Re = \frac{Re_D}{1.5D_{cil} \left(h_{cil} - \frac{1}{3}h_{cil}^2 \right)}. \quad (C.27)$$

Finally, by manipulating Equation (C.15), we get:

$$\left| \frac{\partial p}{\partial x} \right| = \frac{3}{Re}. \quad (C.28)$$

Appendix D

Linear Solver's Code

```
1 from scipy.sparse.linalg import bicgstab
2 import pyamg
3
4 def cg_solver(p, S, App, nx, ny):
5
6     # Flatten the source term (excluding ghost cells)
7     b = S[1:-1, 1:-1].ravel()
8
9     # Initial guess (flattened, excluding ghost cells)
10    p0 = p[1:-1, 1:-1].ravel()
11
12    # Solve using PCG with diagonal preconditioner
13    M = diags(1.0/App.diagonal()) # Jacobi preconditioner
14
15    p_flat, info = cg(App, b, x0=p0, rtol=1e-06, M=M)
16
17    if info != 0:
18        print(f"PCG did not converge: info = {info}")
19    # Compute residual norm
20    residual = np.abs(App @ p_flat - b).reshape((ny,nx))
21    #print(f'DimensionsResi_p = {np.shape(residual)}')
22
23    # Reshape solution and maintain ghost cells
24    p_new = p.copy()
25    p_new[1:-1, 1:-1] = p_flat.reshape((ny, nx))
26
27    return p_new, residual
28
```

```

29 def amg_solver(p, S, Ap, nx, ny, ml):
30     """
31     Solves the linear system  $A_p x = b$  using PyAMG as a solver.
32     """
33     # Flatten source term (excluding ghost cells)
34     b = S[1:-1, 1:-1].ravel()
35
36     # Initial guess
37     x0 = p[1:-1, 1:-1].ravel()
38
39     # Setup PyAMG multigrid solver
40     #ml = pyamg.smoothed_aggregation_solver(Ap)
41
42     # Solve the system using AMG
43     x = ml.solve(b, x0=x0, tol=1e-6, cycle='V')
44
45
46     # Compute residual norm
47     #residual = np.linalg.norm(Ap @ x - b)
48     residual = np.abs(Ap @ x - b).reshape((ny,nx))
49
50     # Insert result back into pressure field
51     p_new = p.copy()
52     p_new[1:-1, 1:-1] = x.reshape((ny, nx))
53
54     return p_new, residual

```

Appendix E

Stability Region Code

The stability regions were numerically computed by evaluating the stability functions $R(z)$ for each time integration method across the complex plane $z = \lambda \Delta t$, where λ represents the eigenvalues of the model problem and Δt is the time step size. The computation was adapted from reference implementations [110] with modifications for the IMEX methods. The implementation consists of three main components:

1. Stability Functions:

- For implicit ARS methods, $R(z)$ is computed analytically via the functions `ARS443` and `ARS222`;
- For explicit methods (Euler, RK4), $R(z)$ is calculated as polynomial expansions in z .

2. Grid Evaluation:

- A 100×100 grid spans $z \in [-5, 1.5] \times [-5i, 5i]$;
- Computes $|R(z)|$ at each grid point.

3. Boundary Extraction:

- Contours where $|R(z)| = 1$ are identified using `matplotlib.contour`;
- Contours are smoothed with spline interpolation;
- Results saved as `.dat` files for LaTeX plotting.

```

1 import numpy as np
2 import matplotlib.pyplot as plt
3 import os
4 from scipy.interpolate import splprep, splev
5 import json
6
7 def ARS443(X,Y):
8     ReTerm1 = 48*(6-6*X+X**3)
9     ReTerm2 = -144*(1-X)*Y**2
10    ReTerm3 = 3*(X**2) * (Y**2) -7*Y**4
11
12    ImTerm = 48*(6-6*X-Y**2)*Y + 29*Y*X**3 + 57*X*Y**3
13    scale = 18*(X-2)**4
14    R = (ReTerm1+ReTerm2+ReTerm3)/scale + 1j*(ImTerm/scale)
15    return R
16
17 def ARS222(X,Y):
18    gamma = 1 - (2**0.5)/2
19    delta = 1 - 1/(2*gamma)
20    ReTerm = 1 + (1-2*gamma)*X + gamma*(delta-1)*Y**2
21    ImTerm = Y + gamma*(1-delta-gamma)*X*Y
22    scale = (1-gamma*X)**2
23    R = ReTerm/scale + 1j*(ImTerm/scale)
24    return R
25
26 # Grid setup
27 nx, ny = 100, 100
28 x = np.linspace(-5, 1.5, nx)
29 y = np.linspace(-5, 5, ny)
30 X, Y = np.meshgrid(x, y)
31 Z = X + 1j*Y
32
33 # Stability functions
34 sigma1 = 1 + Z # Euler
35 sigma4 = 1 + Z + Z**2/2 + Z**3/6 + Z**4/24 # RK4
36 sigma443 = ARS443(X,Y) # ARS(4,4,3)
37 sigma222 = ARS222(X,Y) # ARS(2,2,2)
38
39 def get_contour_data(X, Y, norm, method_name):
40     fig, ax = plt.subplots()

```

```

41     contour = ax.contour(X, Y, norm, levels=[1])
42     plt.close(fig)
43     contour_lines = contour.allsegs[0]
44     all_points = []
45     for i, segment in enumerate(contour_lines):
46         if len(segment) > 10:
47             tck, u = splprep(segment.T, s=0.0, per=0)
48             u_new = np.linspace(u.min(), u.max(), 200)
49             x_new, y_new = splev(u_new, tck, der=0)
50             arr = np.column_stack((x_new, y_new))
51             all_points.append(arr)
52             np.savetxt(f"{method_name}_contour_{i}.dat", arr,
53                       ↪ fmt="%.6f")
54
55     return all_points
56
57 # Generate and save contours
58 euler_contour = get_contour_data(X, Y, np.abs(sigma1)**2, 'euler')
59 rk4_contour = get_contour_data(X, Y, np.abs(sigma4)**2, 'rk4')
60 IM443_contour = get_contour_data(X, Y, np.abs(sigma443)**2,
61 ↪ 'ARS443')
62 IM222_contour = get_contour_data(X, Y, np.abs(sigma222)**2,
63 ↪ 'ARS222')
64
65 # Plotting
66 fig, ax = plt.subplots(figsize=(8, 8))
67 ax.contour(X, Y, np.abs(sigma1)**2, levels=[1], colors='r',
68 ↪ linewidths=2)
69 ax.contour(X, Y, np.abs(sigma4)**2, levels=[1], colors='b',
70 ↪ linewidths=2)
71 ax.contour(X, Y, np.abs(sigma443)**2, levels=[1], colors='g',
72 ↪ linewidths=2)
73 ax.contour(X, Y, np.abs(sigma222)**2, levels=[1], colors='m',
74 ↪ linewidths=2)
75
76 # Axis formatting
77 ax.spines[['right', 'top']].set_visible(False)
78 ax.spines[['left', 'bottom']].set_position('zero')
79 ax.set_xlabel(r'$\lambda_r \Delta t$', labelpad=10)
80 ax.set_ylabel(r'$\lambda_i \Delta t$', rotation=0, labelpad=10)
81 ax.set_aspect('equal')

```

```
74 plt.savefig('stability_regions.png', dpi=300, bbox_inches='tight')
75 plt.show()
```

The output files (*_contour*.dat) contain the stability boundaries used to generate Figure 2.4. This numerical approach avoids symbolic computation while accurately capturing the stability limits.

Appendix F

Burgers Equation Code

```
1 import numpy as np
2 import matplotlib.pyplot as plt
3 import math
4 import os
5 import argparse
6 import time
7 import sys
8 from scipy.sparse import diags, csr_matrix, identity
9 from scipy.sparse.linalg import cg
10 # --- Add argument parsing ---
11 parser = argparse.ArgumentParser(description='Run Burgers equation
12     ↪ simulation.')
13 parser.add_argument('--output_dir', type=str,
14     help='Directory to save output plots and data.',
15     default=None)
16 parser.add_argument('--nu', type=float, default=0.1,
17     help='Viscosity coefficient')
18 parser.add_argument('--n', type=int, default=10,
19     help='Number of internal points')
20 parser.add_argument('--dt', type=float, default=1e-5,
21     help='Time step size')
22 parser.add_argument('--method', type=str, default='all',
23     choices=['fe', 'rk4', 'mebdf', 'IMEX222',
24     ↪ 'IMEX443', 'all'],
25     help='Integration method to use')
26 args = parser.parse_args()
27
28 # Determine the base directory for outputs
```



```

27 if args.output_dir:
28     output_base_dir = args.output_dir
29 else:
30     output_base_dir = os.path.dirname(os.path.abspath(__file__))
31
32 script_dir = output_base_dir
33 print(f"Output files will be saved to: {script_dir}")
34
35 #===Parameters from
36     ↪ paper=====
37 nu = args.nu # Viscosity coefficient
38 n = args.n # Number of internal points (internal only; total grid
39     ↪ points = n + 2)
40 dt = args.dt # Time step
41 t_end = 1 # Final time
42 method = args.method
43
44 #===Domain
45     ↪ Setup=====
46 lx = 1.0
47 x = np.linspace(0, lx, n+2) # Including boundary points
48 h = x[1] - x[0]
49 print(f'x = {x}')
50 print(f'h = {h}')
51 print(f'nu = {nu}')
52 print(f'method = {method}')
53
54 print(f'dt_visc = {0.5*h**2/nu}')
55
56 #===Initial
57     ↪ condition=====
58 # Exact solution function for Problem 1 (from paper)
59 def exact_solution(x_loc, t_loc, nu_loc):
60     A = 0.05 / nu_loc * (x_loc - 0.5 + 4.95 * t_loc)
61     B = 0.25 / nu_loc * (x_loc - 0.5 + 0.75 * t_loc)
62     C = 0.5 / nu_loc * (x_loc - 0.5 - 0.375 * t_loc)
63     numerator = 0.1 * np.exp(-A) + 0.5 * np.exp(-B) + np.exp(-C)
64     denominator = np.exp(-A) + np.exp(-B) + np.exp(-C)
65     return numerator / denominator

```

```

63
64 # Initial condition
65 u_initial = exact_solution(x, 0.0, nu)
66 print(f'u_0 = {u_initial}')
67 times = [0.0]
68
69 #===High-order finite difference schemes (from paper equations
    ↪ 7-12)=====
70 def compute_E(u, g1, g2, h):
71     """Compute  $E_i(t) = dU/dx(x_i, t)$  using high-order finite
    ↪ differences"""
72     n_internal = len(u) - 2 # Number of internal points
73     E = np.zeros(len(u)) # Including boundaries
74
75     # For  $x = x_1$  (equation 7)
76     if n_internal >= 4:
77         E[1] = (-6*g1 - 20*u[1] + 36*u[2] - 12*u[3] + 2*u[4]) /
    ↪ (24*h)
78
79     # For internal points  $x_i, i=2, \dots, n-1$  (equation 8)
80     for i in range(2, n_internal):
81         if i+2 < len(u):
82             E[i] = (2*u[i-2] - 16*u[i-1] + 16*u[i+1] - 2*u[i+2]) /
    ↪ (24*h)
83
84     # For  $x = x_n$  (equation 9)
85     if n_internal >= 4:
86         E[n_internal] = (-2*u[n_internal-3] + 12*u[n_internal-2] -
    ↪ 36*u[n_internal-1] + 20*u[n_internal] + 6*g2) / (24*h)
87
88     return E
89
90 def compute_R(u, g1, g2, h):
91     """Compute  $R_i(t) = d^2U/dx^2(x_i, t)$  using high-order finite
    ↪ differences"""
92     n_internal = len(u) - 2 # Number of internal points
93     R = np.zeros(len(u)) # Including boundaries
94
95     # For  $x = x_1$  (equation 10)
96     if n_internal >= 5:

```

```

97         R[1] = (20*g1 - 30*u[1] - 8*u[2] + 28*u[3] - 12*u[4] +
          ↪ 2*u[5]) / (12*h**2)
98
99     # For internal points x_i, i=2,...,n-1 (equation 11)
100     for i in range(2, n_internal):
101         if i+2 < len(u):
102             R[i] = (-2*u[i-2] + 32*u[i-1] - 60*u[i] + 32*u[i+1] -
          ↪ 2*u[i+2]) / (12*h**2)
103
104     # For x = x_n (equation 12)
105     if n_internal >= 5:
106         R[n_internal] = (2*u[n_internal-4] - 12*u[n_internal-3] +
          ↪ 28*u[n_internal-2] - 8*u[n_internal-1] -
          ↪ 30*u[n_internal] + 20*g2) / (12*h**2)
107
108     return R
109
110 #--- Nonlinear explicit term and R-term helpers (correctly use stage
    ↪ Y) ---
111 def N_term(u, t_loc):
112     """Nonlinear convective term N(u) = -u * (du/dx) computed on
    ↪ full grid (including BCs)"""
113     g1 = exact_solution(0.0, t_loc, nu)
114     g2 = exact_solution(lx, t_loc, nu)
115     E = compute_E(u, g1, g2, h)
116     v = np.zeros_like(u)
117     v[1:-1] = -u[1:-1] * E[1:-1]
118     return v
119
120 def R_term(u, t_loc):
121     """Return R(u) (second derivative) (no \nu factor) and BCs
    ↪ used"""
122     g1 = exact_solution(0.0, t_loc, nu)
123     g2 = exact_solution(lx, t_loc, nu)
124     R = compute_R(u, g1, g2, h)
125     v = np.zeros_like(u)
126     v[1:-1] = R[1:-1]
127     return v, g1, g2
128
129 def rhs(t_loc, u, nu_loc, h_loc):

```

```

130     """Right-hand side function for the ODE system (equation 15)"""
131     g1 = exact_solution(0.0, t_loc, nu_loc) # Boundary condition at
        ↪ x=0
132     g2 = exact_solution(lx, t_loc, nu_loc) # Boundary condition at
        ↪ x=1
133
134     E = compute_E(u, g1, g2, h_loc)
135     R = compute_R(u, g1, g2, h_loc)
136
137     # f_i(t,y(t)) = -y_i(t)E_i(t) + \nu R_i(t)
138     n_internal = len(u) - 2
139     rhs_val = np.zeros_like(u)
140     rhs_val[1:n_internal+1] = -u[1:n_internal+1] * E[1:n_internal+1]
        ↪ + nu_loc * R[1:n_internal+1]
141
142     return rhs_val
143
144     #=== Discrete 4th-order Laplacian and source (no \nu factored in)
        ↪ =====
145     def generate_4th_order_laplacian(n_int, h_loc):
146         """Return (dense) matrix L (n_int x n_int) approximating R
            ↪ (without \nu) and identity"""
147         total_size = n_int
148         L = np.zeros((total_size, total_size))
149         factor = 1.0 / (12.0 * h_loc**2)
150
151         for i in range(total_size):
152             if i == 0:
153                 L[0, 0] = -30 * factor
154                 if total_size > 1: L[0, 1] = -8 * factor
155                 if total_size > 2: L[0, 2] = 28 * factor
156                 if total_size > 3: L[0, 3] = -12 * factor
157                 if total_size > 4: L[0, 4] = 2 * factor
158             elif i == total_size - 1:
159                 if total_size > 4: L[-1, -5] = 2 * factor
160                 if total_size > 3: L[-1, -4] = -12 * factor
161                 if total_size > 2: L[-1, -3] = 28 * factor
162                 if total_size > 1: L[-1, -2] = -8 * factor
163                 L[-1, -1] = -30 * factor
164             elif i == 1:

```

```

165         L[1, 0] = 32 * factor
166         L[1, 1] = -60 * factor
167         if total_size > 2: L[1, 2] = 32 * factor
168         if total_size > 3: L[1, 3] = -2 * factor
169     elif i == total_size - 2:
170         if total_size > 3: L[-2, -4] = -2 * factor
171         L[-2, -3] = 32 * factor
172         L[-2, -2] = -60 * factor
173         L[-2, -1] = 32 * factor
174     else:
175         if i >= 2: L[i, i-2] = -2 * factor
176         if i >= 1: L[i, i-1] = 32 * factor
177         L[i, i] = -60 * factor
178         if i < total_size - 1: L[i, i+1] = 32 * factor
179         if i < total_size - 2: L[i, i+2] = -2 * factor
180
181     return L
182
183 def generate_4th_order_ST(n_int, h_loc, g1_loc, g2_loc):
184     """Boundary source vector S (no \nu factor) corresponding to
185     ↪ discrete R"""
186     b = np.zeros(n_int)
187     factor = 1.0 / (12.0 * h_loc**2)
188     if n_int >= 1:
189         b[0] += 20 * factor * g1_loc
190     if n_int >= 2:
191         b[1] += -2 * factor * g1_loc
192     if n_int >= 2:
193         b[-2] += -2 * factor * g2_loc
194     if n_int >= 1:
195         b[-1] += 20 * factor * g2_loc
196     return b
197
198 # Build discrete operators (sparse)
199 L_dense = generate_4th_order_laplacian(n, h) # n x n (internal
200 ↪ points)
201 L_mtx = csr_matrix(L_dense)
202 I_mtx = identity(n, format='csr')
203

```

```

202 #=== Generic IMEX stage solver (works for both IMEX222 and IMEX443
    ↪ with appropriate tableaus) =====
203 def imex_step_general(u, t_loc, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc, A, A_hat, b,
    ↪ b_hat, c, c_hat):
204     """
205     Generic IMEX RK stage solver.
206     """
207     s = A.shape[0]
208     # Stage solutions Y_i (full-grid vectors)
209     #Y = [u.copy() for _ in range(s)]
210     # Stage evaluations
211     #N_eval = [np.zeros_like(u) for _ in range(s)]
212     #R_eval = [np.zeros_like(u) for _ in range(s)]
213     #ST_eval = [np.zeros(n) for _ in range(s)] # internal-only
    ↪ source vectors
214     Khat_strg = []
215     K_strg = []
216     U_strg = []
217
218     Y0 = np.zeros_like(u)
219     Yi = np.zeros_like(u)
220
221     Mi = I_mtx - (dt_loc * A[0,0] * nu_loc) * L_mtx
222
223     t0 = t_loc + c[0] * dt_loc
224     _, g10, g20 = R_term(u.copy(), t0)
225
226     S0 = generate_4th_order_ST(n, h_loc, g10, g20)
227
228     #First stage
229     K_hat0 = N_term(u.copy(), t_loc + c_hat[0]*dt_loc)
230     Khat_strg.append(K_hat0)
231
232     rhs_int0 = u[1:-1].copy() + dt_loc * A_hat[1, 0]*K_hat0[1:-1] +
    ↪ dt_loc * A[0,0] * nu_loc * S0
233     # Jacobi preconditioner
234     Mp_diags = 1.0 / Mi.diagonal()
235     Mprec = diags(Mp_diags)
236     # solve Mi * Yi_int = rhs_int (use cg)
237     Y0_int, info = cg(Mi, rhs_int0, x0=u[1:-1], rtol=1e-6, M=Mprec)

```

```

238     Y0[1:-1] = Y0_int
239     #Apply BC
240
241     Y0[0] = exact_solution(0.0, t0, nu_loc)
242     Y0[-1] = exact_solution(lx, t0, nu_loc)
243
244     U_strg.append(Y0)
245     K0, _, _ = R_term(Y0, t0)
246     K_strg.append(K0)
247
248     for i in range (1,s):
249         K_hati = N_term(U_strg[i-1].copy(), t_loc + c_hat[i]*dt_loc)
250         Khat_strg.append(K_hati)
251         ti = t_loc + c[i] * dt_loc
252         _, gli, g2i = R_term(u.copy(), ti)
253
254         Si = generate_4th_order_ST(n, h_loc, gli, g2i)
255
256         rhs_inti = u[1:-1].copy() + dt_loc * A_hat[i+1,
257             ↪ i]*K_hati[1:-1] + dt_loc * A[i,i] * Si
258         for j in range(i):
259             rhs_inti += dt * (A[i,j]*K_strg[j][1:-1] +
260                 ↪ A_hat[i+1,j]*K_strg[j][1:-1])
261
262         Yi_int, info = cg(Mi, rhs_inti, x0=u[1:-1], rtol=1e-6,
263             ↪ M=Mprec)
264         Yi[1:-1] = Yi_int
265         #Apply BC
266         ti = t_loc + c[i] * dt_loc
267         Yi[0] = exact_solution(0.0, ti, nu_loc)
268         Yi[-1] = exact_solution(lx, ti, nu_loc)
269         U_strg.append(Yi)
270
271         Ki, _, _ = R_term(Yi, ti)
272         K_strg.append(Ki)
273
274     #Last K_hat
275     K_hats = N_term(U_strg[-1].copy(), t_loc + c_hat[-1]*dt_loc)
276     Khat_strg.append(K_hats)

```

```

275     u_new = u.copy() + dt * b_hat[-1] * K_hats
276     for i in range(s):
277         u_new += dt_loc * (b[i] * K_strg[i] + b_hat[i]*Khat_strg[i])
278
279     tf = t_loc + dt_loc
280     u_new[0] = exact_solution(0.0, tf, nu_loc)
281     u_new[-1] = exact_solution(lx, tf, nu_loc)
282
283     return u_new
284
285     #===Temporal Integration
286     ↪ Methods=====
287     # IMEX(2,2,2) (ARS-style) coefficients:
288     def IMEX222_step(u, t_loc, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc):
289         gamma = (2-math.sqrt(2))/2
290         d222 = 1- (1/(2*gamma))
291         #print(f'gamma = {gamma}')
292         A = np.array([
293             [gamma, 0],
294             [1-gamma, gamma]
295         ])
296         b = A[-1]
297         c = np.sum(A, axis=1)
298
299         # Explicit (A_hat, b_hat)
300         A_hat = np.array([
301             [0, 0, 0],
302             [gamma, 0, 0],
303             [d222, 1-d222, 0]
304         ])
305         b_hat = A_hat[-1]
306         c_hat = np.sum(A_hat, axis=1)
307         return imex_step_general(u, t_loc, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc, A,
308             ↪ A_hat, b, b_hat, c, c_hat)
309
310     # IMEX(4,4,3) -- use the A-matrix you supplied (implicit) and a
311     ↪ trimmed explicit tableau
312     def IMEX443_step(u, t_loc, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc):
313         A = np.array([
314             [0.5, 0, 0, 0],

```



```

312         [1/6,    0.5,    0,    0],
313         [-0.5,   0.5,    0.5,   0],
314         [1.5,   -1.5,    0.5,   0.5]
315     ])
316     b = A[-1]
317     c = np.sum(A, axis=1)
318
319     # Explicit (A_hat, b_hat)
320     A_hat = np.array([
321         [0,    0,    0,    0, 0],
322         [0.5,   0,    0,    0, 0],
323         [11/18, 1/18, 0,    0, 0],
324         [5/6,  -5/6,  1/2,    0, 0],
325         [1/4,  7/4,  3/4,  -7/4, 0]
326     ])
327     b_hat = A_hat[-1]
328     c_hat = np.sum(A_hat, axis=1)
329     return imex_step_general(u, t_loc, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc, A,
330                               ↪ A_hat, b, b_hat, c, c_hat)
331
332 def IMEX_step(u, t_loc, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc, flag222=True):
333     """Wrapper to choose IMEX222 or IMEX443"""
334     if flag222:
335         return IMEX222_step(u, t_loc, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc)
336     else:
337         return IMEX443_step(u, t_loc, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc)
338
339 def forward_euler_step(u, t_loc, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc):
340     """Forward Euler step"""
341     rhs_val = rhs(t_loc, u, nu_loc, h_loc)
342     u_new = u + dt_loc * rhs_val
343
344     # Apply boundary conditions
345     u_new[0] = exact_solution(0.0, t_loc + dt_loc, nu_loc)
346     u_new[-1] = exact_solution(1x, t_loc + dt_loc, nu_loc)
347
348     return u_new
349
350 def rk4_step(u, t_loc, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc):
351     """RK4 step"""

```

```

351     # Stage 1
352     k1 = rhs(t_loc, u, nu_loc, h_loc)
353     u_temp = u + 0.5 * dt_loc * k1
354     u_temp[0] = exact_solution(0.0, t_loc + 0.5*dt_loc, nu_loc)
355     u_temp[-1] = exact_solution(lx, t_loc + 0.5*dt_loc, nu_loc)
356
357     # Stage 2
358     k2 = rhs(t_loc + 0.5*dt_loc, u_temp, nu_loc, h_loc)
359     u_temp = u + 0.5 * dt_loc * k2
360     u_temp[0] = exact_solution(0.0, t_loc + 0.5*dt_loc, nu_loc)
361     u_temp[-1] = exact_solution(lx, t_loc + 0.5*dt_loc, nu_loc)
362
363     # Stage 3
364     k3 = rhs(t_loc + 0.5*dt_loc, u_temp, nu_loc, h_loc)
365     u_temp = u + dt_loc * k3
366     u_temp[0] = exact_solution(0.0, t_loc + dt_loc, nu_loc)
367     u_temp[-1] = exact_solution(lx, t_loc + dt_loc, nu_loc)
368
369     # Stage 4
370     k4 = rhs(t_loc + dt_loc, u_temp, nu_loc, h_loc)
371
372     # Combine
373     u_new = u + dt_loc * (k1 + 2*k2 + 2*k3 + k4) / 6.0
374     u_new[0] = exact_solution(0.0, t_loc + dt_loc, nu_loc)
375     u_new[-1] = exact_solution(lx, t_loc + dt_loc, nu_loc)
376
377     return u_new
378
379 def mebdf_step(u, t_loc, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc):
380     """
381     Simplified MF-MEBDF step (backward Euler with fixed-point
382     ↪ iteration)
383     """
384     # Boundary conditions at next time
385     g1 = exact_solution(0.0, t_loc + dt_loc, nu_loc)
386     g2 = exact_solution(lx, t_loc + dt_loc, nu_loc)
387
388     # Initial guess
389     u_new = u.copy()
390     u_new[0] = g1

```

```

390     u_new[-1] = g2
391
392     # Fixed-point iteration
393     max_iter = 20
394     tol = 1e-10
395
396     for _ in range(max_iter):
397         f_new = rhs(t_loc + dt_loc, u_new, nu_loc, h_loc)
398         u_next = u + dt_loc * f_new
399
400         # Apply boundary conditions
401         u_next[0] = g1
402         u_next[-1] = g2
403
404         # Check convergence
405         if np.max(np.abs(u_next[1:-1] - u_new[1:-1])) < tol:
406             u_new = u_next
407             break
408
409     u_new = u_next
410
411     return u_new
412
413     #===Simulation
414     ↪ Function=====
415 def run_simulation(method_name, u_init, dt_loc, t_end_loc, nu_loc,
416     ↪ h_loc):
417     """Run simulation with specified method and return results"""
418     print(f"\nRunning {method_name} simulation...")
419     start_time = time.time()
420
421     u = u_init.copy()
422     solutions = [u_init.copy()]
423     times_out = [0.0]
424     errors_L2 = [calculate_errors(u_init, exact_solution(x, 0.0,
425         ↪ nu_loc))[0]]
426
427     # Calculate number of time steps
428     nit = int(np.ceil(t_end_loc / dt_loc))
429     store_interval = max(1, nit // 10) # Store ~10 snapshots

```

```

427
428     for it in range(nit):
429         t_current = it * dt_loc
430
431         # Choose integration method
432         if method_name == 'fe':
433             u = forward_euler_step(u, t_current, dt_loc, nu_loc,
434                                     ↪ h_loc)
435             #print(f'dt_conv = {h/max(u)}')
436             #print(f'Pe = {max(u)*h/nu}')
437         elif method_name == 'rk4':
438             u = rk4_step(u, t_current, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc)
439         elif method_name == 'mebdf':
440             u = mebdf_step(u, t_current, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc)
441         elif method_name == 'IMEX222':
442             u = IMEX_step(u, t_current, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc,
443                           ↪ flag222=True)
444         elif method_name == 'IMEX443':
445             u = IMEX_step(u, t_current, dt_loc, nu_loc, h_loc,
446                           ↪ flag222=False)
447         else:
448             raise ValueError(f"Unknown method {method_name}")
449
450         # Store solution and error at intervals
451         if (it + 1) % store_interval == 0:
452             solutions.append(u.copy())
453             times_out.append((it + 1) * dt_loc)
454
455             # compute error vs exact
456             u_ex = exact_solution(x, (it + 1) * dt_loc, nu_loc)
457             l2_err, _ = calculate_errors(u, u_ex)
458             errors_L2.append(l2_err)
459
460         # Print progress (guard against tiny nit)
461         if nit >= 10 and (it + 1) % max(1, nit // 10) == 0:
462             print(f"Progress: {(it+1)/nit*100:.1f}% complete")
463
464     end_time = time.time()
465     computation_time = end_time - start_time

```

```

463     print(f"{method_name} simulation completed in
        ↳ {computation_time:.2f} seconds")
464
465     return u, solutions, times_out, errors_L2, computation_time
466
467     #===Error
        ↳ Calculation=====
468     def calculate_errors(numerical_sol, exact_sol):
469         """Calculate L2 and L_infinity errors over internal points"""
470         diff = numerical_sol[1:-1] - exact_sol[1:-1]    # exclude
        ↳ boundary points
471         l2_error = np.sqrt(np.sum(diff**2))              # sum, not
        ↳ average
472         linf_error = np.max(np.abs(diff))
473         return l2_error, linf_error
474
475
476     #===Main
        ↳ Execution=====
477     # Determine which methods to run (fix typos)
478     methods_to_run = []
479     if method == 'all':
480         methods_to_run = ['fe', 'rk4', 'IMEX222', 'IMEX443']
481     else:
482         # allow user to input one of the names
483         methods_to_run = [method]
484
485     # Run simulations
486     results = {}
487     for method_name in methods_to_run:
488         final_u, solutions_list, times_list, errors_list, comp_time =
        ↳ run_simulation(
489             method_name, u_initial, dt, t_end, nu, h
490         )
491         results[method_name] = {
492             'final_u': final_u,
493             'solutions': solutions_list,
494             'times': times_list,
495             'errors_L2': errors_list,
496             'comp_time': comp_time

```

```

497     }
498
499     # Calculate exact solution at final time
500     u_exact = exact_solution(x, t_end, nu)
501
502     # Calculate and display errors
503     print("\n" + "="*60)
504     print("PERFORMANCE COMPARISON")
505     print("="*60)
506
507     for method_name in methods_to_run:
508         l2_error, linf_error =
509             → calculate_errors(results[method_name]['final_u'], u_exact)
510         print(f"{method_name.upper():6s} - L2 Error: {l2_error:.6e},
511             → L_inf Error: {linf_error:.6e}, Time:
512             → {results[method_name]['comp_time']:.3f}s")
513
514     #====Visualization=====
515     def plot_comparison(x_arr, results_dict, u_exact_arr, nu_loc):
516         """Plot comparison of all methods"""
517         plt.figure(figsize=(12, 8))
518
519         # Colors for different methods (include IMEX)
520         colors = {'fe': 'blue', 'rk4': 'green', 'mebdf': 'orange',
521             → 'IMEX222': 'purple', 'IMEX443': 'cyan'}
522         linestyle = {'fe': '-', 'rk4': '--', 'mebdf': '-.', 'IMEX222':
523             → '-', 'IMEX443': '--'}
524
525         # Plot each method
526         for method_name in results_dict.keys():
527             plt.plot(x_arr, results_dict[method_name]['final_u'],
528                 color=colors.get(method_name, 'black'),
529                 linestyle=linestyle.get(method_name, '-'),
530                 linewidth=2,
531                 label=f'{method_name.upper()}')
532
533         # Plot exact solution
534         plt.plot(x_arr, u_exact_arr, 'r--', linewidth=3, label='Exact')
535
536         plt.xlabel('x')

```

```

532     plt.ylabel('u(x,t)')
533     plt.title(f'Burgers Equation Solutions at t={t_end}
    ↪ (\nu={nu_loc}, dt={dt})')
534     plt.legend()
535     plt.grid(True, alpha=0.3)
536
537     # Save the plot
538     output_path = os.path.join(script_dir,
    ↪ f'burgers_comparison_nu{nu_loc}_dt{dt}.png')
539     plt.savefig(output_path, dpi=300, bbox_inches='tight')
540     print(f"Comparison plot saved to: {output_path}")
541     plt.close()
542
543     def plot_individual_solutions(x_arr, results_dict, u_exact_arr,
    ↪ nu_loc):
544         """Plot individual solutions for each method"""
545         for method_name in results_dict.keys():
546             plt.figure(figsize=(10, 6))
547
548             # Plot numerical solution at different times
549             n_plots = min(5,
    ↪ len(results_dict[method_name]['solutions']))
550             time_indices = np.linspace(0,
    ↪ len(results_dict[method_name]['solutions'])-1, n_plots,
    ↪ dtype=int)
551
552             colors_plot = plt.cm.viridis(np.linspace(0, 1, n_plots))
553
554             for i, idx in enumerate(time_indices):
555                 t_val = results_dict[method_name]['times'][idx]
556                 plt.plot(x_arr,
    ↪ results_dict[method_name]['solutions'][idx],
557                     color=colors_plot[i], linewidth=2,
558                     label=f't = {t_val:.3f}')
559
560             # Plot exact solution at final time
561             plt.plot(x_arr, u_exact_arr, 'r--', linewidth=3,
    ↪ label=f'Exact (t={t_end})')
562
563             plt.xlabel('x')

```

```

564         plt.ylabel('u(x,t)')
565         plt.title(f'Burgers Equation - {method_name.upper()} Scheme
        ↪ (\nu={nu_loc})')
566         plt.legend()
567         plt.grid(True, alpha=0.3)
568
569         # Save the plot
570         output_path = os.path.join(script_dir,
        ↪ f'burgers_{method_name}_nu{nu_loc}.png')
571         plt.savefig(output_path, dpi=300, bbox_inches='tight')
572         print(f"{method_name.upper()} plot saved to: {output_path}")
573         plt.close()
574
575     # Create plots
576     if len(results) > 1:
577         plot_comparison(x, results, u_exact, nu)
578         plot_individual_solutions(x, results, u_exact, nu)
579
580     def plot_errors(results_dict):
581         plt.figure(figsize=(10,6))
582         for method_name, data in results_dict.items():
583             plt.semilogy(data['times'], data['errors_L2'],
        ↪ label=method_name.upper(), linewidth=2)
584         plt.xlabel('Time')
585         plt.ylabel('L2 Error')
586         plt.title('Error evolution over time')
587         plt.legend()
588         plt.grid(True, which="both", alpha=0.3)
589         output_path = os.path.join(script_dir, f'burgers_errors.png')
590         plt.savefig(output_path, dpi=300, bbox_inches='tight')
591         print(f"Error plot saved to: {output_path}")
592         plt.close()
593
594     # After simulations:
595     plot_errors(results)
596
597     #===Save Results (Space-separated
        ↪ format)=====
598     def save_results(x_arr, results_dict, u_exact_arr, script_dir_loc,
        ↪ nu_loc):

```



```

599     """Save numerical results and errors to file in space-separated
        ↪ format"""
600     for method_name in results_dict.keys():
601         # Save final solution only (no exact solution column)
602         data = np.column_stack((x_arr,
        ↪ results_dict[method_name]['final_u']))
603         header = f"# x {method_name.upper()}"
604         output_file = os.path.join(script_dir_loc,
        ↪ f'burgers_{method_name}_nu{nu_loc}.dat')
605         np.savetxt(output_file, data, header=header, fmt='%.8f',
        ↪ delimiter=' ', comments='')
606         print(f"{method_name.upper()} results saved to:
        ↪ {output_file}")
607
608         # Save error evolution over time - space-separated format
609         error_data =
        ↪ np.column_stack((results_dict[method_name]['times'],
610
        ↪ results_dict[method_name]['errors_L2']))
611         error_header = f"# time L2_error"
612         error_file = os.path.join(script_dir_loc,
        ↪ f'burgers_errors_{method_name}_nu{nu_loc}.txt')
613         np.savetxt(error_file, error_data, header=error_header,
        ↪ fmt='%.8f', delimiter=' ', comments='')
614         print(f"{method_name.upper()} error evolution saved to:
        ↪ {error_file}")
615
616         # Additional: Save comparison data for all methods in one
        ↪ file
617         if len(results_dict) > 1:
618             comp_data = np.column_stack((x_arr,
        ↪ results_dict[method_name]['final_u']))
619             comp_file = os.path.join(script_dir_loc,
        ↪ f'burgers_comparison_{method_name}_nu{nu_loc}.dat')
620             np.savetxt(comp_file, comp_data, fmt='%.8f', delimiter='
        ↪ ',
621
        ↪ header=f"# x {method_name.upper()}',
        ↪ comments='')
622
623         # Save exact solution separately

```

```

624     exact_data = np.column_stack((x_arr, u_exact_arr))
625     exact_file = os.path.join(script_dir_loc,
        ↪     f'burgers_exact_nu{nu_loc}.dat')
626     np.savetxt(exact_file, exact_data, fmt='%.8f', delimiter=' ',
627               header='# x Exact', comments='')
628     print(f"Exact solution saved to: {exact_file}")
629
630
631     save_results(x, results, u_exact, script_dir, nu)
632
633     print("\nSimulation completed successfully! Data in space-separated
        ↪     format.")

```

Appendix G

Lid-Driven Cavity Code

RK4

```
1 import numpy as np
2 import matplotlib.pyplot as plt
3 import matplotlib.ticker as mticker
4 from mpl_toolkits.axes_grid1 import make_axes_locatable
5 from matplotlib.ticker import ScalarFormatter
6 import math
7 import json
8 import sys
9 import argparse
10 import os
11 import glob
12 import time
13 from scipy.sparse import diags, kron, eye, lil_matrix, linalg,
    ↪ block_diag
14 from scipy.sparse import identity
15 from scipy.sparse.linalg import spsolve
16 from scipy.sparse import lil_matrix, csr_matrix
17 from scipy.sparse.linalg import LinearOperator, cg # Corrected
    ↪ import for cg
18 from scipy.sparse.linalg import bicgstab
19 from scipy.sparse.linalg import spilu, LinearOperator
20 import pyamg
21
22 def generate_Ap(nx, ny, dx, dy):
23     total_size = ny * nx
24
25     # =====
```

```

26     # Generate Apx (x-direction)
27     # =====
28     inv_dx2 = 1.0 / (dx ** 2)
29
30     # Main diagonal
31     md_Apx = np.full(total_size, -2.0 * inv_dx2)
32     md_Apx[::nx] = -1.0 * inv_dx2      # First element of each
    ↪ x-block
33     md_Apx[nx-1::nx] = -1.0 * inv_dx2  # Last element of each
    ↪ x-block
34
35     # Upper/lower diagonals
36     upper_x = np.ones(total_size - 1) * inv_dx2
37     upper_x[nx-1::nx] = 0.0
38     lower_x = upper_x.copy()
39
40     Apx = diags([lower_x, md_Apx, upper_x], [-1, 0, 1],
    ↪ format='csr')
41
42     # =====
43     # Generate Apy (y-direction)
44     # =====
45     inv_dy2 = 1.0 / (dy ** 2)
46
47     # Main diagonal
48     md_Apy = np.zeros(total_size)
49
50     # Fill interior rows (-2/dy2)
51     md_Apy[nx:-nx] = -2.0 * inv_dy2
52
53     # Fill first and last ny rows (-1/dy2)
54     md_Apy[:nx] = -1.0 * inv_dy2      # First y-block
55     md_Apy[-nx:] = -1.0 * inv_dy2    # Last y-block
56
57     # Off-diagonals (+1/dy2 spaced nx apart)
58     upper_y = np.ones(total_size - nx) * inv_dy2
59     lower_y = upper_y.copy()
60
61     Apy = diags([lower_y, md_Apy, upper_y], [-nx, 0, nx],
    ↪ format='csr')

```

```

62
63     # =====
64     # Combine matrices
65     # =====
66     Ap = Apx + Apy
67     #ml = pyamg.smoothed_aggregation_solver(Ap)
68     ml = pyamg.ruge_stuben_solver(Ap)
69
70     return Ap, ml
71
72 def amg_solver(p, S, Ap, nx, ny, ml):
73     """
74     Solves the linear system  $Ap \, x = b$  using PyAMG as a solver.
75     """
76     # Flatten source term (excluding ghost cells)
77     b = S[1:-1, 1:-1].ravel()
78
79     # Initial guess
80     x0 = p[1:-1, 1:-1].ravel()
81
82     # Setup PyAMG multigrid solver
83     #ml = pyamg.smoothed_aggregation_solver(Ap)
84
85     # Solve the system using AMG
86     x = ml.solve(b, x0=x0, tol=1e-6, cycle='V')
87
88
89     # Compute residual norm
90     #residual = np.linalg.norm(Ap @ x - b)
91     residual = np.abs(Ap @ x - b).reshape((ny, nx))
92
93     # Insert result back into pressure field
94     p_new = p.copy()
95     p_new[1:-1, 1:-1] = x.reshape((ny, nx))
96
97     return p_new, residual
98
99
100 def apply_BC(u, v, Utop):
101     # BC on the u velocity

```

```

102     u[:,1] = 0.0 #Left Wall Impermiabile
103     u[:,-1] = 0.0 #Right Wall Impermiabile
104     u[0,:] = -1.0 * u[1,:] #Bottom Wall BC, Including Ghost Cells
105     u[-1,:] = 2.0 * Utop - u[-2,:] #Top Wall BC, including Ghost
        ↪ Cell
106
107     # BC on the v velocity
108     v[-1,:] = 0.0 #Top Wall Impermiabile
109     v[1,:] = 0.0 #Bottom Wall Impermiabile
110     v[:,0] = -1.0 * v[:,1] #Left Wall BC, including Ghost Cell
111     v[:,-1] = -1.0 * v[:,-2] #Right Wall
112     return u, v
113
114 def compute_rhs(u, v, nu, dx, dy):
115     ut = np.zeros_like(u)
116     vt = np.zeros_like(v)
117
118     # Compute u-component RHS
119     for i in range(2, nx+1):
120         for j in range(1, ny+1):
121             ue = 0.5 * (u[j,i+1] + u[j,i])
122             uw = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j,i-1])
123             un = 0.5 * (u[j+1,i] + u[j,i])
124             us = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j-1,i])
125
126             vn = 0.5 * (v[j+1, i-1] + v[j+1, i])
127             vs = 0.5 * (v[j, i-1] + v[j, i])
128
129             convection = -(ue*ue - uw*uw)/dx - (un*vn - us*vs)/dy
130             diffusion = nu * ((u[j,i-1] - 2.0 * u[j,i] +
        ↪ u[j,i+1])/dx/dx +
131                               (u[j-1,i] - 2.0 * u[j,i] +
        ↪ u[j+1,i])/dy/dy)
132             ut[j,i] = convection + diffusion
133
134     # Compute v-component RHS
135     for i in range(1, nx+1):
136         for j in range(2, ny+1):
137             ve = 0.5 * (v[j,i+1] + v[j,i])
138             vw = 0.5 * (v[j,i] + v[j,i-1])

```

```

139         ue = 0.5 * (u[j,i+1] + u[j-1,i+1])
140         uw = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j-1,i])
141
142         vn = 0.5 * (v[j+1, i] + v[j, i])
143         vs = 0.5 * (v[j, i] + v[j-1, i])
144
145         convection = -(ue*ve - uw*vw)/dx - (vn*vn - vs*vs)/dy
146         diffusion = nu * ((v[j,i+1] - 2.0 * v[j,i] +
147             ↪ v[j,i-1])/dx/dx +
148             (v[j+1,i] - 2.0 * v[j,i] +
149             ↪ v[j-1,i])/dy/dy)
150         vt[j,i] = convection + diffusion
151
152     return ut, vt
153
154 def NS_operator(u, v, nu, dx, dy, dpdx, dpdy):
155     diff_u = np.zeros_like(u)
156     conv_u = np.zeros_like(u)
157
158     diff_v = np.zeros_like(v)
159     conv_v = np.zeros_like(v)
160
161     RHS_u = np.zeros_like(u)
162     RHS_v = np.zeros_like(v)
163
164     NS_u = np.zeros_like(u)
165     NS_v = np.zeros_like(v)
166
167     # Compute u-component RHS
168     for i in range(2, nx+1):
169         for j in range(1, ny+1):
170             ue = 0.5 * (u[j,i+1] + u[j,i])
171             uw = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j,i-1])
172             un = 0.5 * (u[j+1,i] + u[j,i])
173             us = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j-1,i])
174
175             vn = 0.5 * (v[j+1, i-1] + v[j+1, i])
176             vs = 0.5 * (v[j, i-1] + v[j, i])

```

```

177
178         conv_u[j,i] = -(ue*ue - uw*uw)/dx - (un*vn - us*vs)/dy
179         diff_u[j,i] = nu * ((u[j,i-1] - 2.0 * u[j,i] +
180                               ↪ u[j,i+1])/dx/dx +
181                               (u[j-1,i] - 2.0 * u[j,i] +
182                               ↪ u[j+1,i])/dy/dy)
183
184         RHS_u = conv_u + diff_u
185
186     # Compute v-component RHS
187     for i in range(1, nx+1):
188         for j in range(2, ny+1):
189             ve = 0.5 * (v[j,i+1] + v[j,i])
190             vw = 0.5 * (v[j,i] + v[j,i-1])
191             ue = 0.5 * (u[j,i+1] + u[j-1,i+1])
192             uw = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j-1,i])
193
194             vn = 0.5 * (v[j+1,i] + v[j,i])
195             vs = 0.5 * (v[j,i] + v[j-1,i])
196
197             conv_v[j,i] = -(ue*ve - uw*vw)/dx - (vn*vn - vs*vs)/dy
198             diff_v[j,i] = nu * ((v[j,i+1] - 2.0 * v[j,i] +
199                                   ↪ v[j,i-1])/dx/dx +
200                                   (v[j+1,i] - 2.0 * v[j,i] +
201                                   ↪ v[j-1,i])/dy/dy)
202
203             RHS_v = conv_v + diff_v
204
205     NS_u[1:-1, 2:-1] = RHS_u[1:-1, 2:-1] - dpdx
206     NS_v[2:-1, 1:-1] = RHS_v[2:-1, 1:-1] - dpdy
207
208     return NS_u, NS_v, RHS_u, RHS_v
209
210 def pressure_correction(u, v, Ap, p, dt, dx, dy, ml):
211     div = np.zeros_like(p)
212     div[1:-1, 1:-1] = (u[1:-1, 2:] - u[1:-1, 1:-1])/dx + (v[2:,
213       ↪ 1:-1] - v[1:-1, 1:-1])/dy
214
215     prhs = div / dt

```



```

212     # Use PCG instead of SOR      p, S, Ap, nx, ny
213     p_new, residual = amg_solver(p.copy(), prhs, Ap, nx, ny, ml)
214
215     # Apply pressure correction to velocities
216     u_corr = u.copy()
217     v_corr = v.copy()
218
219     dpdx = (p_new[1:-1, 2:-1] - p_new[1:-1, 1:-2])/dx
220     dpdy = (p_new[2:-1, 1:-1] - p_new[1:-2, 1:-1])/dy
221
222     u_corr[1:-1, 2:-1] = u[1:-1, 2:-1] - dt * dpdx
223     v_corr[2:-1, 1:-1] = v[2:-1, 1:-1] - dt * dpdy
224
225     u_corr, v_corr = apply_BC(u_corr, v_corr, Utop)
226
227     return u_corr, v_corr, p_new, dpdx, dpdy, residual
228
229
230     #===Check Point
231     ↪ Setup=====
232     checkpoint_interval = 5000 # Save checkpoint every N steps
233     checkpoint_dir = os.path.join(script_dir, "checkpoints")
234     latest_checkpoint = None
235
236     #===Domain
237     ↪ Setup=====
238     lx, ly = 1.0, 1.0
239     nx, ny = 128, 128
240     nelm = nx * ny
241     print(f'Nx = {nx}')
242     x = np.linspace(0, lx, nx)
243     y = np.linspace(0, ly, ny)
244     dx, dy = lx/nx, ly/ny
245     print(f' dx= {dx}')
246     xx, yy = np.meshgrid(x, y)
247
248     #===BC for
249     ↪ Pressure=====
250     App, ml = generate_Ap(nx, ny, dx, dy)
251     print(f'ml = {ml}')

```

```

249
250 #===Flow
    ↪ parameters=====
251 Utop = 1.0
252 Ubot = 0.0
253 Vleft = 0.0
254 Vright = 0.0
255 Re = 100                # Reynolds number
256 nu = lx * Utop / Re    # Kinematic viscosity = 1 / Re, in practise
257
258 #===Time
    ↪ parameters=====
259 t = 0.0
260 t_end = 10
261 nit = int(10000)
262
263 dt = np.float64(t_end / nit)
264 print(dt)
265
266 dt1 = 0.5/nu / (1.0/dx/dx + 1.0/dy/dy)
267 dt2 = 2.0 * nu / (Utop**2)
268
269 # Initialize arrays
270 p = np.zeros([ny+2, nx+2])
271 u = np.zeros([ny+2, nx+2])
272 v = np.zeros([ny+2, nx+2])
273 u_old = np.zeros_like(u)
274 v_old = np.zeros_like(v)
275
276 u[-1,:] = Utop
277
278 p_int = np.zeros([ny, nx])
279 u_int = np.zeros([ny, nx-1])
280 v_int = np.zeros([ny-1, nx])
281
282
283 Ek0 = 1e-6
284 dV = dx * dy
285 Ek_store = [Ek0]
286 t_sim = [0.0]

```

```

287
288 residuals_u = []
289 residuals_v = []
290 residuals_p = []
291 residuals_Ek = []
292 residuals_omega = []
293
294 resNSu = []
295 resNSv = []
296 resNSp = []
297
298 Uwallt = [0.0]
299 Uwall_mean_history = [] # To store mean Uwall over time
300 residuals_Uwall = [] # To store residuals of Uwall
301 counter = 0
302
303 #nsave = 5 #Number of time steps to save
304 dt_i = dt
305
306 if os.path.exists(checkpoint_dir):
307     checkpoint_files = sorted(glob.glob(os.path.join(checkpoint_dir,
308 ↪ "checkpoint_Re*.npz")))
309     if checkpoint_files:
310         latest_checkpoint = checkpoint_files[-1]
311
312 if latest_checkpoint:
313     print(f"Found checkpoint file: {latest_checkpoint}")
314     result = load_checkpoint(latest_checkpoint)
315     if result:
316         (t, u, v, p, Ek_store, t_sim, residuals_u, residuals_v,
317 ↪ residuals_p,
318         residuals_omega, residuals_Ek, Uwall_mean_history,
319         Re, nx, ny, dt, nu, Utop) = result
320
321 # Recreate grid parameters since they weren't saved
322 x = np.linspace(0, lx, nx)
323 y = np.linspace(0, ly, ny)
324 dx, dy = lx/nx, ly/ny
325 xx, yy = np.meshgrid(x, y)
326

```

```

325         # Reinitialize Ap, Ae, Aw, An, As arrays
326         Ap = np.zeros([ny+2, nx+2])
327         Ae = 1.0/dx/dx * np.ones([ny+2, nx+2])
328         Aw = 1.0/dx/dx * np.ones([ny+2, nx+2])
329         An = 1.0/dy/dy * np.ones([ny+2, nx+2])
330         As = 1.0/dy/dy * np.ones([ny+2, nx+2])
331
332         # Boundary conditions for pressure
333         Aw[1:-1, 1] = 0.0
334         Ae[1:-1, -2] = 0.0
335         An[-2, 1:-1] = 0.0
336         As[1, 1:-1] = 0.0
337         Ap = - (Ae + Aw + An + As)
338
339         # Set old variables for residual calculation
340         u_old, v_old, p_old = u.copy(), v.copy(), p.copy()
341         omega = np.zeros((ny, nx)) # Will be recalculated in first
342         ↪ iteration
343         omega_old = omega.copy()
344         Uwall_old = abs(u[-1,1:] + u[-2,1:]) / 2
345         Ek0 = Ek_store[-1]
346
347         print(f"Restarted simulation from t={t:.4f}")
348     else:
349         print("Failed to load checkpoint, starting from scratch")
350         # Initialize as before
351     else:
352         print("No checkpoint found, starting new simulation")
353         # Initialize as before
354
355     #=== RK4 AMG
356     ↪ =====
357     start_time = time.time()
358     cont_it = int(0)
359
360     for cont_it in range(1, nit+1):
361         p0 = p.copy()
362         u, v = apply_BC(u, v, Utop)
363
364         # Stage 1: Compute explicit RHS (advection + diffusion only)

```

```

363     k1u, k1v = compute_rhs(u, v, nu, dx, dy)
364     u1 = u + 0.5*dt * k1u
365     v1 = v + 0.5*dt * k1v
366     u1, v1 = apply_BC(u1, v1, Utop)
367     u1, v1, p1, _, _, _ = pressure_correction(u1, v1, App, p0,
        ↪ 0.5*dt, dx, dy, ml) # Project here
368
369     # Stage 2: Repeat with u1, v1
370     k2u, k2v = compute_rhs(u1, v1, nu, dx, dy)
371     u2 = u + 0.5*dt * k2u
372     v2 = v + 0.5*dt * k2v
373     u2, v2 = apply_BC(u2, v2, Utop)
374     u2, v2, p2, _, _, _ = pressure_correction(u2, v2, App, p0,
        ↪ 0.5*dt, dx, dy, ml) # Project again
375
376     # Stage 3: Full step
377     k3u, k3v = compute_rhs(u2, v2, nu, dx, dy)
378     u3 = u + dt * k3u
379     v3 = v + dt * k3v
380     u3, v3 = apply_BC(u3, v3, Utop)
381     u3, v3, p3, _, _, _ = pressure_correction(u3, v3, App, p0, dt,
        ↪ dx, dy, ml) # Project again
382
383     # Stage 4: Final explicit RHS
384     k4u, k4v = compute_rhs(u3, v3, nu, dx, dy)
385
386     # RK4 weighted update (without pressure yet)
387     ut = u + (dt/6.0) * (k1u + 2*k2u + 2*k3u + k4u)
388     vt = v + (dt/6.0) * (k1v + 2*k2v + 2*k3v + k4v)
389     ut, vt = apply_BC(ut, vt, Utop)
390
391     # FINAL pressure correction (optional, but helps stability)
392     ut, vt, p, _, _, Rp = pressure_correction(ut, vt, App, p0, dt,
        ↪ dx, dy, ml)
393
394     # Update variables
395     u, v = ut.copy(), vt.copy()
396     u, v = apply_BC(u, v, Utop)
397
398     #NS_u, NS_v, _, _ = NS_operator(u, v, nu, dx, dy, dpdxn, dpdyn)

```

```

399
400 Ru = np.zeros([ny, nx+1])
401 Rv = np.zeros([ny+1, nx])
402
403 #Ru = (u[1:-1, 2:-1]-u_old[1:-1, 2:-1]) / dt - NS_u[1:-1, 2:-1]
404 #Rv = (v[2:-1, 1:-1]-v_old[2:-1, 1:-1]) / dt - NS_v[2:-1, 1:-1]
405 #NS_p = pressure_residual(p, u, v, dx, dy, dt, nx, ny, Ap, Ae,
    ↪ Aw, An, As)
406
407 Ru = abs(u[1:-1, 2:-1]-u_old[1:-1, 2:-1]) / np.max(u_old[1:-1,
    ↪ 2:-1])
408 Rv = abs(v[2:-1, 1:-1]-v_old[2:-1, 1:-1]) / np.max(u_old[1:-1,
    ↪ 2:-1])
409
410
411 Uwalli = abs(u[-1,1:] + u[-2,1:]) / 2
412 Uwallt.append(Uwalli)
413
414 # Calculate and store mean Uwall
415 Uwall_mean = np.mean(Uwalli)
416 Uwall_mean_history.append(Uwall_mean)
417
418 #Vorticity Calculations
419 dvdx = np.zeros((ny, nx))
420 dudy = np.zeros((ny, nx))
421 omega = np.zeros((ny, nx))
422 # Calculate dvdx for all j and i at once
423 dvdx = (v[1:-1, 2:] - v[1:-1, :-2]) / (2 * dx)
424
425 # Calculate dudy for all j and i at once
426 dudy = (u[2:, 1:-1] - u[:-2, 1:-1]) / (2 * dy)
427
428 # Compute vorticity
429 omega = dvdx - dudy
430
431 ui_centers = 0.5*(u[1:-1,1:-1] + u[1:-1,2:]) # Average u to
    ↪ cell centers
432 vi_centers = 0.5*(v[1:-1,1:-1] + v[2:,1:-1])
433
434 Eki = 0.5 * np.sum(ui_centers**2 + vi_centers**2) / nelm

```

```

435     #tol = abs(Ek0 - Eki) / Ek0
436     Ek_store.append(Eki)
437
438     if len(Ek_store) > 1:
439         du = np.linalg.norm(u - u_old) / np.linalg.norm(u_old) if
            ↳ 'u_old' in locals() else 1.0
440         dv = np.linalg.norm(v - v_old) / np.linalg.norm(v_old) if
            ↳ 'v_old' in locals() else 1.0
441         dp = np.linalg.norm(p - p_old) / np.linalg.norm(p_old) if
            ↳ 'p_old' in locals() else 1.0
442         domega = np.linalg.norm(omega - omega_old) /
            ↳ np.linalg.norm(omega_old) if 'omega_old' in locals()
            ↳ else 1.0
443         dEk = abs(Ek0 - Eki) / Ek0 if len(Ek_store) > 1 else 1.0
444
445
446         residuals_u.append(du)
447         residuals_v.append(dv)
448         residuals_p.append(dp)
449         residuals_omega.append(domega)
450         residuals_Ek.append(dEk)
451
452
453         dur = np.max(np.abs(Ru)) # Maximum absolute residual for
            ↳ u-momentum
454         dvr = np.max(np.abs(Rv)) # Maximum absolute residual for
            ↳ v-momentum
455         dpr = np.max(np.abs(Rp)) # Maximum absolute residual for p
456         #dur = np.linalg.norm(NS_u)
457         #dvr = np.linalg.norm(NS_v)
458
459         resNSu.append(dur)
460         resNSv.append(dvr)
461         resNSp.append(dpr)
462
463     Ek0 = Eki
464     u_old, v_old, p_old = u.copy(), v.copy(), p.copy()
465     omega_old = omega.copy()
466     Uwall_old = Uwalli.copy()
467     counter += 1

```

```

468
469     t = np.float64(cont_it * dt)
470     t_sim.append(t)
471     dt_i = min(dt, t_end - t)
472
473 end_time = time.time()
474 elapsed_time = end_time - start_time
475
476 simtime_filename = f"simulation_time_Re{Re}_{nx}_{ny}_{dt:.4f}.txt"
477 simtime_path = os.path.join(script_dir, simtime_filename)
478
479 # Write the elapsed time to this new file
480 with open(simtime_path, 'w') as f:
481     f.write(f"Simulation elapsed time (seconds):
482     ↪ {elapsed_time:.2f}\n")
483     f.write(f"Re = {Re}, nx = {nx}, ny = {ny}, dt = {dt:.18f}\n")
484
485 print(f"Simulation time saved to {simtime_path}")
486 print(f"Total simulation time: {elapsed_time:.2f} seconds")
487
488 #Perform th final Post Processing
489 final_message = postProcess(u, v, dx, dy, nx, ny, lx, ly, x, y, xx,
490     ↪ yy, t, Re, nu, Utop, p, omega, Ek_store, residuals_u,
491     ↪ residuals_v, residuals_p, residuals_Ek, t_sim,
492     ↪ Uwall_mean_history, script_dir, resNSu, resNSv, resNSp, Ru, Rv,
493     ↪ Rp)

```


IMEX

```
1 import numpy as np
2 import matplotlib.pyplot as plt
3 import matplotlib.ticker as mticker
4 from mpl_toolkits.axes_grid1 import make_axes_locatable
5 from matplotlib.ticker import ScalarFormatter
6 import math
7 import json
8 import sys
9 import argparse
10 import os
11 import glob
12 import time
13 from scipy.sparse import diags, kron, eye, lil_matrix, linalg,
    ↪ block_diag
14 from scipy.sparse import identity
15 from scipy.sparse.linalg import spsolve
16 from scipy.sparse import lil_matrix, csr_matrix
17 from scipy.sparse.linalg import LinearOperator, cg # Corrected
    ↪ import for cg
18 from scipy.sparse.linalg import bicgstab
19 from scipy.sparse.linalg import spilu, LinearOperator
20 import pyamg
21
22 def generate_Ap(nx, ny, dx, dy):
23     total_size = ny * nx
24
25     # =====
26     # Generate Apx (x-direction)
27     # =====
28     inv_dx2 = 1.0 / (dx ** 2)
29
30     # Main diagonal
31     md_Apx = np.full(total_size, -2.0 * inv_dx2)
32     md_Apx[::nx] = -1.0 * inv_dx2 # First element of each
    ↪ x-block
33     md_Apx[nx-1::nx] = -1.0 * inv_dx2 # Last element of each
    ↪ x-block
34
35     # Upper/lower diagonals
```

```

36     upper_x = np.ones(total_size - 1) * inv_dx2
37     upper_x[nx-1:nx] = 0.0
38     lower_x = upper_x.copy()
39
40     Apx = diags([lower_x, md_Apx, upper_x], [-1, 0, 1],
41                 ↪ format='csr')
42
43     # =====
44     # Generate Apy (y-direction)
45     # =====
46     inv_dy2 = 1.0 / (dy ** 2)
47
48     # Main diagonal
49     md_Apy = np.zeros(total_size)
50
51     # Fill interior rows (-2/dy2)
52     md_Apy[nx:-nx] = -2.0 * inv_dy2
53
54     # Fill first and last ny rows (-1/dy2)
55     md_Apy[:nx] = -1.0 * inv_dy2      # First y-block
56     md_Apy[-nx:] = -1.0 * inv_dy2    # Last y-block
57
58     # Off-diagonals (+1/dy2 spaced nx apart)
59     upper_y = np.ones(total_size - nx) * inv_dy2
60     lower_y = upper_y.copy()
61
62     Apy = diags([lower_y, md_Apy, upper_y], [-nx, 0, nx],
63                 ↪ format='csr')
64
65     # =====
66     # Combine matrices
67     # =====
68     Ap = Apx + Apy
69     #ml = pyamg.smoothed_aggregation_solver(Ap)
70     ml = pyamg.ruge_stuben_solver(Ap)
71
72     return Ap, ml
73
74 def cg_solver(p, S, App, nx, ny):

```

```

74     # Flatten the source term (excluding ghost cells)
75     b = S[1:-1, 1:-1].ravel()
76
77     # Initial guess (flattened, excluding ghost cells)
78     p0 = p[1:-1, 1:-1].ravel()
79
80     # Solve using PCG with diagonal preconditioner
81     M = diags(1.0/App.diagonal()) # Jacobi preconditioner
82
83     p_flat, info = cg(App, b, x0=p0, rtol=1e-06, M=M)
84
85     if info != 0:
86         print(f"PCG did not converge: info = {info}")
87     # Compute residual norm
88     residual = np.abs(App @ p_flat - b).reshape((ny,nx))
89     #print(f'DimensionsResi_p = {np.shape(residual)}')
90
91     # Reshape solution and maintain ghost cells
92     p_new = p.copy()
93     p_new[1:-1, 1:-1] = p_flat.reshape((ny, nx))
94
95     return p_new, residual
96
97 def amg_solver(p, S, Ap, nx, ny, ml):
98     """
99     Solves the linear system  $Ap \mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$  using PyAMG as a solver.
100    """
101    # Flatten source term (excluding ghost cells)
102    b = S[1:-1, 1:-1].ravel()
103
104    # Initial guess
105    x0 = p[1:-1, 1:-1].ravel()
106
107    # Setup PyAMG multigrid solver
108    #ml = pyamg.smoothed_aggregation_solver(Ap)
109
110    # Solve the system using AMG
111    x = ml.solve(b, x0=x0, tol=1e-6, cycle='V')
112
113

```

```

114     # Compute residual norm
115     #residual = np.linalg.norm(Ap @ x - b)
116     residual = np.abs(Ap @ x - b).reshape((ny,nx))
117
118     # Insert result back into pressure field
119     p_new = p.copy()
120     p_new[1:-1, 1:-1] = x.reshape((ny, nx))
121
122     return p_new, residual
123
124
125
126 def pressure_correction(u, v, Ap, p, dt, dx, dy, ml):
127     div = np.zeros_like(p)
128     div[1:-1, 1:-1] = (u[1:-1, 2:] - u[1:-1, 1:-1])/dx + (v[2:,
129         ↪ 1:-1] - v[1:-1, 1:-1])/dy
130
131     prhs = div / dt
132
133     # Use AMG instead of SOR      p, S, Ap, nx, ny
134     p_new, residual = amg_solver(p.copy(), prhs, Ap, nx, ny, ml)
135
136     # Apply pressure correction to velocities
137     u_corr = u.copy()
138     v_corr = v.copy()
139
140     dpdx = (p_new[1:-1, 2:-1] - p_new[1:-1, 1:-2])/dx
141     dpdy = (p_new[2:-1, 1:-1] - p_new[1:-2, 1:-1])/dy
142
143     u_corr[1:-1, 2:-1] = u[1:-1, 2:-1] - dt * dpdx
144     v_corr[2:-1, 1:-1] = v[2:-1, 1:-1] - dt * dpdy
145
146     u_corr, v_corr = apply_BC(u_corr, v_corr, Utop)
147
148     return u_corr, v_corr, p_new, dpdx, dpdy, residual
149
150 def apply_BC(u, v, Utop):
151     # BC on the u velocity
152

```

```

153     u[:,1] = 0.0 #Left Wall Impermiabile
154     u[:, -1] = 0.0 #Right Wall Impermiabile
155     u[0,:] = -1.0 * u[1,:] #Bottom Wall BC, Including Ghost Cells
156     u[-1,:] = 2.0 * Utop - u[-2,:] #Top Wall BC, including Ghost
        → Cell
157
158     # BC on the v velocity
159     v[-1,:] = 0.0 #Top Wall Impermiabile
160     v[1,:] = 0.0 #Bottom Wall Impermiabile
161     v[:,0] = -1.0 * v[:,1] #Left Wall BC, including Ghost Cell
162     v[:, -1] = -1.0 * v[:, -2] #Right Wall
163     return u, v
164
165 def compute_explicit(u, v, dx, dy):
166     RHSu_hat = np.zeros_like(u)
167     RHSv_hat = np.zeros_like(v)
168
169     # Compute u-component RHS
170     for i in range(2, nx+1):
171         for j in range(1, ny+1):
172             ue = 0.5 * (u[j,i+1] + u[j,i])
173             uw = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j,i-1])
174             un = 0.5 * (u[j+1,i] + u[j,i])
175             us = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j-1,i])
176
177             vn = 0.5 * (v[j+1, i-1] + v[j+1, i])
178             vs = 0.5 * (v[j, i-1] + v[j, i])
179
180             RHSu_hat[j,i] = -(ue*ue - uw*uw)/dx - (un*vn - us*vs)/dy
181
182     # Compute v-component RHS
183     for i in range(1, nx+1):
184         for j in range(2, ny+1):
185             ve = 0.5 * (v[j,i+1] + v[j,i])
186             vw = 0.5 * (v[j,i] + v[j,i-1])
187             ue = 0.5 * (u[j,i+1] + u[j-1,i+1])
188             uw = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j-1,i])
189
190             vn = 0.5 * (v[j+1, i] + v[j, i])
191             vs = 0.5 * (v[j, i] + v[j-1, i])

```

```

192
193         RHSv_hat[j,i] = -(ue*ve - uw*vw)/dx - (vn*vn - vs*vs)/dy
194
195     return RHSu_hat, RHSv_hat
196
197 def compute_implicit(u, v, nu, dx, dy):
198     RHSu = np.zeros_like(u)
199     RHSv = np.zeros_like(v)
200
201     # Compute u-component RHS
202     for i in range(2, nx+1):
203         for j in range(1, ny+1):
204             RHSu[j,i] = nu * ((u[j,i-1] - 2.0 * u[j,i] +
205                               ↪ u[j,i+1])/dx/dx +
206                               (u[j-1,i] - 2.0 * u[j,i] +
207                               ↪ u[j+1,i])/dy/dy)
208
209     # Compute v-component RHS
210     for i in range(1, nx+1):
211         for j in range(2, ny+1):
212             RHSv[j,i] = nu * ((v[j,i+1] - 2.0 * v[j,i] +
213                               ↪ v[j,i-1])/dx/dx +
214                               (v[j+1,i] - 2.0 * v[j,i] +
215                               ↪ v[j-1,i])/dy/dy)
216
217     return RHSu, RHSv
218
219 def NS_operator(u, v, nu, dx, dy, dpdx, dpdy):
220     diff_u = np.zeros_like(u)
221     conv_u = np.zeros_like(u)
222
223     diff_v = np.zeros_like(v)
224     conv_v = np.zeros_like(v)
225
226     RHS_u = np.zeros_like(u)
227     RHS_v = np.zeros_like(v)

```

```

228     NS_p = np.zeros_like(p)
229
230
231     # Compute u-component RHS
232     for i in range(2, nx+1):
233         for j in range(1, ny+1):
234             ue = 0.5 * (u[j,i+1] + u[j,i])
235             uw = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j,i-1])
236             un = 0.5 * (u[j+1,i] + u[j,i])
237             us = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j-1,i])
238
239             vn = 0.5 * (v[j+1, i-1] + v[j+1, i])
240             vs = 0.5 * (v[j, i-1] + v[j, i])
241
242             conv_u[j,i] = -(ue*ue - uw*uw)/dx - (un*vn - us*vs)/dy
243             diff_u[j,i] = nu * ((u[j,i-1] - 2.0 * u[j,i] +
244                                     ↪ u[j,i+1])/dx/dx +
245                                     (u[j-1,i] - 2.0 * u[j,i] +
246                                     ↪ u[j+1,i])/dy/dy)
247
248             RHS_u = conv_u + diff_u
249
250     # Compute v-component RHS
251     for i in range(1, nx+1):
252         for j in range(2, ny+1):
253             ve = 0.5 * (v[j,i+1] + v[j,i])
254             vw = 0.5 * (v[j,i] + v[j,i-1])
255             ue = 0.5 * (u[j,i+1] + u[j-1,i+1])
256             uw = 0.5 * (u[j,i] + u[j-1,i])
257
258             vn = 0.5 * (v[j+1, i] + v[j, i])
259             vs = 0.5 * (v[j, i] + v[j-1, i])
260
261             conv_v[j,i] = -(ue*ve - uw*vw)/dx - (vn*vn - vs*vs)/dy
262             diff_v[j,i] = nu * ((v[j,i+1] - 2.0 * v[j,i] +
263                                     ↪ v[j,i-1])/dx/dx +
264                                     (v[j+1,i] - 2.0 * v[j,i] +
265                                     ↪ v[j-1,i])/dy/dy)
266
267             RHS_v = conv_v + diff_v

```

```

264
265     NS_u[1:-1, 2:-1] = RHS_u[1:-1, 2:-1] - dpdx
266     NS_v[2:-1, 1:-1] = RHS_v[2:-1, 1:-1] - dpdy
267     #print (f'NS_u(y,x)={np.shape(NS_u)}')
268     return NS_u, NS_v
269
270
271
272 def generate_Lu(nx, ny, dx, dy, Utop):
273     """
274     Generate Laplacian operators for a staggered grid of size ny ×
275     ↪ (nx-1).
276
277     Parameters:
278         nx (int): Number of x grid points (including boundaries)
279         ny (int): Number of y grid points (including boundaries)
280         dx (float): Grid spacing in x-direction
281         dy (float): Grid spacing in y-direction
282
283     Returns:
284         Lu (csr_matrix): Combined Laplacian operator (1/dx2 Lux +
285         ↪ 1/dy2 Luy)
286         Lux (csr_matrix): x-direction component (unscaled)
287         Luy (csr_matrix): y-direction component (unscaled)
288     """
289     nux = nx - 1
290     N = ny * nux # total number of u points
291
292     # --- x-direction Laplacian block (1D) ---
293     main_diag_x = -2 * np.ones(nux)
294     off_diag_x = np.ones(nux - 1)
295     Lux1D = diags([off_diag_x, main_diag_x, off_diag_x],
296     ↪ offsets=[-1, 0, 1], format='csr')
297
298     # 2D x-direction Laplacian using Kronecker product
299     Iy = identity(ny, format='csr')
300     Lux = kron(Iy, Lux1D, format='csr')
301
302     # --- y-direction Laplacian block (1D) with boundary handling
303     ↪ ---

```



```

300     main_diag_y = -2 * np.ones(ny)
301     main_diag_y[0] = -3
302     main_diag_y[-1] = -3
303     off_diag_y = np.ones(ny - 1)
304     Luy1D = diags([off_diag_y, main_diag_y, off_diag_y],
        ↪ offsets=[-1, 0, 1], format='csr')
305
306     # 2D y-direction Laplacian using Kronecker product
307     Ix = identity(nux, format='csr')
308     Luy = kron(Luy1D, Ix, format='csr')
309
310     # --- Combine the Laplacians ---
311     Lu = (1 / dx**2) * Lux + (1 / dy**2) * Luy
312
313     Su = np.zeros(N)
314     Su[(N-nux):] = 2*Utop /dy/dy
315     return Lu, Su, Lux, Luy
316
317 def generate_Lv(nx, ny, dx, dy):
318     """
319     Generate Laplacian operators for a staggered grid of size (ny-1)
        ↪ × nx (for v).
320
321     Parameters:
322         nx (int): Number of x grid points (including boundaries)
323         ny (int): Number of y grid points (including boundaries)
324         dx (float): Grid spacing in x-direction
325         dy (float): Grid spacing in y-direction
326
327     Returns:
328         Lv (csr_matrix): Combined Laplacian operator (1/dx2 Lvx +
        ↪ 1/dy2 Lvy)
329         Lvx (csr_matrix): x-direction component (unscaled)
330         Lvy (csr_matrix): y-direction component (unscaled)
331     """
332     nvx = nx
333     nvy = ny - 1
334     Nv = nvx * nvy # total number of v points
335

```

```

336     # --- x-direction Laplacian block (1D) with boundary treatment
337     ↪     ---
338     main_diag_x = -2 * np.ones(nvx)
339     main_diag_x[0] = -3
340     main_diag_x[-1] = -3
341     off_diag_x = np.ones(nvx - 1)
342     Lvx1D = diags([off_diag_x, main_diag_x, off_diag_x],
343     ↪     offsets=[-1, 0, 1], format='csr')
344
345     # 2D x-direction Laplacian using Kronecker product
346     Iy = identity(nvy, format='csr')
347     Lvx = kron(Iy, Lvx1D, format='csr')
348
349     # --- y-direction Laplacian block (1D) ---
350     main_diag_y = -2 * np.ones(nvy)
351     off_diag_y = np.ones(nvy - 1)
352     Lvy1D = diags([off_diag_y, main_diag_y, off_diag_y],
353     ↪     offsets=[-1, 0, 1], format='csr')
354
355     # 2D y-direction Laplacian using Kronecker product
356     Ix = identity(nvx, format='csr')
357     Lvy = kron(Lvy1D, Ix, format='csr')
358
359     # --- Combine the Laplacians ---
360     Lv = (1 / dx**2) * Lvx + (1 / dy**2) * Lvy
361
362     return Lv, Lvx, Lvy
363
364 def do_1st_RK_Step(u, v, dx, dy, dt, nu, A, A_hat, Iu, Iv, Lu, Lv,
365 ↪     Su, p, Utop, App):
366     #Variable Initialization
367     u0_int = u.copy()
368     v0_int = v.copy()
369     Hu0 = np.zeros_like(u0_int)
370     Hv0 = np.zeros_like(v0_int)
371     Ku_hat_int = np.zeros_like(u0_int)
372     Kv_hat_int = np.zeros_like(v0_int)
373
374     Uut = np.zeros_like(u)

```

```

372     Uvt = np.zeros_like(v)
373
374     p0 = p.copy()
375     Ku_hat = np.zeros_like(u) #[ny+2, nx+2]
376     Kv_hat = np.zeros_like(v) #[ny+2, nx+2]
377
378     u0_int = u[1:-1, 2:-1]
379     v0_int = v[2:-1, 1:-1]
380
381     Ku_hat, Kv_hat = compute_explicit(u, v, dx, dy)
382
383     Ku_hat_int = Ku_hat[1:-1, 2:-1] #[ny, nx-1]
384     Kv_hat_int = Kv_hat[2:-1, 1:-1] #[ny-1, nx]
385
386     Hu0 = u0_int + dt * A_hat[1,0] * Ku_hat_int #Only the interior
        → points of u and Ku_hat [ny, nx-1]
387     Hv0 = v0_int + dt * A_hat[1,0] * Kv_hat_int #Only the interior
        → points of v and Kv_hat [ny-1, nx]
388
389     Mu = Iu - nu * dt * A[0,0] * Lu #[ny * (nx-1), ny * (nx-1)]
390     Mv = Iv - nu * dt * A[0,0] * Lv #[(ny-1) * nx, (ny-1) * nx]
391
392     b0_int = Hu0.ravel() + nu * dt * A[0,0] * Su
393
394     Mpu = diags(1.0/Mu.diagonal()) # Jacobi preconditioner
395     Uu_vec, info = cg(Mu, b0_int, x0=u0_int.ravel(), rtol=1e-06,
        → M=Mpu)
396
397     Mpv = diags(1.0/Mv.diagonal()) # Jacobi preconditioner
398     Uv_vec, info = cg(Mv, Hv0.ravel(), x0=v0_int.ravel(),
        → rtol=1e-06, M=Mpv)
399
400     Uut_int = Uu_vec.reshape(u0_int.shape) #[ny, nx-1]
401     Uvt_int = Uv_vec.reshape(v0_int.shape) #[ny-1, nx]
402
403     Uut[1:-1, 2:-1] = Uut_int
404     Uvt[2:-1, 1:-1] = Uvt_int
405
406     Uut, Uvt = apply_BC(Uut, Uvt, Utop)
407

```

```

408     #dt0 = (A[0,0]) * dt
409
410     Uu, Uv, _, dpdx0, dpdy0, _ = pressure_correction(Uut, Uvt, App,
411         ↪ p0, dt, dx, dy, ml)
412     #print(f'dpdx0len = {np.shape(dpdx0)}')
413     Uu, Uv = apply_BC(Uu, Uv, Utop)
414
415     Ku, Kv = compute_implicit(Uu, Uv, nu, dx, dy)
416
417     #Ku[1:-1, 2:-1] = Ku[1:-1, 2:-1] - dpdx0
418     #Kv[2:-1, 1:-1] = Kv[2:-1, 1:-1] - dpdy0
419
420     return Ku, Kv, Uu, Uv, Ku_hat, Kv_hat
421
422 #===Check Point
423 ↪ setup=====
424 checkpoint_interval = 1000 # Save checkpoint every N steps
425 checkpoint_dir = os.path.join(script_dir, "checkpoints")
426 latest_checkpoint = None
427
428 #===Domain
429 ↪ Setup=====
430 lx, ly = 1.0, 1.0
431 nx, ny = 128,128
432 nelm = nx * ny
433 x = np.linspace(0, lx, nx)
434 y = np.linspace(0, ly, ny)
435 dx, dy = lx/nx, ly/ny
436 xx, yy = np.meshgrid(x, y)
437
438 print(f'dx = {dx}')
439
440 #===BC for
441 ↪ Pressure=====
442 App, ml = generate_Ap(nx, ny, dx, dy)
443 print(f'ml = {ml}')
444
445 #===IMEX
446 ↪ Paramethers=====
447 A = np.array([

```

```

443     [0.5,    0,    0,    0],
444     [1/6,    0.5,    0,    0],
445     [-0.5,   0.5,   0.5,   0],
446     [1.5,   -1.5,   0.5,   0.5]
447 ])
448 b = A[-1]
449 c = np.sum(A, axis=1)
450
451 # Explicit (A_hat, b_hat)
452 A_hat = np.array([
453     [0,    0,    0,    0, 0],
454     [0.5,   0,    0,    0, 0],
455     [11/18, 1/18, 0,    0, 0],
456     [5/6,  -5/6,  1/2,   0, 0],
457     [1/4,  7/4,  3/4, -7/4, 0]
458 ])
459 b_hat = A_hat[-1]
460 c_hat = np.sum(A_hat, axis=1)
461
462
463 #===Flow
464     ↪ parameters=====
465 Utop = 1.0
466 Ubot = 0.0
467 Vleft = 0.0
468 Vright = 0.0
469 Re = 100                # Reynolds number
470 nu = lx * Utop / Re     # Kinematic viscosity = 1 / Re, in practise
471
472 #===Time
473     ↪ parameters=====
474 t = 0.0
475 t_end = 10
476 nit = int(500)
477
478 dt = np.float64(t_end / nit)
479 print(f'dt = {dt}')
480 print(f'Nx=Ny = {nx}')
481
482 dt1 = 0.5/nu / (1.0/dx/dx + 1.0/dy/dy)

```

```

481 dt2 = 2.0 * nu / (Utop**2)
482
483 Lu, Su, _, _ = generate_Lu(nx, ny, dx, dy, Utop)
484 print(f'Lu = {Lu}')
485 Lv, _, _ = generate_Lv(nx, ny, dx, dy)
486 Iu = eye(ny * (nx-1))
487 Iv = eye((ny-1) * nx)
488 #print(f'Lu={Lu}')
```



```

489
490 # Initialize arrays
491 p = np.zeros([ny+2, nx+2])
492 u = np.zeros([ny+2, nx+2])
493 v = np.zeros([ny+2, nx+2])
494 u_old = np.zeros_like(u)
495 v_old = np.zeros_like(v)
496
497 u[-1,:] = Utop
498
499 p_int = np.zeros([ny, nx])
500 u_int = np.zeros([ny, nx-1])
501 v_int = np.zeros([ny-1, nx])
502
503
504 Ek0 = 1e-6
505 dV = dx * dy
506 Ek_store = [Ek0]
507 t_sim = [0.0]
508 s = A.shape[0]
509
510 residuals_u = []
511 residuals_v = []
512 residuals_p = []
513 residuals_Ek = []
514 residuals_omega = []
515
516 resNSu = []
517 resNSv = []
518 resNSp = []
519
520 Uwallt = [0.0]
```

```

521 Uwall_mean_history = [] # To store mean Uwall over time
522 residuals_Uwall = [] # To store residuals of Uwall
523 counter = 0
524
525 nsave = 5 #Number of time steps to save
526
527 if os.path.exists(checkpoint_dir):
528     checkpoint_files = sorted(glob.glob(os.path.join(checkpoint_dir,
529         ↪ "checkpoint_Re*.npz")))
529     if checkpoint_files:
530         latest_checkpoint = checkpoint_files[-1]
531
532 if latest_checkpoint:
533     print(f"Found checkpoint file: {latest_checkpoint}")
534     result = load_checkpoint(latest_checkpoint)
535     if result:
536         (t, u, v, p, Ek_store, t_sim, residuals_u, residuals_v,
537         ↪ residuals_p,
538         residuals_omega, residuals_Ek, Uwall_mean_history,
539         Re, nx, ny, dt, nu, Utop) = result
540
541     # Recreate grid parameters since they weren't saved
542     x = np.linspace(0, lx, nx)
543     y = np.linspace(0, ly, ny)
544     dx, dy = lx/nx, ly/ny
545     xx, yy = np.meshgrid(x, y)
546
547     # Reinitialize Ap, Ae, Aw, An, As arrays
548     Ap = np.zeros([ny+2, nx+2])
549     Ae = 1.0/dx/dx * np.ones([ny+2, nx+2])
550     Aw = 1.0/dx/dx * np.ones([ny+2, nx+2])
551     An = 1.0/dy/dy * np.ones([ny+2, nx+2])
552     As = 1.0/dy/dy * np.ones([ny+2, nx+2])
553
554     # Boundary conditions for pressure
555     Aw[1:-1, 1] = 0.0
556     Ae[1:-1, -2] = 0.0
557     An[-2, 1:-1] = 0.0
558     As[1, 1:-1] = 0.0
559     Ap = - (Ae + Aw + An + As)

```

```

559
560     # Set old variables for residual calculation
561     u_old, v_old, p_old = u.copy(), v.copy(), p.copy()
562     omega = np.zeros((ny, nx)) # Will be recalculated in first
    ↪ iteration
563     omega_old = omega.copy()
564     Uwall_old = abs(u[-1,1:] + u[-2,1:]) / 2
565     Ek0 = Ek_store[-1]
566
567     print(f"Restarted simulation from t={t:.4f}")
568     else:
569         print("Failed to load checkpoint, starting from scratch")
570         # Initialize as before
571     else:
572         print("No checkpoint found, starting new simulation")
573         # Initialize as before
574
575
576     #---IMEX-----
577     wall_times = [0.0]
578     cont_it = int(0)
579
580     start_time = time.time()
581     for cont_it in range(1, nit+1):
582
583         u, v = apply_BC(u, v, Utop)
584
585         ui_int = u[1:-1, 2:-1]
586         vi_int = v[2:-1, 1:-1]
587
588         K_hat = []
589         U = []
590         K = []
591
592         p0 = p.copy()
593
594         Ku0, Kv0, Uu0, Uv0, Ku_hat0, Kv_hat0 = do_1st_RK_Step(u, v, dx,
    ↪ dy, dt, nu, A, A_hat, Iu, Iv, Lu, Lv, Su, p0, Utop, App)
595
596         K_hat.append((Ku_hat0, Kv_hat0))

```



```

597     U.append((Uu0, Uv0))
598     K.append((Ku0, Kv0))
599
600     for i in range(1, s):
601         pi = p.copy()
602         Mui = Iu - nu * dt * A[i,i] * Lu
603         Mvi = Iv - nu * dt * A[i,i] * Lv
604
605         Kui_hat, Kvi_hat = compute_explicit(U[i-1][0], U[i-1][1],
        ↪ dx, dy)
606         K_hat.append((Kui_hat, Kvi_hat))
607
608         Zui = u + dt * A_hat[i+1, i] * K_hat[i][0]
609         Zvi = v + dt * A_hat[i+1, i] * K_hat[i][1]
610
611         for j in range(i):
612             Zui += dt * (A[i,j] * K[j][0] + A_hat[i+1,j] *
        ↪ K_hat[j][0])
613             Zvi += dt * (A[i,j] * K[j][1] + A_hat[i+1,j] *
        ↪ K_hat[j][1])
614
615         Zui_int = np.zeros([ny, nx-1])
616         Zvi_int = np.zeros([ny-1, nx])
617         Zui_int = Zui[1:-1, 2:-1]
618         Zvi_int = Zvi[2:-1, 1:-1]
619
620         bi_int = Zui_int.ravel() + nu * dt * A[i,i] * Su
621
622         # Use CG for both systems (consistent with first step)
623         Mpui = diags(1.0/Mui.diagonal()) # Jacobi preconditioner
624         Uui_vec, info_u = cg(Mui, bi_int, x0=ui_int.ravel(),
        ↪ rtol=1e-06, M=Mpui)
625
626         Mpvi = diags(1.0/Mvi.diagonal()) # Jacobi preconditioner
627         Uvi_vec, info_v = cg(Mvi, Zvi_int.ravel(),
        ↪ x0=vi_int.ravel(), rtol=1e-06, M=Mpvi)
628
629         Uuit_int = Uui_vec.reshape(Zui_int.shape) #[ny, nx-1]
630         Uvit_int = Uvi_vec.reshape(Zvi_int.shape) #[ny-1, nx]
631

```

```

632     Uuit = np.zeros_like(u)
633     Uvit = np.zeros_like(v)
634     Uuit[1:-1, 2:-1] = Uuit_int
635     Uvit[2:-1, 1:-1] = Uvit_int
636     Uuit, Uvit = apply_BC(Uuit, Uvit, Utop)
637
638     #dti = (A[i,i]) * dt
639
640     Uui, Uvi, _, dpdxi, dpdyi, _ = pressure_correction(Uuit,
641         ↪ Uvit, App, pi, dt, dx, dy, ml)
642
643     Uui, Uvi = apply_BC(Uui, Uvi, Utop)
644     U.append((Uui, Uvi))
645
646     Kui, Kvi = compute_implicit(Uui, Uvi, nu, dx, dy)
647
648     #Kui[1:-1, 2:-1] = Kui[1:-1, 2:-1] - dpdxi
649     #Kvi[2:-1, 1:-1] = Kvi[2:-1, 1:-1] - dpdyi
650
651     K.append((Kui, Kvi))
652
653     #Compute the last K_hat
654     Kus_hat, Kvs_hat = compute_explicit(U[-1][0], U[-1][1], dx, dy)
655     K_hat.append((Kus_hat, Kvs_hat))
656
657     uhast = u + dt * b_hat[-1] * K_hat[-1][0]
658     vhast = v + dt * b_hat[-1] * K_hat[-1][1]
659
660     for i in range(s):
661         uhast += dt * (b[i] * K[i][0] + b_hat[i] * K_hat[i][0])
662         vhast += dt * (b[i] * K[i][1] + b_hat[i] * K_hat[i][1])
663
664     # uhast_int = np.zeros([ny, nx-1])
665     # vhast_int = np.zeros([ny-1, nx])
666     # uhast_int = uhast[1:-1, 2:-1]
667     # vhast_int = vhast[2:-1, 1:-1]
668
669     u, v = apply_BC(u, v, Utop)
670     u, v, p, dpdxn, dpdyn, Rp = pressure_correction(uhast, vhast,
671         ↪ App, p.copy(), dt, dx, dy, ml)

```

```

670
671     u, v = apply_BC(u, v, Utop)
672
673     NS_u, NS_v = NS_operator(u_old, v_old, nu, dx, dy, dpdxn, dpdyn)
674
675     #NS_u, NS_v = compute_implicit(u, v, nu, dx, dy)
676     #NS_u[1:-1, 2:-1] = NS_u[1:-1, 2:-1] - dpdxn
677     #NS_v[2:-1, 1:-1] = NS_v[2:-1, 1:-1] - dpdyn
678     Ru = np.zeros([ny, nx+1])
679     Ru = np.zeros([ny+1, nx])
680
681     Ru = abs((u[1:-1, 2:-1]-u_old[1:-1, 2:-1])) / np.max(u_old[1:-1,
        ↪ 2:-1])
682     Rv = abs((v[2:-1, 1:-1]-v_old[2:-1, 1:-1])) / np.max(v_old[2:-1,
        ↪ 1:-1])
683
684     Uwalli = abs(u[-1,1:] + u[-2,1:]) / 2
685     Uwallt.append(Uwalli)
686
687     # Calculate and store mean Uwall
688     Uwall_mean = np.mean(Uwalli)
689     Uwall_mean_history.append(Uwall_mean)
690
691     #Vorticity Calculations
692     dvdx = np.zeros((ny, nx))
693     dudy = np.zeros((ny, nx))
694     omega = np.zeros((ny, nx))
695     # Calculate dvdx for all j and i at once
696     dvdx = (v[1:-1, 2:] - v[1:-1, :-2]) / (2 * dx)
697
698     # Calculate dudy for all j and i at once
699     dudy = (u[2:, 1:-1] - u[:-2, 1:-1]) / (2 * dy)
700
701     # Compute vorticity
702     omega = dvdx - dudy
703
704     ui_centers = 0.5*(u[1:-1,1:-1] + u[1:-1,2:]) # Average u to
        ↪ cell centers
705     vi_centers = 0.5*(v[1:-1,1:-1] + v[2:,1:-1])
706

```

```

707     Eki = 0.5 * np.sum(ui_centers**2 + vi_centers**2) / nelm
708     #tol = abs(Ek0 - Eki) / Ek0
709     Ek_store.append(Eki)
710
711     if len(Ek_store) > 1:
712         du = np.linalg.norm(u - u_old) / np.linalg.norm(u_old) if
            ↳ 'u_old' in locals() else 1.0
713         dv = np.linalg.norm(v - v_old) / np.linalg.norm(v_old) if
            ↳ 'v_old' in locals() else 1.0
714         dp = np.linalg.norm(p - p_old) / np.linalg.norm(p_old) if
            ↳ 'p_old' in locals() else 1.0
715         domega = np.linalg.norm(omega - omega_old) /
            ↳ np.linalg.norm(omega_old) if 'omega_old' in locals()
            ↳ else 1.0
716         dEk = abs(Ek0 - Eki) / Ek0 if len(Ek_store) > 1 else 1.0
717
718
719         residuals_u.append(du)
720         residuals_v.append(dv)
721         residuals_p.append(dp)
722         residuals_omega.append(domega)
723         residuals_Ek.append(dEk)
724
725
726         dur = np.max(np.abs(Ru)) # Maximum absolute residual for
            ↳ u-momentum
727         dvr = np.max(np.abs(Rv)) # Maximum absolute residual for
            ↳ v-momentum
728         dpr = np.max(np.abs(Rp)) # Maximum absolute residual for p
729         #dur = np.linalg.norm(NS_u)
730         #dvr = np.linalg.norm(NS_v)
731
732         resNSu.append(dur)
733         resNSv.append(dvr)
734         resNSp.append(dpr)
735
736     Ek0 = Eki
737     u_old, v_old, p_old = u.copy(), v.copy(), p.copy()
738     omega_old = omega.copy()
739     Uwall_old = Uwalli.copy()

```

```

740     counter += 1
741
742     current_wall_time = time.time() - start_time
743     wall_times.append(current_wall_time)
744
745     t = np.float64(cont_it * dt)
746     t_sim.append(t)
747     #Perform th final Post Processing
748
749 end_time = time.time()
750 elapsed_time = end_time - start_time
751
752 simtime_filename = f"simulation_time_Re{Re}_{nx}_{ny}_{dt:.4f}.txt"
753 simtime_path = os.path.join(script_dir, simtime_filename)
754
755 # Write the elapsed time to this new file
756 with open(simtime_path, 'w') as f:
757     f.write(f"Simulation elapsed time (seconds):
758     ↪ {elapsed_time:.2f}\n")
759     f.write(f"Re = {Re}, nx = {nx}, ny = {ny}, dt = {dt:.18f}\n")
760
761 print(f"Simulation time saved to {simtime_path}")
762 print(f"Total simulation time: {elapsed_time:.2f} seconds")
763
764 final_message = postProcess(u, v, dx, dy, nx, ny, lx, ly, x, y, xx,
765 ↪ yy, t, Re, nu, Utop, p, omega, Ek_store, residuals_u,
766 ↪ residuals_v, residuals_p, residuals_Ek, t_sim,
767 ↪ Uwall_mean_history, script_dir, resNSu, resNSv, resNSp, Ru, Rv,
768 ↪ Rp)
769
770 plt.figure()
771 plt.plot(t_sim, wall_times, label="Wall time vs Simulation time")
772 plt.xlabel("Simulation time [s]")
773 plt.ylabel("Wall time [s]")
774 plt.title("Simulation Time vs Wall Clock Time")
775 plt.grid(True)
776 plt.legend()
777 plt.tight_layout()
778 plt.savefig(os.path.join(script_dir,
779 ↪ f"wall_time_vs_sim_time_Re{Re}_{nx}_{ny}.png"), dpi=300)

```

```

774
775
776 # Save simulation time vs wall time vs Ek
777 sim_vs_wall_file = f"sim_vs_wall_Re{Re}_{nx}_{ny}_dt{dt:.4f}.txt"
778 sim_vs_wall_path = os.path.join(script_dir, sim_vs_wall_file)
779
780 with open(sim_vs_wall_path, 'w') as f:
781     f.write("SimulationTime,WallTime,Ek\n")
782     for sim_t, wall_t, ek in zip(t_sim, wall_times, Ek_store):
783         f.write(f"{sim_t},{wall_t},{ek}\n")
784
785 print(f"Simulation time vs wall time and Ek saved to
    ↪ {sim_vs_wall_path}")

```